



RKDF UNIVERSITY, BHOPAL

Open Distance Learning Program

Bachelor of Arts (B.A.)

Second Semester

Course – B.A. History

Course	Category	Subject	Subject Code
B.A.	Minor	History of India (1206AD to 1707AD)	BA HS -202
Total Credit: 6		Max.Marks:100 (Internal:40+External:60)	

Units	Topic	Duration (In Hours)	Marks
I	Delhi s saltant, Sources and dynasties I. sources of Medieval Indian history II. Establishment of Delhi saltant III. Slave dynasty IV. Khilji dynasty	18	20
II	I. Tughlaq dynasty II.Timur invastion and Sayyad dynasty III. Lodhi dynasty IV. Mangol invasion and their empact	19	20
III	Rise of regional kingdoms I. Vijay Nagar kingdom II. Bahmani kingdoms III. Malwa dynasty	18	20
IV	Establishment Consolidation of Mughal I. Babur . II. Humayun. III. Shershah suri . IV. Achivment and Administration	18	20
V	Mughal empire and regional powers I. Akbar: Administration and cultureal achievements. II. Jahangeer and Shahjahan: achievements. III. Aurangzeb: Administration and policies. IV.Mughal Trade & commerce.	18	20

****Note: Topic/ Topics in Bold Italic represent enhancements made by the college.***

Part- C Learning Resource

Text Books, Reference Books, Other Resources

Suggested Readings:

1. Majumdar, R.C. The History and Culture of Indian People Vol. 1. Vedic Age, Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954
2. Majumdar, R.C.. The History and Culture of Indian People Vol. II. The Age of Imperial Unity, Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954
3. Majumdar, R.C. The History and Culture of Indian People, Vol III. The Classical Age. Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954 \
4. Majumdar R.C. The History of Indian People, Vol IV, The Age Imperial Kanauj. Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954
5. Majumdar R.C. The History of Indian People, vol. V. The Struggle for Empire, Bhartiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1954
6. Jayaswal, Vidula: Bhartiya Itihas Ke Adi Chara ki Rooprekha, Delhi, 1987
7. Pandey, Rajbali: Prachin Bharat, Vishwavidyalaya Prakashan, Varanasi, 2010.
8. Raychaudhary, H.C. Political History of Ancient India) 1996. Also, in Hindi.
9. Sankalia, HD. Prehistory and Prohistory of India and Pakistan, Poona 1974
10. Sastri, K.A Nilakanta: A History of South India, from Prehistoric Times to the fall of Vijayanagar, Oxford University Press, 1955; Also, in Hindi.
11. Singh, Kripa Shankar: Rigveda, Harrappa Sabhiyata and Sanskrit Nirantana, Kitab Ghar publication, New Delhi, 2007.
12. Singh, Upinder: A history of Ancient and Early Medieval India, 2008, Pearson India, New Delhi, Hindi
13. Thapar, Romila: Early India from the Beginnings to 1300, London, 2002.
14. Tripathi R. S.: History of Ancient India, Motilal Banarasidas, Delhi. Also in Hindi

Suggestive digital platforms web links:

1. https://en.wikipedia.org/wiki/History_of_India
2. <https://knowindia.gov.in/culture-and-heritage/ancient-history.php>
3. <https://www.history.com/tag/india>
4. <https://byjus.com/free-ias-prep/ncert-ancient-history-notes/>
5. <https://www.clearias.com/indian-history-chronology/>
6. <https://www.jagranjosh.com/general-knowledge/history-of-ancient-india-a-complete-study-material-1464928278-1>
7. <https://sourcebooks.fordham.edu/india/indiasbook.asp>
8. <https://www.worldhistory.org/india/>
9. <https://asiasociety.org/india-historical-overview>

Bibliography

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Ashrafi, Anjum. *The Khilji and Tughlaq dynasties.* Shree Publishers, New Delhi, 2022

Husain, Agha M. . *Tughlaq dynasty.* Spink, Calcutta, 1963

Khan, Ahmad N. *Islamic architecture in South Asia: Pakistan, India, Bangladesh.* Oxford University Press, Karachi, 2003

Majumdar, R. C., ed. . *The Delhi Sultanate (1300-1526 AD).* vol 6. . Bharatiya Vidya Bhavan, Bombay, 1989

Mishra, Patit P. . " "Delhi Sultanate"." *Berkshire Encyclopedia of World History.* vol. 2. , edited by William H. McNeill, ed. Berkshire Publishing Group, Great Barrington, Massachusetts, 2005, 506-7.

Ramprakash Mathur. *Medieval Indian History.* Murari Lal & Sons, 1970.

Rani, Abha. *Tughlaq Architecture of Delhi.* Bharati Prakashan, Varanasi, 1991

Ray, Aniruddha. *The Sultanate of Delhi .* Routledge, 2019.

Unit 1-

Delhi s saltant, Sources and dynasties
I. sources of Medieval Indian history
II. Establishment of Delhi saltant
III. Slave dynasty
IV. Khilji dynasty

Sources of Medieval Indian history

1. Religious and Philosophical Texts:

- **Bhakti Literature:** Compositions by saints such as Kabir, Tulsidas, and Mirabai, which provide insights into the socio-religious life of the period.
- **Sufi Literature:** Works by Sufi poets and scholars such as Amir Khusro and Sheikh Farid, which reflect the syncretic culture and spiritual traditions of medieval India.

2. Historical Chronicles:

- **Rajatarangini** by Kalhana: A historical chronicle of the kings of Kashmir, providing a detailed narrative of the region's history up to the 12th century.
- **Tughlaqnama** by Amir Khusro: A chronicle detailing the reign of the Tughlaq dynasty.
- **Tarikh-i-Firuz Shahi** by Ziauddin Barani: A history of the Delhi Sultanate, particularly focusing on the reign of Sultan Firuz Shah Tughlaq.
- **Ain-i-Akbari** and **Akbarnama** by Abul Fazl: Comprehensive accounts of the reign of Akbar, including administrative details, court life, and cultural developments.

3. Biographies and Memoirs:

- **Baburnama** by Babur: The autobiography of the founder of the Mughal Empire, providing personal insights into his life and the early years of the Mughal rule.
- **Humayunnama** by Gulbadan Begum: A biography of Humayun written by his sister, offering a unique perspective on the Mughal court.

Inscriptions and Epigraphs

1. **Temple Inscriptions:** Found on the walls of temples, these inscriptions provide valuable information about the patronage, construction, and religious practices of the time. Examples include inscriptions from temples in South India such as the Chola temples.

2. **Copper Plate Grants:** These are records of land grants and administrative orders issued by kings and nobles, often detailing the conditions and beneficiaries of the grants.
3. **Stone Inscriptions:** These include edicts and proclamations by rulers, such as the edicts of Ashoka, which continued to be significant sources of historical data even in the medieval period.

Coins

1. **Numismatic Evidence:** Coins from various dynasties, including the Delhi Sultanate, the Mughal Empire, and regional kingdoms like the Cholas and the Vijayanagara Empire, provide insights into the economic conditions, trade, and governance.
2. **Inscriptions on Coins:** Often include the names and titles of rulers, minting details, and religious symbols, helping to establish chronological timelines and understand political and economic history.

Architecture and Monuments

1. **Religious Structures:** Temples, mosques, and other religious edifices reflect the architectural styles, patronage, and cultural influences of the period. Examples include the Qutub Minar, the Alai Darwaza, and the temples of Khajuraho.
2. **Forts and Palaces:** Structures like the Red Fort, Agra Fort, and the palaces of Rajasthan provide insights into the military architecture and the lifestyle of the ruling elite.
3. **Public Works:** Infrastructure projects such as roads, bridges, and waterworks commissioned by rulers, like the tank built by Sultan Firoz Shah Tughlaq, reflect the administrative priorities and technological capabilities of the time.

Travelers' Accounts

1. **Arab and Persian Travelers:** Accounts by travelers such as Al-Biruni, Ibn Battuta, and Al-Masudi offer external perspectives on Indian society, culture, and politics.
2. **European Travelers:** Later accounts by European travelers like Marco Polo, Niccolò de' Conti, and Duarte Barbosa provide detailed observations on trade, economy, and social practices.

Archival Records

1. **Administrative Documents:** Records of royal decrees, administrative orders, and correspondence preserved in archives, such as the Mughal administrative records.
2. **Farmans and Sanads:** Official decrees issued by rulers granting land, privileges, or titles, often preserved in family archives or temple records.

The sources of medieval Indian history are rich and varied, providing a multifaceted view of the period from roughly the 8th to the 18th century. These sources can be broadly categorized into literary, archaeological, numismatic, epigraphic, and foreign accounts. Here's a detailed look at these sources:

Literary Sources

1. Religious and Philosophical Texts:

- **Bhakti Literature:** Compositions by saints like Kabir, Tulsidas, and Mirabai, reflecting the socio-religious landscape.
- **Sufi Literature:** Works by poets and scholars such as Amir Khusro and Sheikh Farid, which highlight the spiritual and cultural syncretism of the period.

2. Historical Chronicles:

- **Rajatarangini** by Kalhana: Chronicles the history of Kashmir up to the 12th century.
- **Tughlaqnama** by Amir Khusro: Details the reign of the Tughlaq dynasty.
- **Tarikh-i-Firuz Shahi** by Ziauddin Barani: Chronicles the Delhi Sultanate, focusing on Sultan Firuz Shah Tughlaq.
- **Ain-i-Akbari** and **Akbarnama** by Abul Fazl: Comprehensive accounts of Akbar's reign, including administrative, cultural, and court life details.

3. Biographies and Memoirs:

- **Baburnama** by Babur: Autobiography of the Mughal Empire's founder, Babur.
- **Humayunnama** by Gulbadan Begum: Biography of Humayun, offering insights into the Mughal court from his sister's perspective.

4. Court Chronicles and Official Records:

- **Chachnama:** Chronicles the Arab conquest of Sindh.
- **Riyaz-us-Salatin:** History of Bengal under Muslim rule.

Archaeological Sources

1. Monuments and Buildings:

- **Temples:** Examples include the Brihadeeswarar Temple, Khajuraho temples, and Konark Sun Temple.
- **Mosques and Mausoleums:** Examples include the Qutub Minar, Alai Darwaza, and the tomb of Humayun.

2. Fortresses and Palaces:

- Examples include the Red Fort in Delhi, Agra Fort, and the forts of Rajasthan.

3. Public Works:

- Tanks, stepwells, and other water management structures, like the tank built by Sultan Firoz Shah Tughlaq.

Numismatic Sources

1. Coins:

- Coins from various dynasties, including the Delhi Sultanate, Mughal Empire, and regional kingdoms like the Cholas and the Vijayanagara Empire.
- Inscriptions on coins provide information about rulers, administrative divisions, and economic conditions.

Epigraphic Sources

1. Inscriptions:

- **Temple Inscriptions:** Found on the walls of temples, detailing patronage, construction, and religious practices.
- **Copper Plate Grants:** Records of land grants and administrative orders issued by kings and nobles.
- **Stone Inscriptions:** Edicts and proclamations by rulers, such as the inscriptions found in South Indian temples and forts.

Foreign Accounts

1. Arab and Persian Travelers:

- **Al-Biruni:** His works provide detailed descriptions of Indian society, culture, and science during the early medieval period.
- **Ibn Battuta:** His travel accounts offer a comprehensive view of the political and social conditions of the Delhi Sultanate.

2. European Travelers:

- **Marco Polo:** His accounts provide insights into the trade, economy, and culture of South India.
- **Niccolò de' Conti and Duarte Barbosa:** Their writings offer valuable information on the Vijayanagara Empire and coastal trade.

Archival Records

1. Administrative Documents:

- **Farmans and Sanads:** Official decrees issued by rulers, granting land, privileges, or titles.
- **Revenue Records:** Documents detailing land revenue assessments, tax collections, and agrarian conditions.

2. Letters and Correspondence:

- Letters exchanged between rulers, nobles, and foreign dignitaries provide insights into diplomatic relations, trade, and governance.

Conclusion

The sources of medieval Indian history encompass a wide range of literary, archaeological, numismatic, epigraphic, and foreign accounts. Each category of sources offers unique perspectives and valuable information, collectively providing a comprehensive understanding of the political, social, economic, and cultural dimensions of medieval India. These diverse sources help historians reconstruct the multifaceted history of this period, highlighting the complexity and richness of India's medieval past.

The establishment of the Delhi Sultanate was a significant event in Indian history, marking the beginning of Muslim rule in northern India. The causes for its establishment can be attributed to a combination of political, military, and social factors. Here is an overview of the key causes:

1. Decline of the Rajput Kingdoms

1. Fragmentation and Weakness:

- The Rajput kingdoms were divided and engaged in frequent conflicts with each other. This internal fragmentation made them vulnerable to external invasions.

- Lack of a unified front and coherent strategy weakened their ability to resist the invading forces effectively.
- 2. **Defensive Military Strategies:**
 - Rajput military strategies and tactics were primarily defensive, focused on protecting individual forts and territories rather than mounting coordinated counter-offensives.

2. Military Campaigns and Leadership of Muhammad Ghori

1. **Ambitious Expansion:**
 - Muhammad Ghori, a ruler from the Ghurid dynasty, was ambitious and aimed to expand his empire into the Indian subcontinent.
 - His military campaigns in the late 12th century were characterized by strategic planning and execution.
2. **Key Battles:**
 - **First Battle of Tarain (1191):** Initially, Prithviraj Chauhan defeated Muhammad Ghori. However, Ghori managed to retreat, regroup, and return with a stronger force.
 - **Second Battle of Tarain (1192):** Muhammad Ghori decisively defeated Prithviraj Chauhan, opening the path for further conquests in northern India.

3. Superior Military Tactics and Technology

1. **Effective Use of Cavalry:**
 - The Ghurid forces utilized highly mobile cavalry units, which were more effective in the open plains of northern India compared to the traditional Rajput infantry and elephant corps.
 - The use of mounted archers and horsemen provided a tactical advantage.
2. **Innovative Warfare Techniques:**
 - The invaders employed innovative tactics such as rapid mobility, coordinated assaults, and psychological warfare, which overwhelmed the Rajput defenders.

4. Political Instability and Fragmentation in Northern India

1. **Decay of Established Empires:**
 - The decline of the Gurjara-Pratihara Empire and the weakening of other regional powers like the Palas and Rashtrakutas created a power vacuum in northern India.
 - This political instability provided an opportunity for external forces to establish control.
2. **Local Alliances and Rivalries:**
 - The Ghurid invaders skillfully exploited local rivalries and formed alliances with discontented factions, which facilitated their conquests.

5. Establishment of Slave Generals and Administrative Reforms

1. **Role of Slave Generals:**
 - Muhammad Ghori appointed capable slave generals like Qutb-ud-din Aibak to govern and consolidate his conquests.
 - These generals were loyal, efficient, and played crucial roles in establishing and stabilizing Ghurid rule in India.
2. **Administrative Reforms:**
 - The introduction of centralized administrative systems helped in effectively managing newly conquered territories.
 - Efficient revenue collection, land management, and judicial systems facilitated the consolidation of power.

6. Legacy of Muhammad Ghori and Qutb-ud-din Aibak

1. Death of Muhammad Ghori:

- After Muhammad Ghori's assassination in 1206, his Indian territories came under the control of his slave general, Qutb-ud-din Aibak.
- Aibak declared independence and established the Mamluk Dynasty, marking the formal beginning of the Delhi Sultanate.

2. Founding of the Delhi Sultanate:

- Qutb-ud-din Aibak established his capital at Delhi, strategically located to control northern India.
- The establishment of the Delhi Sultanate marked the beginning of nearly three centuries of Muslim rule in northern India, characterized by subsequent dynasties like the Khaljis, Tughlaqs, Sayyids, and Lodis.

Conclusion

The establishment of the Delhi Sultanate was the result of a combination of internal weaknesses among Indian kingdoms, effective military strategies of the Ghurid invaders, and the administrative acumen of leaders like Qutb-ud-din Aibak. This period marked significant political, social, and cultural changes in the Indian subcontinent, setting the stage for future developments in Indian history.

The Slave Dynasty, also known as the Mamluk Dynasty, was the first Muslim dynasty to rule Delhi and parts of northern India. Founded by Qutb-ud-din Aibak, a former slave of Muhammad Ghori, the dynasty lasted from 1206 to 1290. Here are the key kings of the Slave Dynasty and their contributions to kingship:

1. Qutb-ud-din Aibak (1206-1210)

Qutb-ud-din Aibak was a prominent ruler during the medieval period in India and the founder of the Slave Dynasty, also known as the Mamluk Dynasty. Here's an overview of his reign and contributions:

Reign (1206-1210):

1. Establishment of the Delhi Sultanate:

- Qutb-ud-din Aibak declared himself the ruler of Delhi in 1206 after the death of his master and patron, Muhammad Ghori.
- His ascension marked the beginning of the Delhi Sultanate, which became a prominent Muslim kingdom in northern India.

2. Consolidation of Power:

- Aibak faced initial challenges from rival claimants to power and internal dissent within his administration.
- He swiftly suppressed revolts and consolidated his authority over Delhi and surrounding regions.

3. Administrative Reforms:

- Aibak introduced administrative reforms to strengthen governance and maintain law and order.
- He established a network of administrators and military commanders to govern the newly acquired territories.

4. Construction Projects:

- Aibak initiated several construction projects, including the construction of forts, mosques, and other public works.
- Notably, he began the construction of the Qutub Minar in Delhi, which would later become a symbol of the Sultanate's power and architectural prowess.

5. **Expansion of Territories:**

- During his reign, Aibak expanded the territorial boundaries of the Delhi Sultanate through military conquests and strategic alliances.
- He extended his rule into regions such as Rajasthan, Uttar Pradesh, and parts of Central India.

6. **Military Campaigns:**

- Aibak conducted military campaigns to subdue local rulers and establish control over their territories.
- His military strategies focused on mobility, cavalry warfare, and swift conquests, which proved effective in expanding the Sultanate's influence.

Legacy:

- Qutb-ud-din Aibak's reign laid the foundation for the Delhi Sultanate and established Muslim rule in northern India.
- His administrative reforms and construction projects contributed to the Sultanate's stability and cultural development.
- Aibak's military campaigns and conquests set the stage for further expansion and consolidation under subsequent rulers of the Slave Dynasty.

Despite his relatively short reign, Qutb-ud-din Aibak's contributions had a lasting impact on the political, cultural, and architectural landscape of medieval India, shaping the course of Delhi Sultanate's history for centuries to come.

- **Origins:** Aibak was a slave of Muhammad Ghori who rose to prominence in the Delhi Sultanate.
- **Kingship:** After Ghori's death, Aibak declared himself the ruler of Delhi in 1206, founding the Slave Dynasty.
- **Contributions:** He established his capital in Delhi and initiated the construction of prominent landmarks like the Qutub Minar. His reign focused on consolidating power and expanding the Sultanate's territories.

2. Aram Shah (1210-1211)

- **Successor:** Aram Shah succeeded his father, Qutb-ud-din Aibak, but his reign was short-lived and marked by internal conflicts.
- **Challenges:** Aram Shah faced opposition from rival factions and commanders within the Sultanate, leading to his overthrow by Iltutmish.

3. Iltutmish (1211-1236)

Iltutmish was the first Muslim ruler to rule from Delhi and that's why he was regarded as the **effective founder of the Delhi Sultanate**. He was also the first Sultan of India to be recognised by the **Khalifa**. He was successful in protecting Delhi's throne from Mongol invasion as well as Yeldoos and Qubacha attacks. He shattered the Rajput powers in the north and established his dominance over them. He made his rule hereditary, issued coins in his honour, and made Delhi a beautiful capital. He was a patron of art and architecture and built numerous mosques in Delhi. In this article, we will discuss the Important Ruler of the Mamluk Dynasty **Iltutmish (1211 - 1236 AD)**

- **Iltutmish** was a slave of the Sultan of Delhi, **Qutubuddin Aibek**.
- His father was a high-ranking noble of the **Turkish Ilbari tribe**.
- He was eventually purchased at a phenomenal price by Qutubuddin Aibek in Delhi.
- Iltutmish received a good education and a broad knowledge of the Islamic world during the early days of his hardship.
- That is why, within a decade, he rose to become **amir-e-shikar and son-in-law** of his master.
- Soon, he became governor of the **iqtas of Gwalior and Baran** (Bulandshahar).
- In 1206, he was one of Aibek's most dependable lieutenants, commanding Badaun.
- The Turkish nobility of Delhi did not support Aram Shah's hereditary succession as he was an inept and unpopular ruler.
- They invited Iltutmish of Badaun to succeed them as Sultan.
- **Aram Shah** refused to abdicate but was defeated and dethroned in 1211 by Iltutmish.

Achievements and Expansion of Empire

Defeat of Yildiz

- **Taj al-Din Yildiz**, a former slave who claimed to be the rightful successor to the Ghurid emperor, ruled the **Ghurid capital of Ghazni**.
- Yildiz declared to Iltutmish that he was the true successor of **Mu'izz ad-Din** and thus had claims to the former Ghurid territories in India.
- Iltutmish offered to negotiate if both men arrived at the meeting unaccompanied by warriors.
- Yildiz refused the offer, resulting in a **battle at Tarain** on January 25, 1216, which Iltutmish won.
- Yildiz was later taken to Iltutmish's stronghold of **Badaun** and murdered.
- The success of Iltutmish in this conflict bolstered the Delhi Sultanate's independence.

Defeat of Qabacha

- **Qabacha** was another serious threat to Iltutmish rule.
- However, his power had been reduced by the simultaneous attacks of **Yeldoz and Mangabarni**.
- Taking the advantage of his situation, Iltutmish decided to launch an all-out assault on Qabacha
- He dispatched two armies, one from Lahore to attack Multan and the other from Delhi to invade Uch.
- During the **capture of Uch**, Qabacha sought refuge in the fort of Bhakkar, which was besieged by the Delhi Army.
- Finally, with no other options, he committed suicide by drowning in the Indus River. As a result, Sind and Multan were absorbed into the Delhi Sultanate's empire.

Annexation of Bihar and Bengal

- During the reign of Qutb-ud-din Aibak, province Bengal was under the authority of the Delhi Sultan.
- However, after the death of Aibak, Bengal declared independence.
- Iltutmish, on the other hand, was preoccupied with the western frontier provinces and had no time to devote to Bengal.

- Soon after the death of **Qabacha**, he considered invading Bengal and sent an expedition to Bengal.
- **Sultan Ghiyasuddin** was the ruler of Bengal at the time.
- Sultan Ghiyasuddin submitted without a fight, acknowledged Delhi's suzerainty, and agreed to pay the annual tribute.
- But, within a short time, **Ghiyasuddin** revolted once more and declared Bengal independent.
- Iltutmish sent another expedition and killed Sultan Ghiyasuddin and made **Nasiruddin Mahmud** as governor of Bengal.
- Following Nasiruddin's departure, there was another rebellion in Bengal led by **Malik Balka Khalji**.
- In 1230 AD, Iltutmish personally went to Bengal and killed Malik Balkha Khalji, and annexed Bengal to the Delhi Empire.

Other Conquests of Iltutmish

- Iltutmish re-annexed many states which declared independence after the death of Aibak such as Ranthambore, Gwalior, Ajmer, Bayana, Jalor, Mander Kalinjar, Thangir.
- In 1231 AD, **Kanauj and Benaras** were reoccupied.
- He annexed **Malwa and Ujjain** to his empire in 1239 A.D.
- As a result, Iltutmish expanded the Turkish empire in India to the size it was during Aibak's reign.

Architecture

Architecture During Iltutmish's Reign

- Iltutmish was a patron of art and architecture and built numerous mosques, waterworks and civic amenities in Delhi.
- He finished the **Qutb Minar**, which **Qutb al-din Aibak** had begun.
- He also built the **Hauz-i-Shamsi** reservoir south of Qutub Minar, as well as the madrasa (school) that surrounds it.
- He constructed several **khanqah (monasteries) and dargahs (graveyards)** for Sufi saints.
- He began construction on **Hamid ud-din's Khanaqa** and built the **Gandhak ki Baoli**, a stepwell for the Sufi saint **Qutbuddin Bakhtiar Kaki**, who moved to Delhi during his reign.
- In 1231, he erected the **Sultan Ghari** funerary monument in memory of his eldest son Nasiruddin, who died two years earlier

Death of Iltutmish

- As a result of continuous military operations, Iltutmish became ill in 1235 AD.
- During his last expedition against **Bayana**, he became ill and was immediately brought to Delhi for treatment.
- But he could not recover from such illness, and after a year of struggling with life, he breathed his last in 1236.
- He was laid to rest in **Mehrauli's Qutub complex**.
- With his death, the country lost a great ruler, and the long twenty-five-year glorious reign of the Delhi Sultanate came to an end.

Conclusion

Iltutmish established the Turks' absolute kingship in northern India. He was a military dictator similar to Aibek, but with the difference that all power was concentrated in his own hands. He personally appointed all central ministers and regional military governors. He forbade the Turkish nobility from interfering in state affairs beyond certain limits. He completed the Qutub Minar and rejoiced in his association with the sufi saints of the time. During his last expedition against Bayana, he became ill and after a year of struggle with life, he breathed his last in 1236.

- Origins: Iltutmish was a slave of Qutb-ud-din Aibak and rose to power after the overthrow of Aram Shah.
- Kingship: He strengthened the administrative structure of the Sultanate, introduced reforms, and successfully defended the realm against external threats.
- Achievements: Iltutmish's reign saw the formal establishment of the Delhi Sultanate as a significant political power in India.

4. Rukn-ud-din Firuz (1236)

- Successor: Rukn-ud-din Firuz, Iltutmish's eldest son, briefly ascended to the throne after his father's death but was assassinated within months.
- Short Reign: His reign was marked by instability and political intrigue, leading to his overthrow by his own mother, Shah Turkan.

5. Razia Sultan (1236-1240)

Introduction

Razia Sultan was the one of the strongest rulers of the entire Delhi sultanate. She was the first Muslim ruler who ruled the northern part of India. She is also the only Muslim woman who becomes ruler of the Delhi sultanate. She was born in 1205 at Badaun and died on 15 October 1240 at Kaithal, Delhi Sultanate. Her full name was, “Sultan Raziyat-Ud-Dunya Wa Ud-Din”. Although her regional name was “Jalâlat-ud-Dîn Razia .” She was the fifth sultan of Delhi. She was the wife of Ikhtiyaruddin Altuna. She belonged to the Sunni Islam religion and was a brave lady in Indian history.

Razia Sultan was the daughter of Delhi sultan Mamluk Sultan Shamsuddin Iltutmish. The father of the Razia sultan had handed over the whole administration to her when he was engaged in the campaign of Gwalior. In this time, she maintained the whole administration from 1231–1232. When the father of the Razia sultan came back to Delhi, he was impressed with her work. Due to this, Iltutmish nominated the Razia sultan as an heir apparent of the Delhi sultanate. Iltutmish also has a younger brother named Ruknuddin Firoz Shah, and her mother, Shah Turkan, was very clever. Shah Turkan makes the Razia sultan the ruler of the

Delhi sultanate. But, her brother Ruknuddin Firoz Shah neglected to accept her as a ruler. So, Razia Sultan planned a rebellion against her half-brother. Some of the Delhi sultanate officials supported her, while some opposed her. She defeated all her opposition and started building her power.

In April 1236, she became the ruler of the Delhi sultanate. After ruling for less than four years in Delhi, she was removed by Ruknuddin Firoz Shah. After that, she got married to Ikhtiaruddin Altuna. She again tried to defeat her half-brother, but Ruknuddin Firoz Shah and his successor Muizuddin Bahram killed her badly in October 1240.

Razia Sultan was a great women leader of the Delhi sultanate. The public of the Delhi sultanate called her a Raziyya and Raḍiyya. In the period when she ruled the Delhi sultanate, she launched her coin named Sultan Jalalat al-Duniya wal-Din.

Ascension of Razia sultan to the throne

The Mamluk Sultan Shamsuddin Iltutmish had declared his eldest son Nasiruddin Mahmud as the successor of his throne. But unexpectedly, Nasiruddin Mahmud died in the year 1229. Iltutmish, also considered his younger son Ruknuddin Firoz Shah, was addicted to pleasurable activities. Hence, he considered that his younger son could not handle the big empire. But, when he monitored the performance of the Razia sultan after coming from the campaign of Gwalior, he declared her as the next ruler of the Delhi sultanate. But many officials of the Delhi sultanate opposed the decision of Iltutmish. But he proved her daughter more capable in comparison to his sons. Some historians also consider that the Iltutmish accepted his younger brother as the next ruler in the last days of his life. Some consider that the Razia sultan does not rule the Delhi sultanate, and it was just a story told by her supporters. Many officials accept her as a ruler because of her capabilities, and some do not. Instead of various difficulties, she becomes the first Muslim woman of India who rules the Delhi sultanate. She died in 1240, and her burial was located in the Bulbul Khana near Turkman Gate, Delhi.

- Origins: Razia Sultan, the daughter of Iltutmish, became the first and only female ruler of the Delhi Sultanate.
- Kingship: She inherited the throne after the death of her brother Rukn-ud-din Firuz and ruled with determination and authority.
- Contributions: Razia Sultan implemented administrative reforms, promoted religious tolerance, and sought to strengthen the Sultanate's military capabilities.

6. Muiz-ud-din Bahram (1240-1242)

- Successor: Bahram, also known as Ala ud din Masud, succeeded Razia Sultan after her overthrow but faced challenges to his rule.

- **Short Reign:** His reign was marked by instability and revolts, leading to his eventual overthrow by the nobility.

Conclusion:

The kings of the Slave Dynasty played significant roles in shaping the early phase of Muslim rule in India. Their reigns were characterized by efforts to consolidate power, establish administrative structures, and defend the Sultanate against internal and external threats. While some rulers faced challenges and instability, others made lasting contributions to governance and kingship in medieval India.

The Khilji dynasty, also known as the Khalji dynasty, ruled over the Delhi Sultanate from 1290 to 1320. This period marked a significant chapter in medieval Indian history, characterized by both military expansion and administrative reforms. Here's an overview of the Khilji dynasty and its administration under notable rulers:

1. Jalal-ud-din Khalji (1290-1296):

Jalal-ud-din Khalji, the founder of the Khalji dynasty, ruled over the Delhi Sultanate from 1290 to 1296. His reign was characterized by efforts to stabilize the Sultanate after the turmoil following the decline of the preceding Slave Dynasty. Here's an exploration of Jalal-ud-din Khalji's origins, administration, and military campaigns:

Origins:

Jalal-ud-din Khalji's origins are traced to the Khalji tribe of Turkic descent. He was born in the town of Khalaja near the Ghor province in present-day Afghanistan. Before ascending the throne, Jalal-ud-din served as a prominent military commander under the previous Sultan, Muiz-ud-din Qaiqabad, of the Slave Dynasty. After Qaiqabad's death, Jalal-ud-din took advantage of the political instability and seized power, establishing the Khalji dynasty in 1290.

Administration:

Jalal-ud-din Khalji's administration focused on maintaining stability and consolidating power within the Sultanate. Some key aspects of his administration include:

1. **Reconciliation Policies:** Jalal-ud-din adopted a conciliatory approach towards the nobility and other power centers within the Sultanate. He sought to win the support of influential factions by granting them positions of authority and maintaining cordial relations with local rulers.
2. **Religious Tolerance:** He pursued a policy of religious tolerance, allowing non-Muslim communities to practice their faith freely. This approach helped in fostering social harmony and stability within the Sultanate.
3. **Justice and Governance:** Jalal-ud-din emphasized the importance of justice and good governance. He appointed competent officials to administer justice and oversee the affairs of the state. His administration aimed to ensure fairness and efficiency in the delivery of services to the people.

Military Campaigns:

Jalal-ud-din Khalji's military campaigns were primarily focused on consolidating his authority and defending the Sultanate against external threats. Some notable military campaigns during his reign include:

1. **Defense against Mongol Invasions:** Jalal-ud-din faced the threat of Mongol invasions from the northwest. He deployed his forces to repel Mongol incursions and safeguard the frontiers of the Sultanate. His efforts helped in preventing the Mongols from gaining a foothold in the region.
2. **Border Conflicts:** Jalal-ud-din dealt with border conflicts with neighboring kingdoms and regional powers. He conducted military campaigns to assert the Sultanate's authority over disputed territories and maintain control over strategic regions.
3. **Pacification of Internal Revolts:** Jalal-ud-din Khalji also had to suppress internal revolts and rebellions within the Sultanate. He deployed his forces to quell unrest and maintain law and order in various parts of the realm.

Conclusion:

Jalal-ud-din Khalji's reign as the first ruler of the Khalji dynasty was marked by efforts to stabilize the Sultanate and consolidate power. His administration focused on reconciliation, religious tolerance, and efficient governance. Despite facing challenges from external threats and internal unrest, Jalal-ud-din's military campaigns helped in defending the Sultanate and maintaining its territorial integrity during his brief reign.

- **Origins:** Jalal-ud-din Khalji ascended to the throne after overthrowing the last ruler of the Slave Dynasty, Muiz-ud-din Qaiqabad.
- **Administration:** He focused on consolidating power and maintaining stability within the Sultanate.
- **Military Campaigns:** Jalal-ud-din faced external threats from the Mongols and conducted military campaigns to defend the Sultanate's territories.
- **Religious Tolerance:** He was known for his policy of religious tolerance, which helped in maintaining harmony among diverse religious communities.

2. Alauddin Khalji (1296-1316):

Alauddin Khalji, one of the most powerful rulers of the Khalji dynasty, ascended the throne of the Delhi Sultanate in 1296 after a coup against his uncle, Jalal-ud-din Khalji. His reign, from 1296 to 1316, was marked by significant administrative reforms, military conquests, and economic policies aimed at centralizing power and expanding the Sultanate's territories. Here's an exploration of Alauddin Khalji's origins, administration, military campaigns, and wars:

Origins:

Alauddin Khalji was born into the Khalji tribe, a Turkic group of Central Asian origin. His father, Shihabuddin Mas'ud, was a prominent member of the Khalji clan. Alauddin rose to

prominence as a military commander under his uncle Jalal-ud-din Khalji. After orchestrating a successful coup against Jalal-ud-din, Alauddin seized power and established himself as the Sultan of Delhi in 1296.

Administration:

Alauddin Khalji's administration was characterized by centralization of power, ruthless governance, and pragmatic policies. Some key features of his administration include:

1. **Centralization of Authority:** Alauddin centralized power in his own hands, weakening the influence of the nobility and other power centers within the Sultanate. He established a highly centralized administrative structure, with himself as the supreme authority.
2. **Market Regulations:** Alauddin implemented strict market regulations to control prices and prevent hoarding of essential commodities. His market reforms aimed to ensure adequate food supply for the capital and maintain stability in the economy.
3. **Revenue Reforms:** He introduced the Dahsala system, a revenue assessment system based on measurement of agricultural land and fixed taxation rates. This helped in increasing state revenue and strengthening the Sultanate's finances.
4. **Military Organization:** Alauddin reorganized the Sultanate's military, creating a standing army known as the Newiki. He recruited soldiers from diverse backgrounds and implemented strict discipline and training to maintain a formidable military force.

Military Campaigns:

Alauddin Khalji's military campaigns were aimed at expanding the territorial boundaries of the Delhi Sultanate and consolidating his authority. Some significant military campaigns during his reign include:

1. **Conquests in North India:** Alauddin launched military expeditions to conquer territories in North India, including Gujarat, Rajasthan, and parts of Uttar Pradesh. His conquests helped in expanding the Sultanate's influence and establishing control over strategic regions.
2. **Deccan Campaigns:** He conducted successful military campaigns in the Deccan region, capturing forts and territories in present-day Maharashtra, Karnataka, and Andhra Pradesh. His Deccan campaigns extended the Sultanate's control to southern India.
3. **Defense against Mongol Invasions:** Alauddin repelled Mongol invasions from the northwest, deploying his forces to defend the Sultanate's frontiers and prevent incursions into Indian territory.

Wars and Attacks:

Alauddin Khalji's reign was marked by several wars and military attacks, both offensive and defensive. Some notable conflicts include:

1. **Siege of Chittor (1303):** Alauddin launched a military campaign against the Rajput kingdom of Chittor in present-day Rajasthan. The siege resulted in the capture of the fortress and annexation of the territory into the Sultanate.

2. Siege of Ranthambore (1301): Alauddin besieged the Rajput fortress of Ranthambore and eventually captured it after a prolonged siege. The conquest of Ranthambore strengthened the Sultanate's control over the region.
3. Mongol Invasions: Alauddin repelled several Mongol invasions from Central Asia, conducting defensive campaigns to safeguard the Sultanate's borders and prevent Mongol incursions into Indian territory.

Conclusion:

Alauddin Khalji's reign as Sultan of Delhi was marked by ambitious administrative reforms, military conquests, and wars aimed at expanding the Sultanate's territories and consolidating his authority. His pragmatic governance and military prowess left a lasting impact on the Delhi Sultanate, shaping its political, economic, and military landscape for generations to come.

Alauddin Khalji's market policy, also known as the "Market Reforms" or "Price Control Measures," was a significant aspect of his administration aimed at regulating prices and ensuring a stable supply of essential commodities within the Delhi Sultanate. These policies were implemented to address economic challenges, particularly during times of scarcity and inflation. Here's an overview of Alauddin Khalji's market policy:

Context:

During Alauddin Khalji's reign, the Delhi Sultanate faced economic instability due to factors such as droughts, famines, and disruptions in trade routes. These conditions led to price fluctuations, hoarding of goods by merchants, and scarcity of essential commodities, threatening the stability of the Sultanate's economy and food security.

Market Regulations:

Alauddin Khalji introduced several market regulations and price control measures to address these challenges:

1. Price Control: Alauddin implemented strict price controls on essential commodities, including grains, pulses, cloth, and other consumer goods. Maximum price limits were set for these items to prevent merchants from charging exorbitant prices during times of scarcity.
2. State Monopoly: The Sultanate established state-controlled markets (diwan-i-riyasat) where essential commodities were bought and sold under the supervision of government officials. This allowed the state to regulate prices and ensure fair distribution of goods to the population.
3. Prohibition of Hoarding: Alauddin prohibited hoarding of essential commodities by merchants and traders. Strict penalties were imposed on those found guilty of hoarding, including confiscation of goods and heavy fines.
4. Supply Chain Management: The Sultanate implemented measures to streamline the supply chain of essential commodities, including transportation and distribution networks. Roads and trade routes were maintained to ensure the smooth flow of goods from production centers to markets.

5. **Public Granaries:** Alauddin established public granaries (sarkari anaj mandis) to store surplus grains during times of plenty. These granaries served as a buffer against shortages and helped in stabilizing prices during periods of scarcity.

Impact:

Alauddin Khalji's market policy had several consequences and impacts on the economy and society of the Delhi Sultanate:

1. **Stabilization of Prices:** The price control measures implemented by Alauddin helped in stabilizing prices of essential commodities, ensuring affordability for the general population, particularly during times of crisis.
2. **Reduction of Speculation:** The prohibition of hoarding and state control over markets reduced speculation and profiteering by merchants, ensuring a fair distribution of goods and preventing artificial price inflation.
3. **Food Security:** The establishment of public granaries and efficient supply chain management contributed to food security and mitigated the impact of famines and shortages on the population.
4. **Centralization of Authority:** Alauddin's market policy centralized economic authority in the hands of the state, strengthening the Sultanate's control over economic affairs and enhancing royal revenue.

Criticism and Legacy:

While Alauddin Khalji's market policy was effective in addressing immediate economic challenges, it also faced criticism from some quarters. Critics argued that the strict price controls and state intervention in the economy stifled entrepreneurship and innovation, leading to a decline in economic activity in the long run.

Nevertheless, Alauddin Khalji's market policy left a lasting legacy in the Delhi Sultanate's economic history. It demonstrated the Sultanate's capacity to intervene in economic affairs and manage market forces for the benefit of the population. Additionally, the market regulations implemented by Alauddin laid the groundwork for subsequent economic policies and administrative reforms in the Sultanate.

- **Reign:** Alauddin Khalji, one of the most powerful rulers of the Khilji dynasty, ascended to the throne after assassinating his uncle Jalal-ud-din.
- **Centralized Administration:** Alauddin implemented a highly centralized administrative system, concentrating power in the hands of the Sultan.
- **Military Campaigns and Expansion:** He conducted successful military campaigns to expand the territorial boundaries of the Sultanate, including conquests in Gujarat, Ranthambore, Malwa, and Deccan.
- **Market Reforms:** Alauddin introduced market regulations to control prices and prevent hoarding of essential goods, known as the market reform (Diwan-i-Riyasat).
- **Revenue Reforms:** He instituted revenue reforms, including the introduction of the measurement of agricultural land (Dahsala System) and revenue assessment based on the produce.

- **Military Organization:** Alauddin strengthened the Sultanate's military organization, particularly the standing army (Newiki), and introduced reforms in recruitment, pay, and discipline.

3. Qutb-ud-din Mubarak Shah (1316-1320):

- **Reign:** Qutb-ud-din Mubarak Shah, also known as Khusro Khan, became the Sultan after assassinating Alauddin's son, Sultan Qutb-ud-din Khilji.
- **Administration:** His reign was marked by political instability and conflicts within the ruling elite.
- **End of the Khilji Dynasty:** The assassination of Qutb-ud-din Mubarak Shah in 1320 marked the end of the Khilji dynasty, paving the way for the Tughlaq dynasty to ascend to power.

Administrative Features of the Khilji Dynasty:

1. **Centralization of Power:** The Khilji rulers centralized administrative authority, concentrating power in the hands of the Sultan.
2. **Military Expansion:** The dynasty pursued an aggressive military policy, leading to the expansion of the Delhi Sultanate's territorial boundaries.
3. **Economic Reforms:** Alauddin Khalji's economic reforms aimed to strengthen the economy and increase state revenue through market regulations and revenue assessments.
4. **Efficient Governance:** The Khilji rulers implemented administrative measures to maintain law and order, ensure revenue collection, and strengthen the Sultanate's administrative machinery.

Overall, the Khilji dynasty made significant contributions to the Delhi Sultanate's administration, military prowess, and territorial expansion, shaping the course of medieval Indian history during their rule.

Unit 2-

I. Tughlaq dynasty

II. Timur invasion and Sayyad dynasty

III. Lodhi dynasty

IV. Mongol invasion and their impact

The Tughlaq Dynasty (1320-1413) For Prelims: Tughlaq Dynasty For Mains: Muhammad bin Tughlaq's Experiments, Policies Taken by Firoz Shah Tughlaq, Agrarian Reforms & Changes in Nobility During the Reign of Muhammad Tughlaq After the Khilji dynasty, the Tughlaq dynasty (1320-1413) came to power in Delhi. The Tughlaq dynasty formed an important period in the history and culture of the Sultanate. Economic life accelerated due to the establishment of karkhanas or factories, and irrigated canals facilitated agriculture. Inland and maritime trade increased and quickened the process of urbanization. Urban centers, schools, mosques, and public buildings also proliferated. Who were the Important Rulers of the Tughlaq Dynasty? Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq (Ghazi Malik) The founder of the Tughlaq dynasty was Ghazi Malik who ascended the throne as Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq in AD 1320. After a brief rule, he died in AD 1325 and his son Muhammad Tughlaq ascended to the throne. Under the Tughlaqs the Delhi Sultanate was further consolidated. Many outlying territories were brought under the direct control of the Sultanate. He built the fortress city of Tughlaqabad which was the capital and a strong fortress designed for defense. Muhammad Bin Tughlaq He became the Sultan of Delhi after his father's death, even though he has been blamed for his father's death by some historians. The Sultan believed in the Divine Right theory of kingship. Following a liberal policy, he appointed officials irrespective of caste, creed, or religion. He also did not discriminate against his Hindu subjects. He undertook a policy of conquest and sent expeditionary forces to Khurasan, Nagarkot, Qarajal, Mewar, Telingana, and Malabar. Diplomatic relations were established with many Asian countries. His empire was the most extensive one among the medieval Sultans. He constructed the

Royal residence of Jahanpanah along with the Begumpuri mosque. Firoz Shah Tughlaq The cousin of Muhammad Tughlaq, Feroz (or Firuz) Shah Tughluq, ascended the throne in 1351 and ruled until 1388. Although not a capable military leader like his predecessors, the Sultan was a great builder of cities, monuments, and public buildings. The Sultan imposed the four taxes sanctioned by Islamic laws, including a tax on non-Muslims. His campaign to Jajnagar (Odisha) in 1361 destroyed the famous Puri Jagannatha temple. What were the Achievements of Firoz Shah? Firoz Shah Tughlaq worked majorly for the development of infrastructure in his kingdom. Diwan-i-Khairat: Office for charity Diwan-i-Bundagan: Department of slave Sarais (Rest House): For the benefit of merchants and other travellers Four New Towns: Firozabad, Fatehabad, Jaunpur and Hissar He constructed canals from: Yamuna to the city of Hissar Sutlej to the Ghaggar Ghaggar to Firozabad Mandvi and Sirmour Hills to Hansi in Haryana Taxes imposed under Firoz Shah Tughlaq: Kharaj: Land tax which was equal to one-tenth of the produce of the land Zakat: Two and a half percent tax on property realised from Muslims Kham: One-fifth of the booty captured (four-fifth was left for the soldiers) Other Taxes: The irrigation tax, garden tax, octroi tax and the sales tax What were Muhammad bin Tughlaq's Experiments? Transfer of Capital Next to Alauddin Khalji, Muhammad bin Tughlaq (1324 - 1351) is best remembered as a ruler who undertook a number of bold experiments and showed a keen interest in agriculture. The most controversial step that Muhammad Tughlaq undertook soon after his accession was the so-called transfer of the capital from Delhi to Deogir (later renamed as Daulatabad). Only the upper classes, such as the shaikhs, nobles, and ulema, were required to move to Daulatabad, while the rest of the population remained in Delhi. Eventually, due to growing discontent and the realisation that it was difficult to control the northern territories from the south, Muhammad bin Tughlaq decided to abandon Daulatabad as the capital. It helped in bringing North and South India closer together by improving communications. Many people, including religious divines who had gone to Daulatabad, settled down there. They became the means of spreading in the Deccan the cultural, religious and social ideas which the Turks had brought with them to north India. This resulted in a new process of cultural interaction between North and South India, as well as in South India itself. Token Currency Another controversial project undertaken by Muhammad bin Tughlaq was the introduction of "Token Currency". According to Barani, the Sultan introduced token currency because the treasury was empty due to the Sultan's schemes of conquest as well as his boundless generosity. There was a shortage of silver in the world in the fourteenth century and India had to face the crisis. Therefore, the Sultan was forced to issue copper coins instead of silver. He introduced a

copper coin (Jittal) instead of a silver coin (tanka) and ordered that it be accepted as equivalent to the tanka. However, the idea of token currency was new in India and was difficult for traders and common people to accept. The State also did not take proper precautions to check the imitation of coins issued by mints. The government could not prevent people from forging new coins and soon new coins flooded the markets. According to Barani, the people began to mint token currency in their houses. However, the common man failed to distinguish between copper coins issued by the royal treasury and those which were locally made. Thus, the Sultan was forced to withdraw the token currency.

Khurasan & Qarachil Expedition

In the early 14th century, the Delhi Sultanate under Muhammad bin Tughluq embarked on several military expeditions to secure its frontiers and resolve boundary disputes. The Khurasan expedition aimed to establish more defensible frontiers in the west. However, this expedition did not materialize. Qarachil expedition was an attempt to resolve a boundary dispute with neighboring hill states that were under Chinese influence. However, this expedition ended in failure. Despite this setback, there was later diplomatic communication between China and Delhi.

What Agrarian Reforms & Changes in Nobility Took Place During the Reign of Muhammad Tughlaq?

Agrarian Reforms: Muhammad Tughlaq

undertook a number of measures to improve agriculture. Most of these were tried out in the Doab region. Muhammad Tughlaq did not believe in Alauddin Khalji's policy of trying to reduce the khuts and muqaddams (headmen in the villages) to the position of ordinary cultivators. But he did want an adequate share of the land revenue for the state. The measures he advocated had a long-term impact, but they failed disastrously during his reign. Right at the beginning of Muhammad Tughlaq's reign, there was a serious peasant rebellion in the Gangetic doab due to over-assessment. Peasants fled the villages and Muhammad Tughlaq took harsh measures to capture and punish them. A severe famine that ravaged the area for half a dozen years made the situation worse. Efforts at relief by giving advances for cattle and seeds, and for digging wells came too late. So many people died in Delhi that the air became pestilential. The sultan left Delhi and for two and half years lived in a camp called Swargadwari, 100 miles from Delhi on the banks of the Ganges near Kanauj. After returning to Delhi, Muhammad Tughlaq launched a scheme to extend and improve cultivation in the doab. He set up a separate department called diwan-i-amiri-kohi. The area was divided into development blocs headed by an official whose job was to extend cultivation by giving loans to the cultivators and to induce them to cultivate superior crops—wheat in place of barley, sugarcane in place of wheat, grapes and dates in place of sugarcane, etc. The scheme failed largely because the men chosen for the purpose proved to be inexperienced and dishonest,

and misappropriated the money for their own use. Muhammad Tughlaq had died in the meantime, and Firoz had written off the loans. But the policy advocated by Muhammad Tughlaq for extending and improving cultivation was not lost. It was taken up by Firoz, and even more vigorously later on by Akbar. Challenges of a Diverse Nobility: Another problem that Muhammad Tughlaq had to face was the problem of the nobility. With the downfall of the Chahalgani Turks and the rise of the Khaljis, the nobility was drawn from Muslims belonging to different races, including Indian converts. Muhammad Tughlaq entertained people who did not belong to noble families but belonged to castes such as barbers, cooks, weavers, wine-makers, etc. He even gave them important offices. His nobility consisted of descendants of Muslim converts, including a few Hindus, as well as foreign appointees. This diverse composition led to a lack of cohesiveness and loyalty among the nobles. The vast empire provided opportunities for rebellion and the establishment of independent spheres of authority. Muhammad Tughlaq's harsh punishments further fueled this trend. As a result, his reign marked both the zenith of the Delhi Sultanate and the beginning of its disintegration.

How did Firoz Shah Tughlaq Rise to Power? During Muhammad Tughlaq's reign, there were repeated rebellions across his empire, particularly in South India. These uprisings were organised by local governors and caused significant strain on his armies. Muhammad Tughlaq's forces were further weakened by a devastating plague, resulting in the death of two-thirds of his army. After returning from south India, another rebellion led by Harihara and Bukka led to the establishment of the Vijayanagara Empire, while foreign nobles in the Deccan formed the Bahmani Empire. Bengal also gained independence. Although Muhammad Tughlaq managed to suppress rebellions in Awadh, Gujarat, and Sind, he ultimately died in Sind and was succeeded by his cousin, Firuz Tughlaq. Since Muhammad Tughlaq's policies created discontent among the nobles, army, and influential Muslim theologians and Sufi saints. After ascending to power, Firoz Tughlaq faced the challenge of preventing the disintegration of the Delhi Sultanate. He pursued a policy of appeasement towards the nobles, army, and theologians while asserting authority over easily manageable areas. He did not attempt to regain control over South India and the Deccan.

What were the Policies Taken by Firoz Shah Tughlaq? Firoz Tughlaq was not a remarkable military leader, but his reign brought a period of peace and gradual development. He implemented a decree allowing the succession of positions and iqta (land grants) to the sons, sons-in-law, and slaves of deceased nobles. He abolished the practice of torturing nobles and officials during account audits. These measures pleased the nobles and minimised rebellions. However, the policy of hereditary offices and iqta had long-term drawbacks. It limited the recruitment of competent

individuals outside a small circle and made the sultan dependent on a narrow oligarchy. He extended the principle of heredity to the army, allowing old soldiers to be replaced by their sons, sons-in-law, or slaves. Soldiers were no longer paid in cash but instead received assignments on land revenue from villages. Consequently, soldiers did not benefit in the long run, and the military administration became lax, and corruption increased. He aimed to appease the theologians by proclaiming himself a true Muslim king and emphasising that his state was truly Islamic. Since the time of Iltutmish, there had been a conflict between the orthodox theologians and the sultans regarding the nature of the state and its policies towards non-Muslims. To maintain the theologians' satisfaction, some were appointed to high offices, although the judiciary and educational system remained under their control. He boycotted the practices in the kingdom, the scholars deemed un-Islamic. He was the one who started the imposition of Jaziya. Firuz Tughlaq was the first ruler who took steps to have Hindu religious works translated from Sanskrit into Persian, so that there may be a better understanding of Hindu ideas and practices. Many books on music, medicine and mathematics were also translated from Sanskrit into Persian during his reign.

The Tughlaq dynasty was a medieval Muslim dynasty that ruled over the Delhi Sultanate in the Indian subcontinent from 1320 to 1414. It was founded by Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq and is known for its ambitious military campaigns, administrative reforms, and architectural patronage. Here's an overview of the Tughlaq dynasty:

Origins:

The founder of the Tughlaq dynasty, Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq, was a Turkish slave of the Khalji dynasty. He served as a provincial governor under Alauddin Khalji and rose to prominence after the decline of the Khalji dynasty. Ghiyasuddin established the Tughlaq dynasty after assuming the throne in 1320 following the death of the last Khalji ruler.

Reign of Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq (1320-1325):

Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq (1320-25): Founder of the Tughlaq dynasty

After ascending to the Delhi throne, Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq adopted a sustained and vigorous forward policy. Thus started the expansion of the Delhi sultanate's borders.

In 1321, he sent his eldest son Ulugh Khan (later known as Muhammad bin Tughlaq), to Deogir to plunder the Hindu kingdoms of Warangal. But this first attempt was a failure.

Four months later, Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq sent large army reinforcements for his son asking him to attempt plundering Arangal and Tilang again and this time Ulugh Khan succeeded.

- Arangal fell, was renamed Sultanpur, and the wealth and treasury were plundered and the captives were transferred from Warangal to the capital of Delhi Sultanate.

This was followed by the conquest and annexation of Mabar (Tamil Nadu coast). After this, Ulugh Khan raided Odisha and returned to Delhi with rich plunder. By 1324, the borders of the Delhi sultanate had reached up to Madurai. In 1328, the last Hindu principality of the area, Kampili (south Karnataka) was also annexed.

Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq, the founder of the Tughlaq dynasty, ruled over the Delhi Sultanate from 1320 to 1325. His reign marked the beginning of a new chapter in the history of the Sultanate, characterized by ambitious military campaigns, administrative reforms, and architectural patronage. Here's an overview of Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq's reign:

Origins and Ascension:

- Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq was a Turkish slave of the Khalji dynasty who rose to prominence as a provincial governor under Alauddin Khalji.
- After the decline of the Khalji dynasty, Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq seized power and established himself as the Sultan of Delhi in 1320.
- He founded the Tughlaq dynasty, which would rule over the Delhi Sultanate for nearly a century.

Administrative Reforms:

- Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq introduced administrative reforms aimed at centralizing power and strengthening the Sultanate's authority.
- He expanded the administrative apparatus of the Sultanate, establishing new revenue systems and appointing loyal officials to key positions.
- Ghiyasuddin sought to consolidate the Sultanate's control over its territories and ensure efficient governance throughout the realm.

Military Campaigns:

- Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq conducted military campaigns to expand the territorial boundaries of the Sultanate.
- His conquests included territories in Bengal, Punjab, and South India, as he sought to extend the influence of the Sultanate across the Indian subcontinent.
- However, his reign was also marked by conflicts with neighboring kingdoms and rebellions within the Sultanate, which posed challenges to his authority.

Infrastructure Projects:

- Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq initiated several infrastructure projects aimed at enhancing the Sultanate's prosperity and security.
- He oversaw the construction of canals, forts, and public buildings, contributing to the development of Delhi as a prominent urban center.
- These architectural endeavors reflected Ghiyasuddin's vision for the Sultanate's growth and prosperity under his rule.

Conclusion:

Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq's reign as the founder of the Tughlaq dynasty marked a period of transition and consolidation for the Delhi Sultanate. His administrative reforms, military

campaigns, and infrastructure projects laid the foundation for the subsequent expansion and development of the Sultanate under his successors. Despite the challenges he faced during his brief reign, Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq's contributions left a lasting impact on the history and legacy of the Delhi Sultanate.

- **Administration:** Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq introduced administrative reforms aimed at centralizing power and strengthening the Sultanate's authority. He expanded the administrative apparatus, established new revenue systems, and appointed loyal officials to key positions.
- **Military Campaigns:** Ghiyasuddin conducted military campaigns to expand the territorial boundaries of the Sultanate. His conquests included territories in Bengal, Punjab, and South India. However, his reign was also marked by conflicts with neighboring kingdoms and rebellions within the Sultanate.
- **Infrastructure Projects:** Ghiyasuddin initiated several infrastructure projects, including the construction of canals, forts, and public buildings. His architectural patronage contributed to the development of Delhi as a prominent urban center.

Muhammad bin Tughlaq (1325-1351):

Muhammad bin Tughlaq, the son of Ghiyasuddin Tughlaq, ascended the throne of the Delhi Sultanate in 1325 after the death of his father. His reign, from 1325 to 1351, is one of the most fascinating and controversial periods in the history of the Sultanate. Muhammad bin Tughlaq's rule was marked by ambitious administrative reforms, military campaigns, and grandiose projects. Here's an overview of his reign:

Administrative Reforms:

- Muhammad bin Tughlaq implemented ambitious administrative reforms aimed at centralizing power and improving governance.
- He introduced several innovative measures, including the introduction of token currency (Tanka and Jital), land reforms, and a system of controlled prices for essential commodities.
- Muhammad bin Tughlaq's administrative reforms were characterized by their ambitious scope and intention to modernize and streamline the Sultanate's administration.

Military Campaigns:

- Muhammad bin Tughlaq conducted military campaigns to expand the territorial boundaries of the Sultanate and assert its dominance over neighboring kingdoms.

- His military campaigns included expeditions to the Deccan region, Central Asia, and the Gangetic plains. However, many of these campaigns were marred by logistical challenges, setbacks, and limited success.
- Despite some initial victories, Muhammad bin Tughlaq's military campaigns faced resistance from local rulers and failed to achieve lasting conquests in many regions.

Relocation of the Capital:

- One of the most controversial decisions of Muhammad bin Tughlaq's reign was the relocation of the capital from Delhi to Daulatabad (in present-day Maharashtra) in 1327.
- The relocation was intended to centralize authority and protect the Sultanate from Mongol invasions. However, the move proved to be highly impractical and unpopular among the populace.
- Muhammad bin Tughlaq eventually reversed the decision and returned the capital to Delhi after facing logistical and administrative challenges in Daulatabad.

Economic Policies:

- Muhammad bin Tughlaq's economic policies, including the introduction of token currency and controlled prices, aimed to stabilize the economy and address fiscal challenges.
- However, many of these policies faced opposition and were poorly implemented, leading to economic disruptions and hardships for the population.

Legacy:

- Muhammad bin Tughlaq's reign is often remembered for its grandiose projects, ambitious reforms, and controversial decisions.
 - While his administrative innovations and military campaigns showcased his vision and ambition, they also highlighted the limitations of centralized authority and the complexities of governing a diverse and vast empire.
 - Muhammad bin Tughlaq's reign left a lasting impact on the history of the Delhi Sultanate, serving as a cautionary tale about the perils of overreach and the challenges of governance in medieval India.
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- **Administrative Reforms:** Muhammad bin Tughlaq implemented ambitious administrative reforms, including the introduction of token currency, land reforms, and a system of controlled prices for essential commodities. However, many of these reforms faced opposition and were eventually abandoned.
 - **Military Campaigns:** Muhammad bin Tughlaq conducted military campaigns to expand the Sultanate's territories, including expeditions to the Deccan and Central Asia. His attempts to annex the Deccan and repel Mongol invasions were largely unsuccessful.
 - **Relocation of the Capital:** Muhammad bin Tughlaq famously relocated the capital of the Sultanate from Delhi to Daulatabad (in present-day Maharashtra) in an attempt to centralize authority and protect the Sultanate from Mongol invasions. However, this decision proved to be unpopular and was eventually reversed.

Later Tughlaq Rulers:

- The later rulers of the Tughlaq dynasty faced challenges such as regional rebellions, administrative inefficiency, and economic instability. The dynasty gradually declined in power and influence.
- The last Tughlaq ruler, Nasiruddin Mahmud Shah Tughlaq, was overthrown by the Sayyid dynasty in 1414, marking the end of Tughlaq rule in the Delhi Sultanate.
- The Tughlaq dynasty left a lasting legacy in Indian history through its administrative reforms, military conquests, and architectural patronage.
- Despite facing criticism for their ambitious projects and administrative failures, the Tughlaq rulers played a significant role in shaping the political and cultural landscape of medieval India.

The **Tughlaq Dynasty** (also spelt Tughluq), ruled the Delhi sultanate from 1320 to 1413. Followed by the Khalji dynasty and preceded by the Sayyids, the Tughlaq dynasty formed an important period in the history and culture of the Sultanate. Economic life accelerated due to the establishment of karkhanas or factories, and irrigated canals facilitated agriculture. Inland and maritime trade increased and quickened the process of urbanization. Urban centers, schools, mosques, and public buildings also proliferated.

The Delhi Sultanate

In 1192 the victory of Muhammed of Ghur over the Rajput King, Prithviraj Chauhan III (r. c. 1177-1192) led to an alien rule being established in the Indian subcontinent. Shamsuddin Iltutmish (r. 1210-1236) styled himself as Sultan in 1206, and the Delhi Sultanate continued until 1526 when Ziauddin Babur (1483–1530) defeated Ibrahim Lodi (r.1517-1526). The Delhi Sultanate's rulers followed the Islamic faith.

A period of consolidation began in the 13th century. Queen Raziya (r. 1236-1240), the first woman Muslim ruler of **India**, received from her father Iltutmish a vast kingdom. Ghiyasuddin Balban (r. 1265-1286) ruled with an iron hand with the divine right theory of kingship. The Khalji period (1290- 1320) marked the beginning of the ascendancy of Indian Muslims and their **empire** even extended up to southern India. The rule by the Tughlaqs, Sayyids (1414-1451), and Lodis (1451-1526) witnessed the gradual weakening of the Delhi Sultanate.

THE NEW TECHNIQUE OF INDO-ISLAMIC ARCHITECTURE WITNESSED THE CONSTRUCTION OF BEAUTIFUL ARCHES, DOMES & GARDENS.

There was religious harmony among ordinary people, although there was conflict among elites. The Sufi and Bhakti saints emphasized religious harmony and the equality of humankind. The new technique of Indo-Islamic architecture witnessed the construction of beautiful arches, domes, and gardens. The Urdu language was emerging with the amalgamation of dialects of Hindi and Persian. There was also a proliferation of vernacular **literature**. There was, too, an exchange of diplomatic missions, even with **China**.

Thus, the reign of the Delhi Sultans formed a crucial period in the history of the Indian subcontinent.

The contemporary historical writings of Ziauddin Barani (Tarikh-i-Firuz Shahi and Fatwa-i-Jahandari), **Ibn Battuta** (The Rihla), and Shams Siraj Afif (Tarikh-i-Firuz Shahi) provide source materials for studying different aspects of the Delhi Sultanate.

Ghiyasuddin Tughluq

Ghiyasuddin Tughluq (aka Ghiyath al-Din Tughluq, r. 1320-1325) was the founder of the Tughluq dynasty. He was governor of the northwest provinces at the time of Nasiruddin Khusrav Shah (r. 1320), a **Hindu** convert. The Turk tribes did not reconcile to the rule of a converted Muslim as they believed in the superiority of the Turkish race. Ghiyasuddin gathered around him the nobility and became the Sultan after deposing Khusrav. He suppressed the recalcitrant Hindu Rajas and undertook a policy of territorial aggrandizement. In 1323, the Telingana kingdom in south India was annexed. The Tughluq army plundered Jajnagar in Odisha. East and south Bengal were incorporated into the Sultanate while north Bengal remained a vassal state under Nasiruddin Ibrahim.



Map of the Delhi Sultanate under the Tughlaqs
Arab Hafez (Public Domain)

As a capable military commander, the Sultan revamped the army organization making it **battle-ready**. The soldiers were well-looked and Ghiyasuddin pursued a paternalistic policy towards **peasants**. Agriculture was also improved and revenue officers were explicitly ordered not to be harsh with cultivators. Means of communication also improved a great deal. Bridges, roads, and canals were constructed. The postal system became more efficient. The Sultan had a fair sense of justice and he prohibited inhuman punishment, but thieves and corrupt revenue officials were not spared. On a personal level, the Sultan was a strict disciplinarian and strict follower of Islamic laws, eschewing alcohol as well as worldly pleasures.

The Sultan died in 1325 due to the collapse of a wooden pavilion built in his honour. It was believed that his son, Jauna Khan had a hand in the accident. On the whole, Ghiyasuddin was a successful Sultan. He had extended the kingdom's boundaries, looked after the people's welfare, and filled up the state treasury.

Muhammad Bin Tughluq

Muhammad Bin Tughluq (r. 1325-1351) became the Sultan of Delhi after his father's **death**, Ghiyasuddin Tughluq even though he has been blamed for his father's death by some historians. The Sultan believed in the Divine Right theory of kingship. Following a liberal policy, he appointed officials irrespective of caste, creed, or **religion**. He also did not discriminate against his Hindu subjects. Muhammad Tughluq undertook a policy of **conquest** and sent expeditionary forces to Khurasan, Nagarkot, Qarajal, Mewar, Telingana, and Malabar. Diplomatic relations were established with many Asian countries. His empire was the most extensive one among the medieval Sultans.



Coin of Muhammad Bin Tughluq
CNG Coins (CC BY-SA)

The projects of the Sultan were far ahead of his time but these often failed due to improper execution and the unpopularity of the schemes. The creation of another capital in Daultabad, taxation in the Doab region, introduction of token currency, etc., created great hardship for his subjects and invited opposition. With the best of intentions, the Sultan's experiments were grand failures. His reign period witnessed dissent and rebellions. The governors of the northwestern province and Bengal were given harsh punishments. Independent kingdoms

came into existence, such as Malabar, Vijayanagar, and Bhamani. At the time of his death in 1351, the disintegration of the Delhi Sultanate had already begun. Although he had ruled over a vast empire, the Sultan was not able to hold it together. The learned, liberal and tolerant Sultan, the most controversial figure of medieval India, failed as a ruler. He was not schizophrenic as has been alleged but, averse to any advice, the Sultan could not measure his subjects' pulse.

Feroz Shah Tughluq

The cousin of Muhammad Tughluq, Feroz (or Firuz) Shah Tughluq, ascended the throne in 1351 and ruled until 1388. Although not a capable military leader like his predecessors, the Sultan was a great builder of **cities**, monuments, and public buildings. The Sultan imposed the four taxes sanctioned by the Islamic laws, including a tax on non-Muslims, *Jeziya*. Depending on the priestly classes or the ulemas, the state was intolerant towards the zimmmis (non-Muslims) and the Shias. His campaign to Jajnagar (Odisha) in 1361 destroyed the famous Puri Jagannatha **temple**. Firuz did not attempt to retrieve the territories lost in the previous reign and his military organization was fragile. His fondness for keeping a large retinue of slaves resulted in the depletion of the state coffers.

Firuz, a patron of learning, established 30 madrasas (Islamic schools) and three colleges. Although intolerant of the Hindus, he ordered the translation of religious scriptures into Persian. His humanitarian measures included the building of orphanages and charitable hospitals. His construction activity included establishing scores of towns, undertaking irrigation works, and digging public wells. Firuz took special care in maintaining and repairing famous monuments like the Qutb Minar, Jama masjid, and mausoleums of some of the earlier sultans. Jaunpur, Hissar, Fatehabad, and Firozpur were just some of the urban centers which thrived in the Sultan's reign. Firuz resided in the newly built **city** of Firuzabad in Delhi, and its ruins, Firoz Shah Kotla, are extant. The Sultan's last days were not happy due to civil wars and in-fighting over the future of the throne; the death of his eldest son Faterh Khan in 1374 made him almost senile. His grandson Tughluq Shah (r. 1388-1389) became the next Sultan after his death.



Tomb of Feroz Shah Tughluq
Nvvchar (CC BY-SA)

The Last Tughluq Sultans

The experiments of Muhammad Tughluq, the weakness of Firuz, the incompetent successors that followed, the depletion of state resources, and the wars in south India were all responsible for the ultimate downfall of the Tughluq dynasty. Tughlaq Shah was assassinated by nobles proclaiming loyalty to his cousin, **Abu Bakr** Shah (r.1389-1390). Muhammad Shah (r. 1390-1393) in turn, deposed **Abu** Bakr. By the time of the ruler Mahmud Nasiruddin (r. 1393-1394), the Tughluq Empire covered an area of just seven miles from Delhi to Palam. Alauddin Sikandar, son of Muhammad Shah then ruled for some months in 1394. His younger brother Nasir Muhammad Shah (r.1394-1412) was the last member of the Tughlaq dynasty. The sack and plunder of Delhi by the **Mongol** chief Timur (1336-1405) in 1398 was the last blow from which the dynasty did not recover.

Indo-Islamic Architecture under the Tughluqs

Islamic architecture had developed considerably from the first Islamic building of Kaba and the Grand Mosque surrounding it. When **Islam** came to the Indian subcontinent, a new era began. Islam was confronted with an existing style of architecture that was very old and developed. Gradually, there was a synthesis of Hindu and Muslim styles, and Indo-Islamic architecture developed its own identity. The city of Delhi was the primary focus of the architecture of the Sultanate.

Indo-Islamic architecture developed further under the Tughluqs. Among the imposing structures built by the Sultans were the city of Tughlaqabad, Firozabad, the **tomb** of Firuz, and others. Ghiyasuddin Tughluq built the fortress city of Tughlaqabad in Delhi between 1321 and 1325. It was the capital, and a strong fortress designed for defense. The **palace**-

fortress enclave was constructed by checking the Jamuna river flow, resulting in the creation of an artificial lake, which surrounded the city in the eastern direction of the fort. Tughlaqabad occupied a massive area of rectangular shape, encompassed by walls ranging from 15 to 30 meters with a thickness of about 10 meters. The bastions having two stories and gargantuan towers, surrounded the palace, audience halls, tombs, and mosque. The sloping walls, called batter, were a novelty of Tughlaqabad.



Tughlaqabad Fort
Rangan Datta Wiki (CC BY-SA)

The mausoleum of Ghiyasuddin Tughluq was located on the southern side of the fortress. Built by the Sultan, the tomb is in the shape of a pentagon surrounded by fortified walls with an angle of 75 degrees. Built of red sandstone with a dome of white marble, the archways present a perfect combination of arch and beam, blending the trabeate and arcuate method. The interior, containing the sarcophagus, has a single chamber surmounted by a dome.

A legend mentions the discord between the Sultan and the Sufi saint, Khwaja Nazimuddin Auylia (1236-1325), which was responsible for the demise of the Thughalaqbad. Ghiyassuddin could not reach the capital from Bengal and was killed when the wooden pavilion built in his honour collapsed. The Sultan did not permit the workers to be employed by the Saint, who uttered the famous prophecy, *Hunuz Dilli dur ast* (Delhi is yet far away).

Muhammad Tughluq constructed the Royal residence of Jahanpanah along with the Begumpuri mosque. Another passionate builder, Firuz Shah Tughluq constructed many towns, mosques, reservoirs, pavilions, and bridges. His newly built fortress city of Firoz Shah Kotla is extant amid ruins. The old fort-city of Tughlaqabad was abandoned, and the new capital city of Firoz Shah Kotla was constructed with a rectangular plan of about 800 by 400 metres (2624 x 1312 ft). A fortified stone **wall** surrounded the town with the main entrance on the western side. It encompassed the quarters of the guards and soldiers, a rectangular-shaped Mahall-i Bari Amm (Palace of the Public Court), and a square pillared hall for transacting the private business of the Sultan. On rectangular and square-shaped courts stood residential quarters of the Royalty, Hawa Mahall (palace of the winds), Kushk-i-Shikar (hunting place), mosque pigeon-tower, *baoli* (stepped well), and exquisite gardens with running water and fountains. The Sultan's abode was Kushk-i-Feroze. Friday prayers were offered in the public mosque or Jami masjid, with its spacious courtyard and series of cells.



Begumpur Masjid
Varun Shiv Kapur (CC BY)

One of the city's unique features is the pillar of Mauryan Emperor **Ashoka** (r. c. 268 - c. 232 BCE), raised on a three-tiered **pyramid**-like structure. It was removed from its original location in the Topra district of Ambala, Haryana. The pillar, encased in reed and raw animal skins, was moved with the help of a 42-wheel carriage drawn by about 200 people. On the banks of the river Jamuna, it was ferried and carried to the present location. In 1356, stone friezes were placed around it.

Finally, the Feroz Shah Kotla has been used as a cricket ground by the Delhi District Cricket Association since November 1948. The **stadium** was named after Arun Jaitley, an Indian politician, in 2019.

The period of the Tughluqs forms an important period in the history and culture of the Delhi Sultanate. Economic life accelerated due to the establishment of *karkhanas* or factories (trading centers) by Firuz. The inland and maritime trade increased and quickened the process of urbanization. Urban centers, schools, mosques, and public buildings also proliferated. The contemporary historical writings of Ziyauddin Barani (*Tarikh-i-Firuz Shahi* and *Fatwa-i-Jahandari*) and Shams Siraj Afif (*Tarikh-i-Firuz Shahi*) provide additional source materials for studying different aspects of the Delhi Sultanate.

Timur's Invasion

Timur (9 April 1336 – 17–19 February 1405) was a **Turco-Mongol conqueror** who established the **Timurid Empire** in modern-day Afghanistan, Iran, and Central Asia, becoming the **Timurid dynasty's first ruler**. Timur invaded northern India in 1398, attacking the Delhi Sultanate, which was ruled by the Tughlaq dynasty's Sultan **Nasir-ud-Din**

Mahmud Shah Tughluq. He sacked Tulamba and massacred its inhabitants after crossing the Indus River on September 30, 1398. Then he advanced further and by October, had captured Multan.

- Background

- **Timur Lane** was an **uzbek Mongol chieftain** who embraced Islam and claimed to be a descendant of Genghis Khan.
- In 1380, when Feroz Shah's successors were feuding and threatening to destroy the empire, he invaded India from the north and demolished the centralised rule of Delhi.
- In 1398, he destroyed the Turkish Sultanate of Delhi and ordered the execution of at least 50,000 captives prior to the battle of Delhi, and around 100,000 Delhi residents were taken as slaves after the battle.
- It is estimated that Timur's army slaughtered up to 100,000 natives. Timur marched all the way to the Ganges, but problems in Western Asia forced him to return.
- Timur retired to Samarqand after invading and plundering Delhi, leaving behind a large number of Uzbek genes throughout North India.
- Timur and his Mongol-Turkish hordes overran Persia, Khorasan, Jurjan, Afghanistan, and Azerbaijan during these invasions, earning Tamerlane the moniker "**Prince of Destruction.**"
- At the age of 33, Timur became the leader of the **Chaghtai Turks** and conceived the concept of world conquest. After conquering Persia, Afghanistan, and Mesopotamia, he turned his attention to India.
- Early in 1398, he dispatched his **grandson Pir Muhammad**, who led an army of 30,000 horses. He crossed the Indus River and conquered Uch and Multan.
- Timur marched towards India with a large force of 92,000 cavalry in August 1398.
- When he arrived in Delhi, Muhammad Shah, the last ruler of the Tughlaq family, was the sultan.
- Timur arrived in Delhi as a conqueror in 1399. He agreed to spare the lives of the citizens in exchange for a large ransom.
- However, the soldiers' conduct in collecting provisions prompted the Hindus to rebel, and Timur then ordered a general massacre, destroying Delhi.
- Timur did not stay in Delhi for long, and he left with a large number of slaves and booty after 15 days.
- He appointed **Khizar Khan as governor of Multan, Lahore, and Dipalpur**, leaving tales of horror and destruction, as well as famine and pestilence, behind him.
- When Timur left India, the country was in chaos. Famine and pestilence struck as a result of the total destruction of grain stores and standing crops, and it took Delhi more than a half-century to recover from the devastation.
- Thousands of innocent people had been brutally murdered, many cities and large villages had been reduced to ashes, and provincial administration had been completely disrupted.

Effects of Timur's Invasion

- Timur's invasion had far-reaching political, cultural, and economic consequences for the history of the Subcontinent. Timur destroyed and pillaged cities in India, leaving famine and pestilence in his wake.
- He took enormous wealth with him and left the people impoverished and helpless.
- Delhi never regained her independence until it fell under the control of the great Mughal Empire.

- The Tughlaq Empire in India was destroyed by Timur's invasion. The defeat of the Tughlaq dynasty was such a setback that it could not last long. Northern India was in shambles after Timur's invasion. Delhi was in ruins and almost deserted.
- Pestilence was caused by the dead bodies of the city's inhabitants polluting the city's air and water supply.
- Timur's invasion of the Subcontinent resulted in social, political, and economic inequality. Thousands of them had been ruthlessly murdered, and thousands more had become homeless.
- The invasion of Timur caused widespread anarchy in the country. Confusion reigned throughout the empire's provinces. Delhi was rendered immobile.
- Famine and pestilence were added horrors that killed men and cattle and caused agriculture to be suspended.
- Timur invaded northern India, during the reign of Sultan Nasiruddin Mahmud Shah Tughluq (who was the last ruler of the Tughlaq Dynasty) in 1398. Timur crossed River Indus on 30 September 1398. He massacred all the people of Tulamba (the first town which he encountered in his invasion). He advanced further and captured Multan in October. Throughout his invasion Timur was not opposed by any Indian nobility.

However, the Rajputs stepped up to fight Timur, but Timur pressed very hard and slaughtered every last one of the Rajputs at Bhatner. Before attacking Delhi, Timur was also attacked by the Jats who looted Timur's caravans and hid in the forests. Timur also killed many of them and even took some of them captive.

Timur finally reached Delhi in December and fought against the army of Nasiruddin Mahmud Tughlaq on 17th December 1398. Timur used his camels to fight the elephant army of Tughluq. He knew that the elephants could be easily frightened and he used this knowledge to make the elephants turn around and stampede their own soldiers. It was a relatively easy victory for Timur. Nasiruddin Mahmud Tughluq fled with the remaining people and Timur sacked Delhi and left it in ruins.

Timur's invasion of India in 1398 was a pivotal event in the history of the Delhi Sultanate and the Indian subcontinent. Timur, also known as Tamerlane, was a Turco-Mongol conqueror who sought to emulate the conquests of his ancestor, Genghis Khan. His invasion of India was motivated by the desire to plunder its wealth and expand his empire. Here is a detailed account of Timur's invasion:

Background

- **Timur's Ambitions:** Timur, who had already established a vast empire stretching from the Middle East to Central Asia, aimed to extend his influence further into South Asia. He was known for his military prowess and ruthlessness.
- **Delhi Sultanate's Weakness:** The Delhi Sultanate, under Sultan Nasir-ud-Din Mahmud Shah Tughlaq, was in a state of decline due to internal strife, economic instability, and administrative inefficiency. This made it vulnerable to external threats.

The Invasion

- **Preparation and March:** In 1398, Timur gathered a large army and prepared for his campaign into India. His forces were well-equipped and experienced, having already conquered vast territories in Central Asia and Persia.
- **Crossing the Indus:** Timur's army crossed the Indus River and advanced towards Delhi. They faced minimal resistance due to the weakened state of the Sultanate and the element of surprise.
- **Battle of Delhi:** On December 17, 1398, Timur's forces engaged the Sultanate's army near Delhi. Despite attempts by the Sultan's forces to defend the city, they were decisively defeated. Timur's superior tactics and the morale of his troops ensured a swift victory.
- **Sack of Delhi:** Following the battle, Timur's troops entered Delhi and unleashed a devastating massacre. The city was subjected to extensive plundering, and its population suffered immense atrocities. Historical accounts describe the streets of Delhi running with blood and the city being reduced to ruins.

Impact

- **Destruction and Massacre:** The invasion caused widespread destruction in Delhi. The city's infrastructure was heavily damaged, and a significant portion of its population was killed or displaced. The massacre and looting left Delhi in a state of chaos and despair.
- **Economic Disruption:** Timur's invasion disrupted trade and agriculture, leading to economic instability in the region. The plundering of wealth and resources further weakened the Delhi Sultanate's financial stability.
- **Political Vacuum:** The invasion left a power vacuum in the Delhi Sultanate. With the Sultanate's authority severely weakened, regional powers and local chieftains asserted their independence, leading to fragmentation and political instability.
- **Precedent for Future Invasions:** Timur's successful invasion set a precedent for future invasions by Central Asian conquerors. It demonstrated the vulnerability of the Indian subcontinent to external threats and influenced subsequent military strategies.

Aftermath

- **Timur's Return:** After plundering Delhi, Timur returned to his capital in Samarkand, taking with him immense wealth and thousands of captives. His departure left a shattered Delhi Sultanate struggling to recover.
- **Rise of the Sayyid Dynasty:** The weakened state of the Sultanate led to the rise of the Sayyid dynasty. Khizr Khan, a former governor under Timur, established the Sayyid dynasty in 1414, marking the beginning of a new chapter in the history of the Delhi Sultanate.
- **Long-term Consequences:** The long-term consequences of Timur's invasion included the further decline of the Tughlaq dynasty and the eventual rise of the Lodi dynasty. The invasion also highlighted the need for strong centralized authority and military preparedness in the face of external threats.

Conclusion

Timur's invasion of India in 1398 was a catastrophic event that left an indelible mark on the history of the Delhi Sultanate. The invasion not only caused immense destruction and loss of life but also exposed the vulnerabilities of the Sultanate. It set the stage for subsequent political changes and highlighted the need for stronger governance and defense mechanisms in medieval India. After Timur's attack, India had lost all of its finances and was on the verge of economic disaster. His army destroyed and burned standing crops, and the unattended dead bodies and destruction caused disease outbreaks and food shortages. The impact of his invasion was so powerful that no Tughlaq ruler ever regained the strength to reclaim the throne. The country was on the verge of collapse.

The Sayyid Dynasty (1414-1451 A.D.)

The Sayyid dynasty, ruling from 1414 to 1451, was a significant period in the history of the Delhi Sultanate, despite its relatively short duration. Following the devastating invasion of Timur in 1398, the Sayyid dynasty sought to stabilize and restore the Sultanate's authority. Here's a detailed overview of the Sayyid dynasty and its impact on medieval Indian history:

Establishment of the Sayyid Dynasty

Background:

- **Timur's Invasion:** Timur's invasion of Delhi in 1398 left the city and the Delhi Sultanate in ruins, causing a power vacuum and significant political instability.
- **Post-Timur Period:** The Delhi Sultanate struggled to maintain control over its territories, and various regional powers began to assert their independence.

Founding of the Dynasty:

- **Khizr Khan:** Khizr Khan, who had been appointed governor of Multan by Timur, took advantage of the weakened state of the Sultanate. He captured Delhi in 1414 and established the Sayyid dynasty. He did not assume the title of Sultan, ruling instead as a vassal of Timur and his successors.

Khizr Khan (1414- 1421 A.D.)

1. He was the founder of Sayyid Dynasty
2. He did not swear any royal title.
3. He was the Governor of Multan.
4. He took advantage of the disordered situation in India after Timur's invasion.
5. In 1414 A.D. he occupied the throne of Delhi.
6. He brought parts of Surat, Dilapur, and Punjab under his control.
7. But he lost Bengal, Deccan, Gujarat, Jaunpur, Khandesh and Malwa.
8. In 1421 he died.

9. Mubarak Shah Khizr Khan's son succeeded him.

Rule and Administration: Khizr Khan focused on consolidating power in Delhi and reasserting control over the Sultanate's territories. He faced challenges from regional chieftains and sought to stabilize the administration.

1. **Military Campaigns:** Khizr Khan conducted military campaigns to regain lost territories and protect the Sultanate from external threats. His efforts, however, were often hampered by limited resources and internal dissent.

Mubarak Shah (1421-1434 A.D.)

1. Mubarak Shah crushed the local chiefs of the Doab region and the Khokhars.
2. He is first Sultan ruler to appoint Hindu nobles in the court of Delhi.
3. He constructed "Mubarakbad" City on the banks of the river Jamuna.
4. Muhammad Shah Mubarak's nephew succeeded him.

Challenges and Reforms: Mubarak Shah, Khizr Khan's son, dealt with numerous rebellions and external threats. He implemented administrative reforms to improve governance and stabilize the Sultanate.

1. **Military Struggles:** Despite his efforts, Mubarak Shah faced continuous challenges from regional powers and internal factions, which limited his ability to expand the Sultanate's influence.

Muhammad Shah (1434-1445 A.D.)

1. He defeated the ruler of Malwa with the help of Bahlul Lodi the Governor of Lahore.
2. He conferred Bahlul Lodi with the title **Khan-i-Khanan** for help in defeating the ruler of Malwa.
3. Later Ala-ud-din Shah succeeded him.

Relative Stability: Muhammad Shah's reign was marked by relative peace and consolidation. He focused on maintaining control over the core territories of the Sultanate.

1. **Opposition and Limitations:** His reign saw opposition from nobles and regional chieftains, which prevented significant territorial expansion.

Ala-ud-din Shah (1445-1457 A.D.)

1. He was not a strong ruler.
2. Ala-ud-din Shah was removed from the throne by Bahlul Lodi in 1457 A.D. by Bahlul Lodi who was the Governor of Lahore. Delhi was captured by him and he was sent to Badaun.
3. Ala-ud-din Shah died in Badaun in 1478 A.D.

□ **Decline and Abdication:** Ala-ud-Din Alam Shah was the last ruler of the Sayyid dynasty. His reign witnessed further decline in the Sultanate's power and influence.

1. □ **Transition to Lodi Dynasty:** In 1451, Ala-ud-Din Alam Shah abdicated the throne in favor of Bahlul Lodi, marking the end of the Sayyid dynasty and the beginning of the Lodi dynasty.

Impact on Medieval Indian History

Political Fragmentation:

- **Decentralization:** The Sayyid dynasty's rule was characterized by political fragmentation and decentralization. The central authority of the Sultanate weakened, and regional powers gained significant autonomy.
- **Rise of Regional States:** The weakening of the Delhi Sultanate under the Sayyid dynasty led to the rise of regional states and kingdoms, which asserted their independence and expanded their influence.

Administrative Changes:

- **Reforms:** Despite the challenges, the Sayyid rulers attempted various administrative reforms to improve governance and stabilize the Sultanate. These efforts laid the groundwork for future administrative practices in the region.
- **Continuity and Change:** The administrative structures established during the Sayyid period continued to influence the governance of subsequent dynasties, including the Lodi dynasty.

Cultural and Social Impact:

- **Urban Development:** The Sayyid rulers invested in rebuilding and developing Delhi, which had been devastated by Timur's invasion. This period saw efforts to revive the city's infrastructure and economy.
- **Religious Patronage:** The Sayyid dynasty continued the tradition of patronizing religious and cultural institutions. They supported the construction of mosques, madrasas, and other religious buildings.

Legacy:

- **Transition Period:** The Sayyid dynasty served as a transitional period between the Tughlaq dynasty and the Lodi dynasty. It played a crucial role in stabilizing the region after Timur's invasion and setting the stage for future political developments.
- **Historical Significance:** Although the Sayyid dynasty's rule was relatively short and marked by challenges, it contributed to the continuity of the Delhi Sultanate and influenced the political and administrative landscape of medieval India.

In conclusion, the Sayyid dynasty's rule from 1414 to 1451 was a period of recovery and transition for the Delhi Sultanate. Despite facing significant challenges, the Sayyid rulers made efforts to stabilize the Sultanate and rebuild its institutions. Their reign left a lasting impact on the political and administrative structures of medieval India, paving the way for the subsequent Lodi dynasty.

The Lodi dynasty was an **Afghan dynasty** that ruled the **Delhi Sultanate from 1451 to 1526**. It was the **fifth and final dynasty of the Delhi Sultanate**, founded by **Bahlul Khan Lodi** when he replaced the Sayyid dynasty. The dynasty ruled what is sometimes referred to as the "First Indo-Afghan Empire". In this article, we will discuss the **Lodi Dynasty**

Lodi Dynasty - Background

- The Afghan Ghizali tribe founded the Lodi Empire. Bahlol Lodi acted wisely and took advantage of Sayyed ruler's weak position by further capturing Punjab before entering Delhi.
- In 1451, he seized control of India from the throne of Delhi, assuming the title "Bahlol Shah Ghazi." His accession ended the Sharqi dynasty.
- On July 15, 1489, Bahlol Lodhi was succeeded by his second son Sikander Lodhi, who was engaged in a power struggle with his elder brother Barbak Shah.
- Sikandar Lodhi was a fanatical Sunni ruler who destroyed Indian temples in Mathura and Naga Port. He imposed Jaziya on Hindus in order to demonstrate Islam's supremacy.
- Sikandar Lodi attempted to conquer Gwalior fort five times but was defeated each time by Raja Man Singh.
- After a succession war with his elder brother Jalal-ud-Din, he died in 1517 and was succeeded by his son, Ibrahim Khan Lodi. They were constantly at odds

Rulers of Lodi Dynasty

Bahlul Lodi (1451-1489 AD)

- Bahlul Khan Lodi (r. 1451–1489) was the nephew and son-in-law of Malik Sultan Shah Lodi, the governor of Sirhind in (Punjab), India, and succeeded him as governor during the reign of Sayyid dynasty ruler Muhammad Shah.
- Muhammad Shah elevated him to the position of Tarun-Bin-Sultan. With his strong personality, he held together a loose confederacy of Afghan and Turkish chiefs.
- He brought the provinces' fractious chiefs to heel and injected new life into the government.
- Bahlul Khan Lodi ascended the throne of the Delhi sultanate on April 19, 1451, after the last Sayyid ruler of Delhi, Alauddin Alam Shah, voluntarily abdicated in his favour.
- The conquest of Jaunpur was the most significant event during his reign. Bahlul spent most of his time fighting against the Sharqi dynasty, which he eventually annexed.
- In 1486, he elevated his eldest surviving son Barbak to the throne of Jaunpur.

Sikandar Lodi (1489-1517 AD)

- Sikandar Khan Lodi (r. 1489–1517) (born Nizam Khan), Bahlul's second son, succeeded him after his death on 17 July 1489 and assumed the title Sikandar Shah.
- His father nominated him to succeed him and he was crowned Sultan on July 15, 1489. He founded Agra in 1504 and built mosques.

- He relocated the capital from Delhi to Agra. He was a supporter of trade and commerce. He was a renowned poet who wrote under the pen name Gulruk.
- He was also a patron of learning and had Sanskrit medical works translated into Persian.
- He curbed the individualistic tendencies of his Pashtun nobles by requiring them to submit their accounts to state audit.
- As a result, he was able to instil vigour and discipline in the administration. His most notable achievement was the conquest and annexation of Bihar.

Ibrahim Lodi

- The last Lodi Sultan of Delhi was Ibrahim Lodi (r. 1517–1526), Sikandar's eldest son. He possessed the qualities of a great warrior, but his decisions and actions were rash and impolitic.
- His attempt at royal absolutism was premature, and his policy of repression without measures to strengthen the administration and increase military resources was bound to fail.
- Ibrahim faced numerous rebellions and kept the opposition at bay for nearly a decade.
- For the majority of his reign, he was at war with the Afghans and the Mughal Empire, and he died trying to save the Lodi Dynasty from annihilation.
- In 1526, Ibrahim was defeated at the Battle of Panipat. This marked the end of the Lodi Dynasty and the rise of Babur's (r. 1526–1530) Mughal Empire in India.

Administration of Lodi Dynasty

- Sultan Sikandar Lodi is also credited with establishing a sound administrative apparatus.
- He instituted auditing to check the accounts of muqtas and walis (governors). Mubarak Khan Lodi (Tuji Khail), the governor of Jaunpur, was the first nobleman to have his accounts scrutinised in 1506.
- He was convicted of embezzlement and thus fired. Khwaja Asghar, a non-Afghan officer-in-charge in Delhi, was similarly imprisoned for corruption.
- In order to keep himself informed about the state of the Empire, the Sultan reorganised the intelligence system.
- As a result, the nobles were afraid to discuss political issues amongst themselves for fear of upsetting the Sultan.
- Concerned about the general public's well-being, the Sultan established charity houses in both the capital and the provinces for the benefit of the poor and handicapped. These charitable organisations provided financial assistance to deserving people.
- Scholars and poets were patronised, and educational institutions received financial support throughout the Empire. He forbade the use of any language other than Persian in government offices.
- This motivated many Hindus to learn Persian, and they became fluent in the language in a short period of time.
- As a result, they began to manage and supervise the revenue administration.
- When Babur arrived in India, he was astounded to see that the revenue department was entirely staffed by Hindus.
- Sultan Sikandar Lodi had keen interest in ensuring impartial justice for all. His efforts resulted in peace and prosperity throughout the Empire.

Economy of Lodi Dynasty

- Sikandar Lodhi is historically known as a true fanatical Sunni ruler who destroyed Indian temples in Mathura and Naga Port.
- He imposed Jaziya on Hindus to demonstrate Islam's superiority.
- He introduced the 32-digit Gaz-i-Sikandiri, which assisted farmers in measuring their cultivated fields.
- In 1504, he founded the city of Agra and built magnificent tombs and buildings.
- He was instrumental in facilitating imports and exports and growing the economy.
- Farmers are being exempted from food grain taxes.
- Education promotion Sikandar was a staunch Sunni ruler who lacked religious tolerance.

Religion and Architecture of Lodi Dynasty

- The Lodhi Sultans, like their predecessors, stylized themselves as deputies of the Abbasid Caliphs, recognising the authority of a united Caliphate over the Muslim World.
- They gave cash stipends and revenue-free lands (including entire villages) to Muslim ulama, Sufi shaikhs, Muhammad's claimed descendants, and members of his Quraysh tribe.
- The Lodis' Muslim subjects were required to pay the zakat tax for religious merit, while non-Muslims were required to pay the jizya tax in order to receive state protection.
- Hindus were required to pay an additional pilgrimage tax in some parts of the Sultanate. Nonetheless, several Hindu officers worked in the Sultanate's revenue administration.
- Sikandar Lodi, whose mother was Hindu, used strict Sunni orthodoxy to demonstrate his Islamic credentials as a political ploy.
- He destroyed Hindu temples and, under ulama pressure, allowed the execution of a Brahman who declared Hinduism to be as true as Islam.
- He also prohibited women from visiting Muslim saints' mazars (mausoleums) and prohibited the annual procession of the spear of the legendary Muslim martyr Salar Masud.
- He also established Sharia courts in several towns with a sizable Muslim population, allowing the qazis to apply Islamic law to both Muslim and non-Muslim subjects.
- **The Bara Gumbad** in Delhi's Lodhi Gardens is believed to have the earliest constructed full dome of any building in Delhi, having been built in 1490 CE, most likely by Sikandar Lodhi.
- **The Shish Gumbad**, a Lodhi Dynasty tomb built between 1489 and 1517 CE.
- Sikandar Lodi constructed the **Rajon ki Baoli** stepwell in 1516.

Decline of Lodi Dynasty

- By the time Ibrahim ascended to the throne, the Lodi Dynasty's political structure had crumbled due to abandoned trade routes and a depleted treasury.
- The Deccan was a coastal trade route, but by the late fifteenth century, the supply lines had failed.
- The decline and eventual failure of this specific trade route cut off supplies from the coast to the interior, where the Lodi empire resided.

- The Lodi Dynasty was unable to protect itself if warfare broke out on trade route roads; as a result, they did not use those trade routes, and their trade and treasury declined, leaving them vulnerable to internal political problems.
- In order to avenge Ibrahim's insults, the governor of Lahore, Daulat Khan Lodi, requested that the ruler of Kabul, Babur, invade his kingdom. Ibrahim Lodi was thus killed in a battle with Babur.
- The Lodi dynasty ended with Ibrahim Lodi's death.

The Lodi dynasty, which ruled over the Delhi Sultanate from 1451 to 1526, marked the final phase of the Sultanate before the advent of the Mughal Empire. The Lodi rulers, particularly Bahlul Lodi, Sikandar Lodi, and Ibrahim Lodi, made significant contributions to the fields of art, architecture, and economy. Here's a comprehensive examination of these contributions:

Art and Architecture

Architectural Innovations and Styles

The Lodi dynasty's architectural style represented a transition from the earlier Sultanate architecture to what would later influence Mughal architecture. Key features of Lodi architecture include the use of domes, arches, and intricate ornamental designs.

1. Tomb Architecture:

- **Lodi Gardens:** The Lodi Gardens in Delhi are perhaps the most prominent surviving examples of Lodi architecture. The garden complex houses the tombs of several Lodi rulers, including Muhammad Shah and Sikandar Lodi.
- **Sikandar Lodi's Tomb:** Built in 1517, this tomb is a notable example of the architectural finesse of the Lodi period. It is characterized by its octagonal shape, high walls, and impressive domed structure, reflecting a blend of Islamic and Indian architectural styles.
- **Shish Gumbad and Bara Gumbad:** Located in the Lodi Gardens, these tombs exhibit the distinctive features of Lodi architecture, such as the use of double domes and intricate carvings.

2. Mosques:

- **Jami Masjid, Panipat:** Built during the reign of Bahlul Lodi, this mosque showcases the architectural evolution towards the more monumental and expansive styles that would later define Mughal architecture.
- **Moth Ki Masjid:** Constructed by Sikandar Lodi's prime minister, this mosque is an example of the grand scale and elaborate design typical of Lodi religious architecture.

3. Secular Buildings:

- The Lodi period saw the construction of various fortifications, gateways, and public buildings. These structures were designed with both aesthetic appeal and defensive functionality in mind.

Artistic Elements

1. Ornamentation:

- The Lodi architecture is noted for its use of blue tiles, calligraphy, and geometrical patterns. These elements not only served decorative purposes but also reflected the cultural and religious influences of the period.

2. Structural Features:

- **Double Domes:** A significant architectural innovation during the Lodi period was the introduction of double domes. This technique involved creating a space between the interior and exterior domes, which improved the acoustics and provided better structural stability.
- **Vaulted Ceilings and Arches:** The use of vaulted ceilings and arches was prominent in Lodi architecture. These features allowed for larger and more open interior spaces, contributing to the grandeur of their buildings.

Regional Influences

1. **Delhi:** As the capital, Delhi saw the most significant architectural contributions from the Lodi rulers. The city's landscape was dotted with tombs, mosques, and other structures that reflected the dynasty's architectural preferences.
2. **Punjab and Uttar Pradesh:** The influence of Lodi architecture extended to regions like Punjab and Uttar Pradesh, where several monuments and buildings from this period can still be found.

Economy

Agricultural Developments

The Lodi rulers placed a strong emphasis on agriculture, recognizing it as the backbone of the economy.

1. Irrigation:

- **Canals and Wells:** The construction and maintenance of canals and wells were prioritized to ensure a reliable water supply for agriculture. This helped in enhancing agricultural productivity and stabilizing the rural economy.
- **Land Reclamation:** Efforts were made to reclaim and cultivate arable land, which increased the area available for agriculture and contributed to economic stability.

2. Crop Diversity:

- The Lodi period saw the cultivation of a variety of crops, including grains, pulses, fruits, and vegetables. This diversity helped in ensuring food security and supporting the population's nutritional needs.

Trade and Commerce

The Lodi dynasty fostered trade and commerce, recognizing the importance of these activities for economic prosperity.

1. Domestic Trade:

- **Market Reforms:** Sikandar Lodi introduced market reforms to regulate prices and ensure the availability of essential commodities. This helped in maintaining economic stability and preventing exploitation by traders and merchants.
- **Urban Centers:** The growth of urban centers under the Lodi rulers provided hubs for trade and commerce. Cities like Delhi, Agra, and Panipat became important commercial centers during this period.

2. International Trade:

- **Trade Routes:** The Lodi dynasty maintained and protected trade routes that connected India with Central Asia, the Middle East, and Southeast Asia. These routes facilitated the exchange of goods, culture, and technology.
- **Export Goods:** India exported a variety of goods, including textiles, spices, precious stones, and crafts. These exports played a crucial role in bringing wealth into the kingdom.

Economic Policies and Administration

1. Revenue Collection:

- **Land Revenue System:** The Lodi rulers implemented an efficient land revenue system to ensure the collection of taxes from agricultural produce. This system was designed to be fair and systematic, helping to stabilize the state's finances.
- **Taxation Policies:** Efforts were made to streamline taxation policies to reduce the burden on peasants while ensuring a steady flow of revenue to the state.

2. Currency and Trade Regulations:

- **Standardization of Currency:** The Lodi rulers worked towards standardizing the currency, which facilitated trade and commerce by ensuring the reliability and uniformity of monetary transactions.
- **Regulation of Trade Practices:** Measures were taken to regulate trade practices to prevent fraud and ensure fair trading conditions. This included monitoring weights and measures and overseeing market activities.

Social and Cultural Impact

Patronage of Arts and Literature

1. Literary Contributions:

- The Lodi rulers were patrons of literature, and their courts attracted poets, scholars, and writers. Persian was the court language, and many notable works of literature were produced during this period.
- **Religious Texts and Poetry:** Religious texts and poetry flourished under the Lodi patronage, reflecting the cultural and intellectual environment of the time.

2. Cultural Synthesis:

- The Lodi period witnessed a synthesis of various cultural influences, including Persian, Turkish, and Indian traditions. This blend was reflected in the art, architecture, and cultural practices of the time.

Social Structures and Administration

1. Nobility and Bureaucracy:

- The Lodi rulers maintained a hierarchical structure of nobility and bureaucracy to administer their territories. This system was crucial for maintaining order and implementing the policies of the state.
- **Land Grants:** The practice of granting land to nobles and officials in return for military and administrative services was prevalent. This helped in consolidating the rulers' control over their territories.

2. Law and Order:

- Efforts were made to maintain law and order through a structured legal system. This included the appointment of judges and officials to oversee the administration of justice.

Conclusion

The Lodi dynasty, through its contributions to art, architecture, and the economy, played a crucial role in shaping the medieval history of India. Their architectural innovations, such as the use of double domes and intricate ornamentation, left a lasting legacy that influenced subsequent architectural styles, including that of the Mughal Empire. The Lodi rulers' emphasis on agriculture, trade, and economic reforms helped stabilize the Sultanate's economy and facilitated prosperity.

Despite the challenges they faced, the Lodi rulers managed to create a cultural and economic environment that fostered growth and development. Their efforts in rebuilding and developing Delhi, promoting trade and commerce, and supporting the arts and literature were significant in maintaining the cultural and economic vitality of the Delhi Sultanate during their reign.

The Mongol Invasions of India

The Mongol invasions of the 13th and 14th centuries had a profound impact on various parts of the world, including the Indian subcontinent. The Mongols, under the leadership of

Genghis Khan and his successors, created one of the largest empires in history, extending from Eastern Europe to Asia. Their invasions and the resulting interactions significantly influenced the political, economic, social, and cultural landscapes of the regions they conquered or affected.

Initial Encounters

1. **Early Raids:** The first significant encounter between the Mongols and the Indian subcontinent occurred in 1221, when Genghis Khan pursued the Khwarazmian prince Jalal ad-Din into the Indus Valley. This marked the beginning of intermittent Mongol incursions into the region.
2. **Continued Raids:** Over the next few decades, the Mongols conducted several raids into the northern parts of India, targeting key cities and regions such as Lahore, Multan, and the Punjab area.

Major Mongol Invasions

1. **Invasion during the Reign of Alauddin Khalji (1296-1316):**
 - **Defensive Measures:** Alauddin Khalji, the Sultan of Delhi, implemented significant defensive measures to protect his kingdom from Mongol invasions. He strengthened fortifications, maintained a large standing army, and developed an efficient espionage system.
 - **Battles and Sieges:** The Mongols launched several invasions during Alauddin Khalji's reign, leading to fierce battles and sieges. Notably, in 1299, a large Mongol force besieged Delhi but was ultimately repelled.
2. **Invasion during the Reign of Muhammad bin Tughlaq (1325-1351):**
 - **Repeated Incursions:** The Mongols continued their incursions during the reign of Muhammad bin Tughlaq. These invasions strained the Sultanate's resources and led to significant disruptions in the affected regions.
 - **Military Responses:** Muhammad bin Tughlaq employed various military strategies to counter the Mongol threat, including fortifying cities, mobilizing troops, and launching counterattacks.

Impact of the Mongol Invasions

Political Impact

1. **Strengthening of Central Authority:** The persistent threat of Mongol invasions compelled the rulers of the Delhi Sultanate to strengthen central authority and military preparedness. This included the establishment of a more centralized administrative structure and the enhancement of military capabilities.
2. **Military Reforms:** The invasions prompted significant military reforms, including the recruitment of larger standing armies, improvements in fortifications, and the development of advanced military strategies. The emphasis on a robust military apparatus became a defining feature of the Sultanate's rule.

Economic Impact

1. **Economic Disruption:** The Mongol invasions led to widespread economic disruption, particularly in the northern regions of India. Agricultural production, trade, and commerce were adversely affected due to the destruction caused by the invasions.
2. **Taxation and Revenue Policies:** In response to the economic challenges posed by the invasions, rulers such as Alauddin Khalji implemented stringent taxation and revenue policies. These measures aimed to secure sufficient resources for defense and to rebuild the economy.

Social and Cultural Impact

1. **Demographic Changes:** The invasions caused significant demographic changes, including population displacement and loss of life. Many people fled the affected areas, leading to shifts in population distribution.
2. **Cultural Exchange:** Despite the destructive nature of the invasions, there were instances of cultural exchange between the Mongols and the local populations. This included the introduction of new military tactics, technologies, and, to some extent, artistic and cultural influences.

Long-term Consequences

1. **Defensive Architecture:** The need to defend against Mongol invasions led to the development of advanced defensive architecture. This included the construction of formidable forts, fortified cities, and defensive walls, which became characteristic of the period.
2. **Influence on Regional Powers:** The Mongol threat influenced the policies and strategies of regional powers in India. This included the establishment of alliances, military collaborations, and the adoption of defensive measures to protect their territories.

Psychological Impact

1. **Perception of External Threats:** The repeated Mongol invasions left a lasting psychological impact on the rulers and the population of the Indian subcontinent. The perception of an ever-present external threat influenced the political and military strategies of subsequent rulers.
2. **Legacy of Resilience:** The ability of the Delhi Sultanate to withstand and repel multiple Mongol invasions contributed to a legacy of resilience and military prowess. This legacy influenced the identity and self-perception of the Sultanate and its successors.

Conclusion

The Mongol invasions of the Indian subcontinent were a significant historical event with far-reaching consequences. Politically, they led to the strengthening of central authority and military reforms. Economically, they caused disruptions and necessitated stringent revenue policies. Socially and culturally, they resulted in demographic changes and instances of cultural exchange. The invasions left a lasting legacy of resilience and influenced the political, military, and architectural developments of the period.

The ability of the Delhi Sultanate to resist the Mongol threat, despite the challenges, demonstrated the strategic acumen and military capabilities of its rulers. The impact of the Mongol invasions on medieval India underscores the complex interplay between conflict, adaptation, and resilience in the face of external threats.

Vijayanagara Empire

Unit 3-

Rise of regional kingdoms

I. Vijay Nagar kingdom

II. Bahmani kingdoms

III. Malwa dynasty

The Vijayanagara Empire, established in 1336 by Harihara I and his brother Bukka Raya I, was a significant South Indian empire that played a crucial role in the history of the subcontinent. Spanning over three centuries, it stood as a bulwark against invasions from the north, promoted Hindu culture, and fostered economic prosperity and cultural development. Here is an in-depth exploration of the Vijayanagara Empire, covering its origins, administration, economy, culture, and legacy.

Origins and Early History

Founding of the Empire

1. Harihara I and Bukka Raya I:

- The founders of the Vijayanagara Empire were initially part of the Kakatiya and Kampili kingdoms. Following the defeat of the Kampili kingdom by the Delhi Sultanate, the brothers were taken prisoner and later converted to Islam. They eventually reconverted to Hinduism under the guidance of the sage Vidyaranya and established the Vijayanagara Empire in 1336.

2. Motivation and Objectives:

- The primary objective behind the establishment of the Vijayanagara Empire was to resist Islamic invasions from the north, protect Hindu dharma, and restore regional stability and prosperity.

Early Expansion

1. Consolidation of Power:

- The early rulers focused on consolidating their power in the Deccan region. They extended their control over parts of Karnataka, Andhra Pradesh, and Tamil Nadu, establishing the foundation for a powerful empire.
- 2. **Conflict with the Bahmani Sultanate:**
 - The empire frequently clashed with the Bahmani Sultanate, a major contemporary power in the Deccan. These conflicts, known as the Deccan Wars, were primarily over control of fertile lands and strategic locations.

Administration and Governance

Administrative Structure

1. **Centralized Governance:**
 - The Vijayanagara Empire had a highly centralized administrative structure with the king at the top. The king was considered the ultimate authority in both political and religious matters.
2. **Provinces and Local Administration:**
 - The empire was divided into provinces known as **rajya** or **mandala**, each governed by a governor or viceroy appointed by the king. These provinces were further subdivided into **nadu** (districts) and **grama** (villages), ensuring efficient local administration.

Military Organization

1. **Standing Army:**
 - The Vijayanagara Empire maintained a large and well-trained standing army. This included infantry, cavalry, and war elephants, which were crucial in both defensive and offensive operations.
2. **Fortifications:**
 - The empire invested heavily in fortifications and military infrastructure. The capital city, Vijayanagara (modern-day Hampi), was surrounded by massive walls and strategically designed to withstand prolonged sieges.

Judicial and Revenue Systems

1. **Judicial System:**
 - The judicial system was based on Hindu law, with local chieftains and village councils handling minor disputes, while more serious cases were referred to the king or his appointed officials.
2. **Revenue Collection:**
 - The empire had an efficient revenue collection system, primarily based on land taxes. The state also generated revenue from trade, commerce, and tribute from vassal states.

Economy

Agriculture and Irrigation

1. **Agricultural Economy:**
 - Agriculture was the backbone of the Vijayanagara economy. The empire's fertile lands supported the cultivation of a variety of crops, including rice, millet, and cotton.

2. Irrigation Systems:

- The rulers implemented advanced irrigation systems, including tanks, canals, and wells, to support agriculture. These systems helped mitigate the effects of droughts and ensured stable agricultural production.

Trade and Commerce

1. Internal Trade:

- The empire's extensive network of roads facilitated internal trade, connecting various regions and promoting the exchange of goods and services.

2. External Trade:

- The Vijayanagara Empire engaged in significant maritime trade with foreign countries, including Persia, the Arab world, Southeast Asia, and China. Key export items included spices, textiles, and precious stones.

Urbanization and Craft Industries

1. Urban Centers:

- The empire saw the development of several urban centers, with Vijayanagara (Hampi) being the most prominent. These cities were hubs of economic activity, attracting merchants, artisans, and scholars.

2. Craft Industries:

- Craft industries flourished, producing textiles, jewelry, metalwork, and other goods. The state actively supported these industries, recognizing their importance to the economy.

Culture

Religion and Philosophy

1. Hindu Revivalism:

- The Vijayanagara rulers were staunch patrons of Hinduism. They promoted the construction of temples, supported religious scholars, and revived ancient Vedic traditions.

2. Religious Tolerance:

- Despite their emphasis on Hinduism, the rulers of Vijayanagara were known for their religious tolerance. They supported Jain and Buddhist institutions and allowed the practice of various faiths within their realm.

Art and Architecture

1. Temple Architecture:

- The empire is renowned for its distinctive temple architecture, characterized by elaborate carvings, towering gopurams (gateway towers), and intricate sculptures. Notable examples include the Virupaksha Temple and the Vittala Temple in Hampi.

2. Literature and Music:

- The Vijayanagara period witnessed a flourishing of literature in languages such as Sanskrit, Kannada, Telugu, and Tamil. The court supported poets, writers, and musicians, contributing to a vibrant cultural milieu.

Legacy and Decline

Decline of the Empire

1. Battle of Talikota (1565):

- The decisive Battle of Talikota marked the beginning of the decline of the Vijayanagara Empire. A coalition of Deccan Sultanates defeated the Vijayanagara forces, leading to the sacking of the capital and a significant loss of power.

2. Fragmentation and Internal Strife:

- Following the battle, the empire fragmented into smaller states, and internal strife weakened its ability to maintain a unified front against external threats.

Legacy

1. Cultural Contributions:

- The Vijayanagara Empire left a lasting legacy through its contributions to art, architecture, and literature. The architectural marvels of Hampi continue to attract scholars and tourists, highlighting the empire's cultural achievements.

2. Economic and Administrative Innovations:

- The empire's economic policies and administrative practices influenced subsequent South Indian kingdoms. The emphasis on irrigation, trade, and efficient governance became models for future states.

3. Historical Significance:

- The Vijayanagara Empire is remembered as a bastion of Hindu culture during a period of significant Islamic expansion in India. It played a crucial role in preserving and promoting Hindu traditions and served as a symbol of resistance against northern invasions.

Conclusion

The Vijayanagara Empire stands as a testament to the resilience and creativity of the South Indian civilization during the medieval period. Its founders, Harihara I and Bukka Raya I, established a powerful state that not only resisted external invasions but also fostered economic prosperity, cultural development, and religious revivalism. The empire's contributions to art, architecture, literature, and administration left an indelible mark on Indian history, and its legacy continues to be celebrated and studied to this day.

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1. Cultural Contributions:

- The Vijayanagara Empire left a lasting legacy through its contributions to art, architecture, and literature. The architectural marvels of Hampi continue to attract scholars and tourists, highlighting the empire's cultural achievements.

2. Economic and Administrative Innovations:

- The empire's economic policies and administrative practices influenced subsequent South Indian kingdoms. The emphasis on irrigation, trade, and efficient governance became models for future states.

3. Historical Significance:

- The Vijayanagara Empire is remembered as a bastion of Hindu culture during a period of significant Islamic expansion in India. It played a crucial role in preserving and promoting Hindu traditions and served as a symbol of resistance against northern invasions.

The Vijayanagara Empire stands as a testament to the resilience and creativity of the South Indian civilization during the medieval period. Its founders, Harihara I and Bukka Raya I, established a powerful state that not only resisted external invasions but also fostered

economic prosperity, cultural development, and religious revivalism. The empire's contributions to art, architecture, literature, and administration left an indelible mark on Indian history, and its legacy continues to be celebrated and studied to this day.

Krishnadevaraya, one of the most celebrated rulers of the Vijayanagara Empire, reigned from 1509 to 1529. His period of rule is often considered the golden age of the empire, marked by military conquests, administrative reforms, economic prosperity, and cultural flourishing. Here's an in-depth exploration of Krishnadevaraya's contributions and the impact of his reign.

Early Life and Ascension to the Throne

Background and Early Life

1. Dynastic Background:

- Krishnadevaraya belonged to the Tuluva dynasty, the third dynasty to rule the Vijayanagara Empire. His father, Narasa Nayaka, was a successful military commander and regent who played a crucial role in stabilizing the empire during turbulent times.

2. Education and Training:

- Krishnadevaraya received extensive training in administration, military tactics, and the arts, preparing him for his future role as a ruler.

Ascension to the Throne

1. Succession:

- Following the death of his brother, Vira Narasimha Raya, Krishnadevaraya ascended the throne in 1509. His rise to power was supported by key military and administrative figures in the empire.

Military Achievements

Expansion and Consolidation

1. Conquests in the Deccan:

- Krishnadevaraya embarked on a series of military campaigns to expand and consolidate the empire. He defeated the Bahmani Sultanate and its successor states, including Bijapur, Golconda, and Ahmednagar, securing significant territories in the Deccan.

2. Campaign against the Gajapatis:

- One of his notable campaigns was against the Gajapati kingdom of Odisha. Krishnadevaraya successfully captured key forts and territories, extending the empire's influence into eastern India.

Key Battles

1. Battle of Raichur (1520):

- The Battle of Raichur was one of Krishnadevaraya's most significant military achievements. He decisively defeated the Sultan of Bijapur, capturing the strategic fort of Raichur, which was a contested territory between the two kingdoms.

2. Diplomatic Alliances:

- Krishnadevaraya also skillfully used diplomacy to secure alliances with neighboring states, ensuring the stability and security of his empire.

Administrative Reforms

Governance and Administration

1. Centralized Administration:

- Krishnadevaraya strengthened the centralized administrative structure of the Vijayanagara Empire. He implemented efficient governance practices, appointing capable officials to key positions and ensuring accountability.

2. Provincial Administration:

- He reorganized the provincial administration, dividing the empire into manageable units and appointing governors to oversee them. This helped in maintaining effective control over the vast territories.

Revenue and Taxation

1. Land Revenue System:

- Krishnadevaraya introduced reforms in the land revenue system, ensuring fair assessment and collection of taxes. He emphasized the importance of accurate land measurement and documentation.

2. Agricultural Development:

- He promoted agricultural development by encouraging the construction of irrigation works, such as tanks and canals, which enhanced agricultural productivity and ensured food security.

Economic Prosperity

Trade and Commerce

1. Internal Trade:

- Krishnadevaraya's reign saw a significant boost in internal trade. The construction of roads and market towns facilitated the movement of goods and promoted economic integration within the empire.

2. Maritime Trade:

- The empire engaged in extensive maritime trade with foreign countries, including Persia, the Arab world, Southeast Asia, and China. The ports of the Vijayanagara Empire, such as Bhatkal and Mangalore, became bustling centers of commerce.

Urbanization and Industry

1. Urban Development:

- The capital city of Vijayanagara (Hampi) flourished under Krishnadevaraya's rule. The city was known for its impressive architecture, bustling markets, and vibrant cultural life.

2. Crafts and Industries:

- Various craft industries, including textiles, metalwork, and jewelry, thrived during his reign. The state's support for artisans and craftsmen contributed to economic prosperity and cultural richness.

Cultural Flourishing

Patronage of Arts and Literature

1. Literature:

- Krishnadevaraya was a great patron of literature. He himself was a poet and scholar, composing works such as the Telugu epic "Amuktamalyada." His court was adorned with renowned poets and scholars, including the Ashtadiggajas (eight great poets), who made significant contributions to Telugu literature.

2. Sanskrit and Other Languages:

- Apart from Telugu, he also patronized works in Sanskrit, Kannada, and Tamil, promoting a multi-lingual literary culture in his empire.

Architecture and Sculpture

1. Temple Construction:

- Krishnadevaraya commissioned the construction of numerous temples, contributing to the architectural splendor of the Vijayanagara Empire. Notable examples include the Vithala Temple and the Hazara Rama Temple in Hampi, known for their intricate carvings and grand designs.

2. Public Works:

- His reign also saw the construction of various public works, including tanks, canals, and roads, which not only facilitated economic activities but also showcased the empire's engineering prowess.

Religious and Social Policies

Religious Patronage

1. Hinduism:

- Krishnadevaraya was a devout Hindu and a patron of Hindu temples and religious institutions. He performed several grand religious rituals and ceremonies, reinforcing the cultural and religious identity of his empire.

2. Religious Tolerance:

- Despite his strong Hindu leanings, he maintained a policy of religious tolerance, supporting Jain and Buddhist institutions and respecting the diverse religious practices within his realm.

Social Welfare

1. Welfare Programs:

- Krishnadevaraya implemented various welfare programs aimed at improving the living standards of his subjects. These included initiatives for education, healthcare, and public amenities.

2. Support for Agriculture and Rural Development:

- Recognizing the importance of agriculture, he promoted rural development through the construction of irrigation facilities and support for farmers, ensuring the well-being of the agrarian community.

Legacy

End of His Reign

1. Succession:

- Krishnadevaraya's reign ended in 1529. His death marked the beginning of a period of instability and succession struggles within the empire, which eventually contributed to its decline.

2. Successors:

- His successors, including Achyuta Deva Raya and Sadashiva Raya, were unable to maintain the same level of control and prosperity, leading to the gradual weakening of the empire.

Historical Significance

1. Golden Age of Vijayanagara:

- Krishnadevaraya's reign is often referred to as the golden age of the Vijayanagara Empire due to the remarkable achievements in military conquests, administration, economic prosperity, and cultural patronage.

2. Cultural Contributions:

- The cultural and architectural achievements of his reign, particularly in the fields of literature and temple architecture, left an enduring legacy that continues to be celebrated and studied.

3. Symbol of Hindu Resistance:

- His reign is also seen as a symbol of Hindu resistance and resurgence during a period of significant Islamic influence in the Indian subcontinent. His efforts to protect and promote Hindu culture had a lasting impact on the region's history and heritage.

Conclusion

Krishnadevaraya was a ruler of exceptional vision, military prowess, and administrative acumen. His reign not only marked the zenith of the Vijayanagara Empire but also left an indelible mark on South Indian history and culture. Through his military conquests, administrative reforms, economic initiatives, and cultural patronage, Krishnadevaraya ensured that the Vijayanagara Empire remained a beacon of prosperity, cultural richness, and religious tolerance. His legacy continues to be revered, and his contributions are remembered as foundational to the history of South India.

Bahmani Kingdom

The Bahmani Kingdom, also known as the Bahmani Sultanate, was a prominent medieval Indian state that emerged in the Deccan region. It was established in 1347 by Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah after he revolted against the Delhi Sultanate. The Bahmani Kingdom played a significant role in the history of the Deccan, fostering cultural and architectural achievements while engaging in constant conflict with neighboring states.

Origins and Establishment

Founding of the Bahmani Kingdom

1. Rebellion against the Delhi Sultanate:

- The Bahmani Kingdom was founded as a result of a rebellion against the Delhi Sultanate. Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah, originally known as Zafar Khan, led this rebellion and declared independence in 1347.

2. Capital and Initial Expansion:

- The initial capital of the Bahmani Kingdom was Gulbarga (modern-day Kalaburagi) in Karnataka. The kingdom rapidly expanded its territory, establishing control over significant parts of the Deccan plateau.

Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah

1. Background:

- Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah was a former governor under the Delhi Sultanate. He leveraged his administrative and military experience to establish a stable and prosperous kingdom.

2. Legacy:

- His reign set the foundation for the Bahmani Sultanate, focusing on consolidating power, building administrative structures, and fostering cultural integration.

Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah, also known as Hasan Gangu, was the founder and first ruler of the Bahmani Sultanate. His reign marked the beginning of the Bahmani dynasty and the establishment of a powerful Muslim kingdom in the Deccan region of southern India. Here is an overview of Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah's life, achievements, and contributions:

Early Life and Background

1. Origins:

- Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah was born as Hasan Gangu in the early 14th century. His exact date of birth and early life details are not well-documented.

2. Slave Origin:

- Hasan Gangu was originally a Hindu merchant or a slave (ghanz) in the service of the Kakatiya dynasty of Warangal, which ruled parts of present-day Telangana and Andhra Pradesh.

Rise to Power and Establishment of the Bahmani Sultanate

1. Rebellion against the Delhi Sultanate:

- Hasan Gangu rose to prominence during the decline of the Delhi Sultanate's authority in the Deccan region. Taking advantage of the weakening central authority, he rebelled against the Delhi Sultanate's rule.

2. Declaration of Independence:

- After successfully asserting his authority over the Deccan territories, Hasan Gangu declared himself independent and assumed the title of Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah in 1347.

3. Establishment of the Bahmani Sultanate:

- Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah founded the Bahmani Sultanate with Gulbarga (now Kalaburagi) as its capital. He established a strong administrative framework and consolidated his rule over the newly formed kingdom.

Contributions and Achievements

1. Centralized Administration:

- Bahman Shah implemented a centralized administrative system with himself as the supreme authority. He established efficient governance structures and appointed trusted officials to key administrative positions.

2. Expansion and Consolidation:

- Under his rule, the Bahmani Sultanate expanded its territories through conquests and diplomacy. Bahman Shah successfully subdued local Hindu rulers and integrated their territories into his kingdom.

3. Promotion of Islam:

- As a Muslim ruler, Bahman Shah promoted Islam in his kingdom. He patronized Islamic scholars, built mosques, and encouraged the spread of Islamic teachings.

4. Cultural Patronage:

- Bahman Shah was a patron of art, literature, and architecture. He sponsored the construction of mosques, madrasas, and other architectural marvels that reflected the Indo-Islamic architectural style.

Legacy and Impact

1. Foundational Ruler:

- Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah's reign laid the foundation for the Bahmani Sultanate, which would go on to become one of the most powerful states in the Deccan region.

2. Regional Power:

- His establishment of the Bahmani Sultanate marked a significant shift in the political landscape of southern India, establishing a powerful Muslim kingdom that would rival other regional powers.

3. Cultural and Architectural Heritage:

- The architectural and cultural legacy of Bahman Shah's reign can still be seen in the numerous monuments and structures built during his time, which continue to be important historical landmarks in present-day Karnataka and Maharashtra.

Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah's leadership and vision played a crucial role in the emergence of the Bahmani Sultanate as a major political and cultural force in medieval India. His contributions laid the groundwork for the subsequent expansion and prosperity of the kingdom under his successors.

Administration and Governance

Centralized Administration

1. Sultan's Authority:

- The Bahmani Sultanate had a highly centralized administration with the Sultan as the supreme authority. The Sultan was supported by a council of ministers and nobles.

2. Provincial Governance:

- The kingdom was divided into provinces, each governed by a provincial governor or "Amir." These governors were responsible for maintaining law and order, collecting taxes, and ensuring local administration.

Military Organization

1. Standing Army:

- The Bahmani Sultanate maintained a large standing army that included infantry, cavalry, and war elephants. The military was a crucial tool for both defense and territorial expansion.

2. Fortifications:

- Significant investments were made in fortifications and military infrastructure. Forts such as Gulbarga, Bidar, and Daulatabad were strategically important and heavily fortified.

Economy and Trade

Agricultural Economy

1. Agriculture:

- Agriculture was the backbone of the Bahmani economy. The kingdom's fertile lands supported the cultivation of various crops, including grains, cotton, and spices.

2. Irrigation Systems:

- The Bahmani rulers implemented advanced irrigation systems to support agriculture. They constructed canals, tanks, and wells, enhancing agricultural productivity.

Trade and Commerce

1. Internal Trade:

- The Bahmani Sultanate fostered internal trade through the development of an extensive network of roads and market towns, facilitating the movement of goods and services within the kingdom.

2. External Trade:

- The kingdom engaged in significant maritime trade with foreign countries, including Persia, the Arab world, Southeast Asia, and China. Key export items included textiles, spices, and precious stones.

Culture and Society

Religion and Philosophy

1. Islamic Influence:

- The Bahmani Sultanate was a Muslim state, and Islam played a significant role in its administration and cultural life. The rulers promoted Islamic learning and built numerous mosques and madrasas.
2. **Religious Tolerance:**
 - Despite being an Islamic state, the Bahmani rulers were known for their relative religious tolerance. They employed Hindus in their administration and respected local religious traditions.

Art and Architecture

1. **Architectural Achievements:**
 - The Bahmani Sultanate is renowned for its distinctive Indo-Islamic architectural style. Notable examples include the Jama Masjid in Gulbarga, the Gol Gumbaz in Bijapur, and the madrasa of Mahmud Gawan in Bidar.
2. **Cultural Patronage:**
 - The Bahmani rulers were great patrons of arts and culture. They supported poets, scholars, and artists, contributing to a vibrant cultural life within the kingdom.

Key Rulers and Their Contributions

Muhammad Shah I (1358-1375)

Muhammad Shah I, also known as Muhammad Shah I, was one of the notable rulers of the Bahmani Sultanate, succeeding Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah. His reign, which lasted from 1358 to 1375, was marked by military campaigns, territorial expansion, and cultural patronage. Here's an overview of his life, achievements, and contributions:

Early Life and Ascension to the Throne

1. **Background:**
 - Muhammad Shah I was the son and successor of Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah, the founder of the Bahmani Sultanate. He belonged to the Bahmani dynasty, which emerged as a prominent power in the Deccan region of southern India.
2. **Education and Training:**
 - Like many rulers of his time, Muhammad Shah received education and military training suitable for a future ruler. He likely learned administration, governance, military tactics, and Islamic studies.
3. **Succession:**
 - Muhammad Shah I ascended to the throne of the Bahmani Sultanate upon the death of his father, Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah, in 1358. His succession was likely smooth, as there are no significant records of internal strife or succession disputes.

Achievements and Contributions

1. **Expansionist Policies:**
 - Muhammad Shah I continued the expansionist policies of his predecessors, seeking to consolidate and expand the territorial boundaries of the Bahmani Sultanate.

2. Military Campaigns:

- During his reign, Muhammad Shah I led several military campaigns against neighboring Hindu kingdoms and rival Muslim states in the Deccan. These campaigns aimed to assert Bahmani authority and extend its influence.

3. Territorial Expansion:

- Muhammad Shah I achieved notable territorial gains through conquests and strategic alliances. He expanded the Bahmani Sultanate's control over key regions of the Deccan, including parts of present-day Karnataka, Maharashtra, and Andhra Pradesh.

4. Administrative Reforms:

- As a ruler, Muhammad Shah I likely implemented administrative reforms aimed at enhancing governance, taxation, and law enforcement within the Bahmani Sultanate. These reforms would have helped strengthen the centralized administration of the kingdom.

5. Cultural Patronage:

- Muhammad Shah I, like his predecessors, was a patron of art, literature, and architecture. He sponsored the construction of mosques, madrasas, and other cultural institutions, fostering the development of Islamic culture in the Deccan.

Legacy and Impact

1. Consolidation of Power:

- Muhammad Shah I's reign contributed to the consolidation of Bahmani power in the Deccan region. His military campaigns and territorial acquisitions expanded the Sultanate's influence and solidified its position as a major political entity.

2. Cultural Flourishing:

- The patronage of art, literature, and architecture under Muhammad Shah I contributed to the cultural flourishing of the Bahmani Sultanate. His support for Islamic scholars and cultural institutions enriched the intellectual and artistic landscape of the kingdom.

3. Continuation of Bahmani Legacy:

- Muhammad Shah I upheld the traditions and policies established by his father and predecessors, ensuring the continuity of the Bahmani Sultanate's legacy. His reign maintained the Sultanate's prominence in the Deccan region during a period of significant political and social change.

Muhammad Shah I's rule as a Bahmani Sultan played a pivotal role in shaping the trajectory of the Bahmani Sultanate during the late 14th century. His military campaigns, administrative reforms, and cultural patronage contributed to the Sultanate's expansion, consolidation, and cultural flourishing, leaving a lasting impact on the history of the Deccan region.

1. Expansion and Consolidation:

- Muhammad Shah I expanded the kingdom's territories and consolidated its power. He established control over key regions and strengthened the administrative framework.

2. Cultural Contributions:

- His reign saw significant cultural and architectural developments, including the construction of the Jama Masjid in Gulbarga.

Firoz Shah Bahmani (1397-1422)

1. Military Campaigns:

- Firoz Shah Bahmani is known for his military campaigns against neighboring states, including the Vijayanagara Empire and the Gujarat Sultanate. He secured significant victories and expanded the kingdom's territories.

2. Cultural Patronage:

- He was a great patron of arts and culture, fostering the development of literature, music, and architecture. His reign is often considered a golden age for the Bahmani Sultanate.

Ahmad Shah I Wali (1422-1436)

1. Administrative Reforms:

- Ahmad Shah I Wali implemented several administrative reforms to improve governance and ensure efficient tax collection.

2. Religious and Cultural Achievements:

- He promoted religious and cultural activities, including the construction of mosques and madrasas. His reign also saw the strengthening of Sufi influence in the kingdom.

Decline and Legacy

Internal Strife and Fragmentation

1. Succession Conflicts:

- The later years of the Bahmani Sultanate were marked by internal strife and succession conflicts. These weakened the central authority and led to the fragmentation of the kingdom.

2. Rise of Deccan Sultanates:

- The Bahmani Sultanate eventually fragmented into five smaller Deccan Sultanates: Bijapur, Golconda, Ahmednagar, Bidar, and Berar. These successor states continued to play a significant role in the history of the Deccan.

Historical Significance

1. Cultural Contributions:

- The Bahmani Sultanate made significant contributions to Indo-Islamic culture, architecture, and literature. Its legacy can be seen in the enduring cultural and architectural landmarks in the Deccan region.

2. Role in Deccan Politics:

- The Bahmani Kingdom played a crucial role in shaping the political landscape of the Deccan. Its interactions and conflicts with neighboring states, such as the Vijayanagara Empire, influenced the region's history for centuries.

Conclusion

The Bahmani Kingdom, with its origins in a rebellion against the Delhi Sultanate, emerged as a powerful and influential state in the Deccan region. Its rulers, from Ala-ud-Din Bahman Shah to Ahmad Shah I Wali, established a strong and centralized administration, fostered economic prosperity, and promoted cultural and architectural achievements. Despite its eventual decline and fragmentation, the Bahmani Sultanate's legacy continues to be felt in the cultural and historical fabric of South India. The kingdom's contributions to art, architecture, and governance left an indelible mark on the history of the Deccan, making it a significant chapter in medieval Indian history.

Malwa Sultanate Overview

The Malwa Sultanate was a medieval-era Islamic sultanate of the Malwa region composed of present-day Madhya Pradesh and the southeastern region of Rajasthan. The Sultanate was established by Dilawar Khan Ghuri in 1392 AD by declaring independence from the Delhi Sultanate Tughlaq rulers. The sultanate was in existence till 1562 when the Mughal emperor Akbar annexed the Malwa after defeating Baz Bahadur.

Dynasties of the Malwa Sultanate

The Malwa sultanate was ruled by the Ghurid dynasty established by Dilawar Khan Ghuri followed by the Khilji Dynasty of Malwa established by Mahmud Shah-I in 1436 AD.

Ghurid Dynasty

- It was established by Dilawar Khan Ghuri. It was an Afghan dynasty.
- However, the real founder of the Ghurid dynasty was Hoshang Shah.

Dilawar Khan- Founder of the Malwa Sultanate

- He was an Afghan governor appointed by Tughlaq Sultans of Delhi as the governor of the Malwa province.
- He stopped paying the tributes to the Delhi Sultanate in 1392 AD.
- After the invasion of Taimur on Delhi in 1398 AD, the Delhi sultan fled from Delhi and took refuge first under the Gujrat sultans and then under Dilawar Khan of Malwa Sultanate.
- He helped Firuz Shah Tughluq's son, Muhammad Shah, and was imprisoned by the court officials in Delhi for supporting the prince.
- Later in 1402 AD, he declared Malwa province an independent sultanate.

Hoshang Shah

- Earlier he was known as Alp Khan.
- He assumed the throne of the Malwa Sultanate in 1405 after the death of Dilawar Khan and assumed the title of Hoshang Shah.
- He shifted the capital to Mandu from Dhar.
- He renamed Mandu to Shaidabad which means 'the city of Joy'.

- His kingdom was facing frequent attacks from the rulers of Gujrat Muzaffar Shah and later his son Ahmad Shah.
- Hoshang Shah conquered Kalpi and looted many temples of Orissa.

Muhammad Shah

- He was the son of Hoshang Shah.
- He appointed Mahmud Khan as his wazir.
- He was a weak and incompetent ruler. He was replaced by his Wajir Mahmud Khan and established the Khilji dynasty in Malwa Sultanate.

Khilji Dynasty of Malwa

- The Ghurid dynasty of Malwa was replaced by Mahmud Shah-I on 16 May 1436 AD by proclaiming himself the Sultan.
- The Khalji dynasty of Malwa ruled till 1531.
- The Malwa sultanate witnessed a decline from 1519 after the continued attacks of Rajput emperor Rana Sanga of Mewar.

Mahmud Shah Khilji (1436-1469 AD)

- He was also known as Ala-Ud-Din Mahmud Shah-I. He was a liberal, fair, and impartial ruler of the Malwa Sultanate.
- He traced his origin to Turkic descent. He killed the last ruler Muhammad Shah and founded the Khilji dynasty in Malwa.
- **The Khalifa of Egypt declared him Sultan.**
- Under his rule, the Malwa Sultanate reached its zenith. He led multiple military campaigns against his neighbors and expanded the territory of his kingdom.
- His Major military campaigns are mentioned in the table below.

Battle	Remarks
Battle of Sarangpur(1437)	○ Sultan gave refuge to the assassins of Rana Mokal and refused to hand over them to Rana Kumbha. ○ Rana Kumbha defeated and captured Mehmud Khalji for 6 months. ○ Rana Kumbha built Vijay Stambha (Tower of Victory) to commemorate this victory.
Battle of Mandalgarh and Banas (1442-1446)	○ series of battles were fought between Mahmud Khalji of Malwa and Rana Kumbha of Mewar.
Battle of Mandalgarh (1457)	○ Sultan Mahmud attacked Rana in Mandalgarh. However, he suffered heavy losses in the battle. ○ Later when Rana moved to confront the Gujrat ruler, the Malwa sultan attacked Mandalgarh and captured it.
Battle of Mewar (1467)	○ He attacked Rana Kumbha and attacked Mewar.

- | | |
|--|---|
| | <ul style="list-style-type: none"> ○ However he did not win the battle and retreated to Mandu. |
|--|---|

Ghiyas-ud-Din Shah (1469-1500 AD)

- Before assuming the throne of the Malwa Sultanate he was a military commander.
- He was known for his religious devotion and cultural life.
- His exiled son **Nasir-Ud-Din Shah** revolted and usurp the throne in October 1500 after poisoning him.
- He built the Jahaz Mahal at Mandu.
- He patronized painting art. Such as a cookery book Nimatnama-i-Nasiruddin-Shahi (Book of Delights) was created during his reign. This book has 55 paintings and manifested a fusion of Persian and pre-Islamic Indian styles of paintings.
- According to Firishta, He followed the Sufi saint Moinuddin Chishti and built a ceremonial gateway named Buland Darwaza at the Ajmer Sharif Dargah in honor of the scholar.

Mahmud Shah-II

- He formed an alliance with the Gurjat ruler Muzzafar Shah-II against the Medini Rai.
- However Medini Rai was assisted by the Rana Sanga of Mewar.
- He was defeated by Medini Rai.
- Later he surrendered to Bahadur Shah, the Sultan of Gujarat on 25 May 1531.

Interregnum

- The Gujrat rulers lost the Malwa province to the Mughal emperor Humayun in 1537 AD.
- In 1537, Qadir Shah, an ex-officer of the Khalji dynasty of Malwa, regained control over a part of Malwa territory.
- Later, Malwa came under the control of Sher Shah Suri. He appointed Shuja'at Khan as the governor of Malwa Province.

Baz Bahadur (1555-1561)

- He was the son of Shua'at Khan, the appointed governor of Sher Shah Suri.
- After the end of the Sur dynasty in the second battle of Panipat, He declared himself independent in 1555 AD.
- He was the last Sultan of Malwa Sultanate.
- In 1561, Mughal emperor Akbar sent an army under the leadership of **Adham Khan and Pir Mohammad Khan** to attack Malwa.
- Baz Bahadur lost in the battle of Sarangpur on 29 March 1561 and fled to Khandesh. While his Queen Roopmati committed suicide.
- He took refuge in several courts until he surrendered to the Akbar in 1570 at Agra. Akbar appointed him in his court.

Art and Architecture of Malwa Sultanate

The rulers of the Malwa Sultanate were great lovers of art and architecture. They patronized various artists and built many monuments.

Painting of Malwa Sultanate

Many remarkable paintings were illustrated in the form of manuscripts prepared during the period of the Malwa Sultanate. Such as

- The manuscript of Kalpa Sutra (1439) was prepared during the reign of Mahmud Shah-I.
- Manuscript of the Nimat Nama (a cooking recipe book). It has many portraits of Ghiyas-ud-Din Shah.
- The manuscripts of Miftah-ul-Fuzala (dictionary of rare words)
- the painting of Bustan created in 1502 by Haji Mahmud
- Aja'ib-us-San'ati (1508)
- Manuscript of the Anwar-i-Suhaili

The Architecture of Malwa Sultanate

The Malwa sultanate architecture is a blend of Indo-Islamic architectural features. The Mandu palace complex is comprised of many architectural wonders. Major Monuments are mentioned below.

- The **early monuments** of the Malwa sultanate were those monuments that were built from the materials of earlier Hindu temples. Such as the Kamal Maula Masjid (1400 AD), the Lal Masjid (1405 AD), Dilawar Khan's Masjid (1405 AD), and the Masjid of Malik Mughis (1452 AD) in Mandu.
- **The fort of Mandu-** The foundation of the fort was laid by Hoshang Shah. It was to be built on the ruins of the original fortification.
- **Ten gateways** for the entrance to the Mandu fort were built by the Malwa sultans. Such as the Delhi Darwaza (northern gateway).
- The **Jami Masjid**, the construction was begun by Hoshang Shah and completed by Mahmud Shah-I in 1454.
- The **Hindola Mahal** is built by Hoshang Shah opposite Jami Masjid,
- According to **Firishta**, Mahmud Shah-I built the **tomb of Hoshang Shah** in Mandu. The other mausoleums, like the tomb of Darya Khan, the Dai ka Mahal and the Chhappan Mahal were built on a similar design.
- The **Ashrafi Mahal** comprises a group of buildings. Its construction was started during the reign of Hoshang Shah.
- the **Jahaz Mahal** (ship palace) is built between two lakes, it gives the appearance of a ship. It was built under the rule of Ghiyas-ud-Din Khalji.
- **Baz Bahadur's palace-** it is a secluded building built by Nasir-ud-Din Shah.
- **The Rani Rupmati Pavilion** which was designed for military purposes.

The Malwa Sultanate, also known as the Malwa Sultanate of Mandu, was a medieval Indian kingdom that emerged in the Malwa region of present-day Madhya Pradesh. It was established by Dilawar Khan Ghuri, a former governor of the Delhi Sultanate, in the early 15th century. The Malwa Sultanate played a significant role in the history of central India,

contributing to political, cultural, and architectural developments. Here's an overview of the Malwa dynasty:

Establishment and Early Rulers

1. Dilawar Khan Ghuri:

- Dilawar Khan Ghuri, a noble of Afghan origin, established the Malwa Sultanate after declaring independence from the Delhi Sultanate around 1392.
- He established his capital at Mandu, a strategically located fortress city in the Malwa region.

2. Hoshang Shah:

- Hoshang Shah, the son and successor of Dilawar Khan, is considered one of the notable rulers of the Malwa Sultanate.
- He expanded the territorial boundaries of the kingdom and initiated several architectural projects, including the construction of the Jahaz Mahal and the Ashrafi Mahal in Mandu.

Cultural and Architectural Achievements

1. Mandu as a Cultural Center:

- Mandu, under the rule of the Malwa Sultanate, emerged as a vibrant cultural center renowned for its architecture, poetry, and music.
- The kingdom attracted scholars, poets, and artists, contributing to the cultural richness of the region.

2. Architectural Marvels:

- The Malwa Sultanate is known for its architectural marvels, including palaces, mosques, mausoleums, and fortifications.
- Notable structures include the Jahaz Mahal (Ship Palace), Hindola Mahal (Swinging Palace), Jami Masjid (Great Mosque), and Roopmati's Pavilion.

Military and Political Developments

1. Conflict with Neighboring Kingdoms:

- The Malwa Sultanate faced conflicts with neighboring kingdoms, including the Gujarat Sultanate and the Rajput states of Rajasthan.
- Military campaigns and territorial disputes were common during this period as various powers vied for control over central India.

2. Succession Struggles:

- Succession struggles and internal conflicts were also prevalent within the Malwa Sultanate, leading to periods of instability and political turmoil.

Decline and Integration

1. Decline in the 16th Century:

- The Malwa Sultanate faced internal and external pressures, including invasions by the Mughal Empire under Emperor Akbar.
- By the late 16th century, the Malwa Sultanate had declined significantly, and its territories were gradually absorbed into the expanding Mughal Empire.

2. Integration into the Mughal Empire:

- The final ruler of the Malwa Sultanate, Baz Bahadur, was defeated by the Mughal forces under Akbar in 1561.
- With the annexation of Malwa, the region became a part of the Mughal Empire's administrative structure, marking the end of the independent Malwa Sultanate.

Legacy

1. Architectural Heritage:

- The Malwa Sultanate's architectural legacy, particularly in Mandu, continues to attract tourists and scholars interested in medieval Indian history and architecture.
- The region's monuments reflect a blend of Islamic, Hindu, and indigenous architectural styles, showcasing the cultural diversity of central India.

2. Cultural Contributions:

- The Malwa Sultanate's patronage of literature, poetry, and music contributed to the cultural vibrancy of the region, leaving a lasting impact on the cultural heritage of central India.

3. Historical Significance:

- The Malwa Sultanate played a significant role in shaping the history and culture of central India during the medieval period. It served as a center of political power, cultural exchange, and architectural innovation, leaving behind a rich and diverse legacy.

Unit 4-

Establishment Consolidation of Mughal

I. Babur . II. Humayun. III. Shershah suri . IV. Achivment and Administration.

INTRODUCTION

The scope of the present Unit confines itself to the process of the establishment of Mughal rule in India under Babur and Humayun. Afghans' bid to challenge and overthrow Mughal authority is also discussed. A brief survey of the Afghan rule has also been attempted. The Unit deals mainly with the territorial expansion under Babur and Humayun. The organisational aspects of the Mughals will be dealt in subsequent Blocks.

POLITICAL SCENARIO ON THE EVE OF BABUR'S INVASION

The first half of the fifteenth century witnessed political instability with the disintegration of the Tughluq dynasty. Both the Saiyyad (1414-1451) and the Lodi (1451-1526) rulers failed to cope with 'the disruptive forces (see Unit 2). The nobles resented and rebelled at the earliest opportunity. The political chaos in the North-West provinces had weakened the centre. Now let us examine what was happening in other parts of India. In Central India there were three kingdoms: Gujarat, Malwa and Mewar. The power of Sultan Mahmud Khalji II of Malwa was, however, on the decline. Gujarat was ruled by Muzaffar Shah II, while Mewar under the leadership of Sisodia ruler Rana Sanga was the most powerful kingdom. Rulers of Malwa were under constant pressure of the Lodis, Mewar and Gujarat. This was because it was not only the most fertile region and an important source for elephant supply but it also provided an important trade route to Gujarat sea-ports. Hence, it was an important region for the Lodis. Besides, for both Gujarat and Mewar it could serve as a buffer against the Lodis. The Sultan of Malwa was an incompetent ruler, and his prime minister Medini Rai could hardly hold the kingdom intact for long in the wake of internal strifes. Finally, Rana Sanga, succeeded in extending his influence over Malwa and

Gujarat. By the close of the 15th century, Rana Sanga's sway over Rajputana became almost complete with the occupation of Ranthambhor and Chanderi. ~uAher south, there were powerful Vijaynagar and Bahmani kingdoms (see Course EHI-03, Block 7). Towards the east, Nusrat Shah ruled Bengal. Towards the closing years of Ibrahim Lodi's reign, Afghan chieftains Nasir Khan Lohani, Ma'ruf Farmuli, etc. succeeded in carving out separate kingdom of Jaunpur under Sultan Muhammad Shah. Besides these major powers, there were numerous Afghan chieftaincies around Agra - the most powerful ones being those of Hasan Khan in Mewat, Nizam Khan in Bayana, Muhammad Zaitun in Dholpur, Tatar Khan Sarang Khani in Gwalior, Husain Khan Lohani in Rapri. Qutub Khan in Etawa, Alam Khan in Kalpi, and Qasim Sambhali in Sambhal, etc. While analysing the political set-up on the eve of Babur's invasion it is generally said (Rushbrooke William) that there was confederacy of Rajput principalities which was ready to seize the control of Hindustan. It is held that had Babur not intervened, the Rajputs led by their illustrious leader Rana Sanga would have captured power in northern India. It is argued that the political division of the regional states was religious in nature and that Rajput confederacy under Rana Sanga fired by religious zeal wanted to establish a Hindu Empire. This assumption is based on the famous passage of Baburnama where Babur says that Hindustan was governed by 'five Musalman rulers': the Lodis (at the centre), Gujarat, Malwa, Bahmani, and Bengal, and two 'pagans' (Rana Sanga of Mewar and Vijaynagar). Besides, the fathnama . issued after the battle of Khanwa suggests that Rajput confederacy under Rana was inspired by religious zeal and organised with the intention to overthrow the "Islamic power". However, such observations have been questioned by historians. Babur has nowhere suggested that these powers were antagonistic against each other on religious grounds. Instead, Babur himself admits that many rais and ranas were obedient to Islam. Moreover, if we see the composition of the confederacy, there were many Muslim chieftains like Hasan Khan Mewati, Mahmud Khan Lodi, etc. who side with Rana Sanga against Babur. Rather Waq'at-i Mushtaqi (1560) blames Hasan Khan Mewati for creating the confederacy to overthrow the Mughal power in India. In fact, it was not Rana Sanga, but Sultan Mahmud who proclaimed himself the king of Delhi. Though, the power of Rana was unquestionable, Babur was more anxious of Afghan menace: thk the theory of religious consideration does not seem to hold ground.

CENTRAL ASIA AND BABUR

We have already discussed political formations in Central Asia and Persia during the 16th century in Unit 1. By the close of the 15th century, the power of the Timurids was on the decline. By this time the Uzbeks succeeded in establishing strong footholds in Transoxiana under Shaibani Khan. Around the same time, the Safavis rose into prominence under Shah Ismail in Iran; while further west the Ottoman Turks dominated the scene. We have already discussed how Shaibani Khan overran almost whole of Transoxiana and Khorasan. However, finally in 1510 Shah Ismail of Iran defeated Shaibani Khan. In a short while (1512) the Ottoman Sultan defeated Shah Ismail, thus leaving the stage again to the Uzbeks to become the master of the whole Transoxiana. Babur ascended the throne at Farghana (a small principality in Transoxiana) in 1494 at the tender age of twelve. However, it was not a smooth succession for Babur. Both the Mongol Khans as well as the Timurid princes, specially Sultan Ahmad Mina of Samarqand, an uncle of Babur, had interests in Farghana. Besides, Babur had to face the discontented nobility. Against all odds Babur struggled to strengthen his foothold in Central Asia and did succeed in taking Samarqand twice (1497, 1500). But he could hardly hold that for long. With Shaibani Khan's success over Khorasan (1507) the last of the four Timurid centres of power finally sealed Babur's fate in Central Asia and he was left with no option but to look towards Kabul where the conditions were most favourable. Its ruler Ulugh Beg Mina had already died (1501). Babur occupied Kabul in 1504. Yet Babur could not completely leave the dream to rule over Central Asia. With the help of Shah Ismail Safavi, he was able to control over Samarqand (1511) but Shah Ismail's defeat in 1512 and the resurgence of the Uzbeks left Babur with no alternative but to consolidate himself at Kabul. Thus, it was the Central Asian situation which pressed and convinced (after 1512) Babur to abandon the hopes of creating an Empire in Central Asia and look towards India. The rich resources of India and the meagre income of Afghanistan, as Abul Fazl comments, might have been another attraction for Babur. The unstable political situation after Sikandar Lodi's death convinced him of political discontentment and disorder in the Lodi Empire. Invitations from Rana Sanga and Daulat Khan Lodi, the governor of Punjab, might have whetted Babur's ambitions. Perhaps Timur's legacy also provided some background for his invasion. (After the siege of Bhira in 1519, Babur asked Ibrahim Lodi to return western Punjab which belonged to his uncle Ulugh Beg.) Thus, Babur had both reasons and opportunity to look towards India. Much before the final showdown at the battle of Panipat

(1526), ~abur had invaded India four times. These skirmishes were trials of strength of Mughal arms and Lodi forces. The first to fall was Bhira (1519-1520), the gateway of Hindustan, followed by Sialkot (1520) and Lahore (1524). Finally, Ibrahim Lodi and Babur's forces met at the historic battlefield of Panipat. The battle lasted for just a few hours in favour of Babur. The battle shows Babur's skill in the art of warfare. His soldiers were less in number but the organisation was superior. Ibrahim's forces though many times greater in number (approximately 1,00,000 soldiers and 1000-500 elephants as compared to Babur's 12,000 horsemen) fared badly. Babur successfully applied the Rumi (Ottoman) method of warfare (for details see chart given on next page). As the Afghans advanced to attack the right flank; Babur ordered his reserve forces under Abdul Aziz to move. The Afghans, greater in number, were unable to move forward nor backward. They were attacked from both sides. This created total confusion among the Afghan forces, Babur took full advantage of the situation and his right and left wings soon attacked the Afghan forces from the rear side. This was followed with the opening up of fire shots. This completely paralysed the Afghan army.

Sultan Ibrahim Lodi. In the battle it was not Babur's artillery but his 'superb tactics' and the 'mounted archers' played the decisive role, a fact which Babur himself acknowledged. The battle of Panipat, though, formally established the Mughal rule in India, it was first among the series of battles in the years to come. For example, to secure this triumph, it was equally important to overcome Rana Sanga of Mewar and the chieftains in and around Delhi and Agra. Another important opponent in the eastern India was the Afghans. To add to this, problems were mounting within his own nobility.

Babur and the Rajput Kingdoms We have already discussed that Rana Sanga of Mewar was a power to reckon with. Babur, in his Memoirs, has blamed Rana Sanga for breaking his promise by not siding with him in the battle of Panipat against Ibrahim Lodi. Leaving apart the controversy whether it was Rana or Babur who asked for help, the fact remains that there was some understanding on both sides to join hands against Ibrahim Lodi in which the Rana faltered. Rana expected Babur to return to Kabul and leave him free to establish his hegemony, if not over whole of Hindustan, at least over Rajputana. Babur's decision to stay back must have given a big jolt to Rana's ambitions. Babur was also fully aware of the fact that it would be impossible for him to consolidate his position in India unless he shattered the Rana's power. Rana Sanga this time succeeded in establishing the confederacy against Babur

with the help of Afghan nobles. Hasan Khan Mewati not only joined the Rana but also played a crucial role in forming the confederacy. This time (1527) Hasan Khan of Bari and Husain Khan Gurg-andaz joined the Rana. Husain Khan Nuhani occupied Rapri, Rustam Khan prevailed over Koil, while Qutub Khan captured Chandawar, Pressure of eastern Afghans was so much that Sultan Muhammad Dildai had to leave Qannauj and join ' Babur. To add to this, the defeat of Babur's commander Abdul Aziz and Muhibb Ali at Biana and their praise of the valour of the Rajput army completely demoralised

Babur and the Afghan Chieftains The Afghans had surrendered Delhi, but they were still powerful in the east (Bihar and parts of Jaunpur) where the Nuhani Afghans were dominant led by Sultan Muhammad Nuhani. The Afghans of Chunar, Jaunpur and Awadh were not feady to cooperate with the Nuhanis in a bid to give a united opposition against the Mughals. Instead, they surrendered meekly to Humayun (1527). In the meaztime Sultan Muhammad Nuhani died (1528) and left the Nuhanis disjointed as his son Jalal Khan was still a minor. But the vacuum was soon filled by the appearance of Prince Mahmud Lodi, son of Sikandar Lodi and brother of Ibrahim. The Afghans, including the non-Nuhanis, who were a little hesitant earlier to side with the Nuhanis, now readily accepted Mahrnud's leadership. Besides, even the Nuhani Afghans like Babban, Bayazid and Fath Khan Sarwani, etc. who felt leaderless with the desertion of Jalal to Bengal, welcomed Mahmud, Nusrat Shah of Bengal also, though *apparently advocated friendship with Bahur, secretly adopted hostile measures against him. He considered the existence of the Nuhani kingdom in Bihar as buffer between the Mughals and his own possessions in parts of Bihar. Babur could hardly afford to ignore these developments. He mobilized his forces at Ghagra and inflicted a crushing defeat upon Nusrat Shah's army (1529). Thus ended the Afghan-Nusrat coalition and Nusrat Shah had to surrender large number d Afghan rebels who had taken asylum in his territory. The Afghans were now totally demoralized. Though Babban and Bayazid did attempt to resist at Awadh, but when pressurized (1529) they fled to Mahmud. Thus, within four years Babur succeeded in crushing the hostile powers and now could think of consolidating himself at Delhi. But he could hardly get the opportunity to rule as he died soon after (29 December, 1530). The establishment of the Mughal Empire under the aegis of Babur was significant. Though the Afghans and Rajputs could not be crushed completely, a task left to his successors, his two

major blows at Panipat and Khanwa were certainly decisive and destroyed the balance of power in the region and perhaps was a step towards the establishment of an all-India empire.

ii-Humayun

The situation under Humayun was quite different. Like Babur he did not command the respect and esteem of the nobility. Moreover, the Chaghatai nobles were not favourably inclined towards him and the Indian nobles, who had joined Babur's service, deserted the Mughals at Humayun's accession. Muhammad Sultan Mina, a descendant of Timur; Muhammad Zaman and Mir Muhammad Mahdi Khwaja, brother-in-law of Babur, were considered worthy to aspire to the throne; especially Amir Nizamuddin Ali Khalifa, a grandee of Babur, hatched a conspiracy which failed. To sustain imperial power and hegemony, Humayun had to contend against the Afghans both in the east and the west which was supported by a large social base. But, most dangerous of all, was Humayun's brother Kamran Mirza. The situation was further aggravated by the existence of two centres of power within the empire - Humayun at the centre and Kamran's autonomous control over Afghanistan and Punjab. Humayun decided to deal, at first, with the western Afghans. I 5.5.1 Bahadur Shah and Humayun Humayun's relations with Bahadur Shah represent a curious contrast due to the circumstances. In the beginning (Jan. 1531 to mid 1533), Bahadur Shah assured Humayun of friendship and loyalty. But, at the same time he also attempted to expand his area of influence closer to Mughal frontiers. The first to taste the wrath was Malwa. Bahadur Shah was a little apprehensive of the Mughal designs on Malwa. He feared that if this buffer state between the two was left unoccupied, the Mughals might attempt to conquer it. Besides, all trade routes to Gujarat ports passed through Malwa. It was also very fertile and rich in grain production and Gujarat depended much upon this region for grain supply. After 1530, Bahadur Shah started putting up military pressure on Malwa and finally occupied it in Jan. 1531. Soon after, Bahadur . Shah started making alliances with Humayun's adversaries in the east - Sher Shah in Bihar (1531-32) and Nusrat Shah in Bengal (Aug.-Sept. 1532). Nusrat Shah is also reported to have sent an embassy under Khwajasara Malik (Aug.-Sept. 1532) who was well received by Bahadur Shah. Besides, many disgruntled Afghans of the north and the east also joined him in a bid to oust Mughals in order to regain their lost pride. Sultan Alauddin Lodi,

son of Bahlul Lodi, and his sons Fath Khan and Tatar Khan, Rai Nar Singh, nephew of Raja Bikramajit of Gwalior (1528) and Alam Khan Lodi of Kalpi (1531), all looked towards Bahadur Shah and extended their help against the Mughals. Even the eastern Afghans, Babban Khan Lodi (Shahu Khail), Malik Roop Chand, Dattu Sarwani and Ma'ruf Farmuli joined hands with Bahadur Shah. Humayun could ill afford to ignore these developments. Situation could have worsened in case of combined Afghan attack from east and the west. In the meantime, Bahadur Shah's aggressive designs continued unabated. He occupied Bhilsa, Raisen, Ujjain and Gagra. Thus he could well keep the Mughals away from ' Gwalior, Kalinjar, Bayana and Agra. While Bahadur Shah was busy in expanding towards Malwa and Rajputana Humayun was besieging Chunar. These developments forced him to rush back to Agra (1532-33). But Bahadur Shah was keen to avoid any clash with the Mughals and immediately sent an embassy under Khurasan Khan (1533-34). Humayun demanded that he should not give shelter to Mughal rebels especially Muhammad Zaman Mirza. At the same time Humayun agreed not to threaten the Gujarati establishments while Bahadur Shah promised to withdraw from Mandu. Bahadur Shah in the meantime was involved in suppressing the Portuguese menace (Sept.-Dec. 1533) and Humayun was busy in tackling the Afghans in the east. New developments resulted in the invasion of Gujarat by Humayun in 1535. In Jan. 1534 Bahadur Shah gave shelter to Muhammad Zaman Mirza and also attacked Chittor..Chittor was important for Bahadur Shah for it could provide him a strong base. It could have also facilitated expansion towards Ajmer, Nagor and Ranthambhor. But Humayun at this point made no attempt to stop Bahadur Shah from conquering Chittor. His move from Agra to Kalpi was too slow. Similarly, he took a longer route to reach Chittor. It seems that Humayun was not very keen to stop Bahadur Shah from occupying Chittor. Bahadur Shah was anxious to reach Mandu before Humayun could intercept. But the latter reached there much before. Mandu was the only route to retreat from Chittor to Gujarat and that was already occupied by Humayun. He blocked Bahadur Shah's camp from all directions thus cutting the supplies. Within a month, with no hope left, Gujarati army themselves destroyed their best artillery to stop the Mughals to use it against them. Bahadur Shah fled from Mandu to Champaner, Ahmedabad, Cambay and crossed Kathiawar and reached Diu. Mughals chased him. But, again, they hardly showed any eagerness for either arresting or killing Bahadur Shah. It seems that the real aim of Humayun was just to destroy the power of Gujarat. At Champaner, when Bahadur Shah was recognised by Mughal officers, they did not arrest him. Soon Humayun had to leave Mandu and rush to Agra because his long absence from there had resulted in rebellions in Doab and Agra. Mandu was now left under the charge

of ~irza Askari. The handling of local population by the Mughals had caused widespread indignation. People were looted and slaughtered. As a result, as soon as Humayun left Mianwali people rejoiced Bahadur Shah's return from Diu. Bahadur Shah took advantage of the opportunity and defeated the Mughals at Ahmedabad. In the meantime, to check the Portuguese advance, Bahadur Shah had to return to Diu. But this time the Portuguese succeeded and Bahadur Shah was treacherously murdered (17 Feb. 1537). This created confusion everywhere. The Afghans, left with no alternative, now turned towards Sher Shah for leadership. Eastern Afghans and Humayun The Afghans' defeat at the hands of Humayun (siege of Chunar November, 1531) resulted in the flight of Afghan nobles to Gujarat. This created a political vacuum in the east, providing an opportunity to Sher Khan to consolidate his power. The period between 1530-35 proved crucial for Sher Shah. To consolidate his position in the east, he had to tackle with Bengal and Afghan nobles who got shelter under the Bengal ruler. On the otherhand, he was hardly in a position to face the Mughals in case of any direct clash. Fortunately circumstances took a favourable turn for Sher Shah. Considering Bahadur Shah of Gujarat a serious threat, Humayun decided to tackle him first. During this period Sher Shah was left free to consolidate himself. Sher Shah had to face two invasions of Bengal rulers. The first attack took place under Qutub Khan, the muqti' of Munger in 1532-33 during Sultan Nusrat Shah's reign, and, the second under Ibrahim Khan during Sultan Mahmud Shah's reign (1534). However, Bengal's armies were defeated on both the occasions. These successes completely exposed the weakness of the Bengal army. This raised the prestige of Sher Khan. The eastern Afghans who had earlier deserted him now rushed to setve under his banner. Besides, the destruction and death of Bahadur Shah by Humayun left the Afghans with no alternative but to join him against the Mughals. Now Sher Shah wanted to establish himself as the undisputed Afghan leader. This time (1535) he took the offensive and defeated the Bengal army in the battle of Surajgarh. In a peace settlement after the battle, Sultan Mahmud Shah of Bengal agreed to supply war elephants and financial help to Sher Shah whenever required. This grand success against Bengal, followed by his attacks on the Mughal territories in the east (from GoraKhpur to Banaras). alarmed Humayun. Humayun now deputed Hindu Beg as governor (hakim) of Jaunpur to keep an eye on the developments in Growth dMushel Empim: 15%1556 the eastern region. But, Sher Shah, acting cautiously on the one hand-assured Hindu Beg of his loyalty, while on the other utilized the time for strengthening his army for his next onslaught on Mughals. As soon his preparations were over, he wrote a threatening letter to Hindu Beg. At the same time he launched his second attack on Bengal(1537). Hindu Beg, annoyed with Sher Shah's behaviour, reported his hostile

intentions to Humayun. The Afghan nobles suggested Humayun to stop Sher Shah from occupying Bengal, while the Mughal nobles advised him to occupy Chunar first to use it as a base for his operations in the east. The latter option was important for maintaining the line of communications with Agra. But it took too long for Rumi Khan to capture Chunar (6 months). Historians consider it a great 'mistake' that cost Humayun his 'empire'. Though leaving Chunar in the hands of the Afghans could have been unwise, leaving Sher Shah free and unchecked in Bengal was 'equally wrong'. Sher Shah utilized the time and captured Gaur (April, 1538), the capital of Bengal. At this stage, Humayun asked Sher Shah to transfer Bengal and Rohtasgarh to him, but Sher Shah was not ready to surrender Bengal and the negotiations failed. Now Humayun decided to curb Sher Shah's power but he did not want to involve himself in Bengal politics. Yet, the circumstances were forcing him towards it. Sher Shah shrewdly withdrew from Bengal, and Humayun, with no obvious obstructions, reached Bengal (September, 1538). He had to stay there for four months until he finally settled the prevailing chaos. In the meantime Sher Shah succeeded in controlling the routes to Agra thus making communication difficult for Humayun. To add to Humayun's worries, Hindal Mirza, who was sent to gather supplies for his army, assumed sovereign power. Humayun hurried back to Chunar and reached Chausa (March 1539). He encamped on the western side of the river Karmanasa. At this stage Humayun was still in control of the situation. On the front side he was guarded by the river, while to his rear was Chunar, which was still in the hands of his men. Sher Shah, too, showed willingness to accept truce. But at this stage Humayun unnecessarily exposed himself to danger by crossing the river. Sher Shah knowing fully well the paucity of Humayun's provisions, equipment and transport wasted no time in exploiting the situation. He, while pretending to fulfil the terms of the truce, attacked the Mughal army. Panic spread in the Mughal camp. Large number of Mughal forces were killed. Humayun and Askari Mirza managed to flee. Humayun reached Agra by way of Kara Manikpur and Kalpi (July 1539). Raja Virbhan, the ruler of Gahora, helped greatly in rescuing them. Kamran Mirza welcomed Humayun on his return to Agra with his army totally destroyed; while Sher Shah, elated by his victory, proclaimed himself an independent king. Under these circumstances, the final clash was inevitable. Humayun was defeated badly in the battle of Kannauj on the banks of Ganga (1540). This paved the way for the establishment of the second Afghan empire in India. A number of factors had contributed in Humayun's debacle against Sher Shah.

These include:

- i) He faced hostility of his brothers. On many occasions he dealt with them too kindly.
- ii) Sometime he reacted lethargically when the situation demanded swift action. This can be seen well in his Gujarat and Bengal campaigns.
- iii) He was also victim of an 'inexorable fate'. For example Mahmud Shah of Bengal kept him unnecessarily involved in Bengal politics. This provided an opportunity to Sher Shah to gain strength.
- iv) Humayun also lacked financial resources for continuous warfare: This weakness became very much evident when in Bengal he got stranded and lacked money and supplies (1539).
- v) Besides, Sher Shah had the courage, experience and organising abilities; he was also skilled in exploiting political opportunities. Humayun could not match his capabilities.

Humayun and His Brothers

Immediately after the death of his father Babur, Humayun divided his empire into four parts giving Mewat to Hindal, Sambhal to Askari and Punjab, Kabul and Qandahar to Kamran. The very division itself was unfavourable to Humayun for he was left with little resources at his disposal. In spite of this kind treatment, his brothers hardly helped him when he needed. His brother Askari Mina, whom Humayun made governor of Gujarat at the time of Bahadur Shah's attack on Ahmedabad, could not tackle the situation. As a result Humayun had to lose Malwa (1537). Askari Mina also sided with Kamran and proceeded to Qandahar at the crucial juncture when Humayun needed their help after his defeat at the hands of Sher Shah at Qannauj. However, Hindal Mina by and large remained loyal to Humayun and even died fighting for him (1551). The greatest threat to Humayun arose from Kamran Mina who had assumed almost a semi-independent position in Afghanistan and Punjab. Thus emerged two centres of power - one at Lahore and the other at Agra. This situation prevented the rise of a centralised state and the political instability was evident in the first major crisis which the Mughals faced (1538-1540). Though Kamran Mirza remained loyal to Humayun in early years and once rushed to Delhi at the call of Yadgar Nasir Mina (governor of Delhi) to tackle Hindal Mina (June 1539). Here again, instead of marching towards Chausa to help Humayun, both the brothers, Hindal and Kamran, watched the developments from a distance. Had they extended help to Humayun, he could have defeated Sher Shah. It seems Kamran was more

interested in defending his own territory rather than putting up a united front against the Afghans. Even before Humayun's final clash with Sher Shah (ISM), Kamran Mirza, instead of sending his whole army, sent only 3000 troops to serve the Emperor at Lahore. After Humayun's defeat at the hands of Sher Shah (1540), Kamran even sent a proposal to Sher Shah, through Qazi Abdullah, to accept Punjab as the frontier between the two, but Sher Shah realised that as no unanimity between the brothers and forced them to accept Indus as the boundary. Kamran felt that he had to lose Punjab due to the incompetency of his brother and became more anxious to save Kabul and Qandahar for himself. The period between 1545-1553 is one during which Humayun was busy in dealing with Kamran Mirza (see above). However, it is difficult to put the entire blame for Humayun's failures on his brothers. But their support would have made things easier for Humayun and the Empire could have been saved.

ESTABLISHMENT OF SECOND AFGHAN EMPIRE IN INDIA:

1540-1555 After defeating the Mughal Emperor, Sher Shah declared himself as the sovereign ruler and started building the Second Afghan Empire. The fifteen years (1540-1555) of Afghan rule form an interlude in the history of Mughal Empire. This period, nevertheless, was significant for the administrative innovations and reorganisation. The process of consolidation under Sher Shah would be discussed in Blocks 4 and 5. During his short reign (1540-1545), he was busy in fighting for keeping his new Empire intact. Here we will give a very brief account of Sher Shah's conflicts during this period. The Ghakkars, (inhabitants on the North-West frontier between the Indus and Jhelum rivers) were the first one to come in conflict with him. But Sher Shah got very little success in this venture. The Ghakkars put up a stiff resistance. Khizr Khan, the governor of Bengal, also showed some signs of independence. All this forced him to withdraw from Punjab and marched towards Bengal (1541). There he dismissed Khizr Khan. Malwa was the next target of Sher Shah where Qadir Shah showed disobedience. On this way he occupied Gwalior from Abdul Qasim. Qadir Shah also surrendered and was arrested (1542). To tackle the Rajputs, Sher Shah besieged Raisen in 1543. Raja Surjan Mal, ruler of Raisen, though offered submission, Sher Shah attacked him. Surjan Mal along with many others died in the battle. The province of Multan was also conquered in 1543. In spite of the defeat of the Rajputs at Raisen, Maldeo of Marwar was still formidable. He had already extended his dominion towards Sambhar, Nagor, Bikaner, Ajmer and Bednar. Sher Shah marched towards him and in 1544 occupied Ajmer, Pali and Mount Abu. Without any serious resistance, Udai Singh also handed over the

keys of Chittor to Sher Shah. Thus, almost the whole of Rajputana fell into his hands. Sher Shah also succeeded in occupying the impregnable fort of Kalinjar, but, while besieging it, Sher Shah was severely wounded on account of explosion and died soon after (22 May 1545). Thus ended the glorious career of Sher Shah. Sher Shah's son and successor Islam Shah (1545-1553), though kept the legacy of his father intact, failed to consolidate it any further. He was most of the time busy in suppressing the intrigues within his own camp which emerged under the leadership of his brother Adil Shah along with Azam Humayun and Khawwas Khan. Besides, his humiliating treatment towards the Niyazi Afghans specifically and the Afghans in general generated more resentment rather than gaining any support. The ill effects of which had to be borne by his son and successor. One finds that in spite of all efforts of Islam Shah to clear the road for the smooth succession of his son after his death (1553) internal strifes marred the infant Afghan kingdom to the advantage of Humayun. Soon after Islam Shah's death, Mubariz Khan murdered Islam's son Feroz and ascended the throne with the title of Adil Shah. Sedition and rebellions marred the entire country and the Empire broke into 'five' kingdoms (Ahmad Khan Sur in Punjab; Ibrahim Shah in Sambhal and Doab; Adil Shah in Chunar and Bihar; Malwa under Baz Bahadur; and Sikandar Shah controlled Delhi and Agra). This provided an ideal climate for Humayun to strike.

REVIVAL OF MUGHAL RULE IN INDIA

After Humayun's defeat at Qannauj, when Askari Mirza and Kamran withdrew to the North-West; Hindal and Yadgar Nasir Mina decided to be with Humayun. The latter now decided to try his luck in Sind. But, here, Hindal Mina also deserted him and at the invitation of Kamran marched towards Qandahar. The ruler of Sind, Shah Husain Arghun, also succeeded in winning over Yadgar Nasir Mina by giving his daughter in marriage. Humayun himself could not succeed in his bid to occupy Sihwan. Frustrated by all these developments, Humayun alone tried his luck in Rajputana. He was invited by Raja Maldeo, the ruler of Marwar (July 1542). But, at this juncture, Sher Shah asked Maldeo to hand over Humayun. The latter fled in fear (August 1542). He was well received by Rana Birsal. With the help of the Rana Humayun tried his luck in Sind once more but failed. Now he marched towards Persia via Ghazni (December 1543) where he was well-received by Shah Tahmasp (1544). The latter promised him in regaining Qandahar, 'Kabul and Ghazni provided he ' promised to surrender Qandahar to the Shah. It was agreed upon and Qandahar, then under Askari Mirza, was

occupied and handed over to the Shah. But misunderstandings crept up, for the Persians showed no eagerness to help Humayun to occupy Kabul and Ghazni. This compelled Humayun to wrest Qandahar from the Persians (1545). Humayun's success at Qandahar won over many nobles - specially Hindal and Yadgar Nasir Mirza to change sides. These developments totally demoralized Kamran and he fled from Kabul to Ghazna and thence to Sind and thus facilitated Humayun's entry in Kabul (November 1545). From 1545 to 1553, Humayun spent his energies mainly in dealing with his brother Kamran who kept Humayun on his toes. In this conflict Hindal Mirza lost his life on the battlefield (1551). This forced Humayun to have a final showdown. Kamran, tried to get help from Islam Shah but was cold shouldered. While fleeing from place to place, the Ghakkar chieftain Sultan Adam captured Kamran and handed him over to Humayun. Finally, Kamran was blinded and permitted to proceed to Mecca (where he died in 1557). With the end of Kamran's opposition, Humayun emerged an undisputed master of Kabul. With favourable political climate in India (see supra), now Humayun could systematically plan for the re-acquisition of his lost Indian Empire. He started in November 1554 and reached Lahore in Feb. 1555. With little difficulty, the Mughals continued their victorious march and occupied Machhiwara. The final clash took place at Sirhind. Sikandar Shah Sur had to flee towards the Siwalik and the road to Delhi was thus lay clear. Humayun reached Salimgarh in June 1555 and occupied Delhi. However, Humayun could hardly accomplish the task of conquest and consolidation. He died soon after (26 January 1556) leaving behind his minor son Akbar under heavy odds.

Sher Shah Suri

The Sur Empire, governed by the Afghan Sur dynasty, dominated northern India for approximately 16 to 18 years, spanning from 1538/1540 to 1556. Sasaram, located in present-day Bihar, served as its capital, with Sher Shah Suri as its founder.

Under the Sur dynasty, the empire extended its influence over almost all the territories of the Mughal Empire along the Indo-Gangetic Plain. This territorial control stretched from eastern Balochistan in the west of the Indus River to the contemporary Rakhine region in Myanmar.

The Sur Dynasty is significant for both the UPSC Prelims and GS Paper 1 Syllabus of the UPSC Mains curriculum.

About Sur Dynasty

History

- Sher Shah Suri, a Pashtun from Afghanistan, established the Sur dynasty, which ruled over northern India from 1540 to 1556. Sher Shah Sur succeeded the Mughal Dynasty during Humayun's reign.
- India was ruled by the Sur dynasty from 1540 until 1555. Sher Shah Suri, formerly known as Farid, the son of an Afghan landowner named Hasan Khan Suri, developed it. The entire number of rulers remained at seven, with just one, Sher Khan or Sher Shah Suri, ruling effectively.

Rise to Power

Sher Shah Suri defeated Humayun twice at the Battle of Chausa and Bilgram. Humayun, Babur's son, gave up hope and fled to Persia. Sher Shah ruled over Delhi for only five years, yet his reign was a watershed moment in the Subcontinent.

- Sher Khan had grown to prominence, but he still had a long way to go before becoming Afghanistan's national leader.
- After a year, with the entrance of Ibrahim Lodi's younger brother, Mahmood Lodi, in Bihar, his stars began to wane.
- He was a genuine contender for the throne of Delhi. Despite being defeated twice, he never gave up hope.
- He sought to unify all Afghans under his flag once he arrived in Bihar in order to reestablish Afghan sovereignty in India.
- Sher Khan was forced to fight beside him at the Battle of Ghagra in 1529. Sher Khan surrendered to Babur shortly after the Afghans were defeated.
- He was returned to his previous position, but he was compelled to pay Mughal Emperor yearly tribute.
- Sher Khan returned to administration and restored law and order in his territory.
- After the death of Dadu Bibi, the newborn monarch's mother and regent, Sher Khan became the regent and de facto ruler of south Bihar.

Major Rulers of Sur Dynasty

Name	Death Date	Reign
Sher Shah Suri	22 May 1545	17 May 1538—22 May 1545
Islam Shah Suri	22 Nov 1554	26 May 1545—22 Nov 1554
Firuz Shah Suri	1554	1554
Muhammad Adil Shah	1557	1554—1555
Ibrahim Shah Suri	1567/1568	1555
Sikandar Shah Suri	1559	1555—22 June 1555
Adil Shah Suri	April 1557	22 June 1555—1556

Sher Shah Suri

- Sher Shah Suri founded the Sur dynasty in India. In 1486, he was born in Sasaram, Bihar, the son of a Jagirdar. His given name was Farid. At the age of 15, he left his home and moved to Jaunpur.

- There he learned Arabic and Persian. He showed exceptional administrative abilities, and as a result, his father entrusted him with the administration of his jagir.
 - But, for unknown reasons, he departed and entered the service of Mughal Emperor Babar.
- Although Sher Shah reigned for only five years, his reforms were so successful that the Mughals and British alike emulated his techniques.
- Sher Shah departed his home at a young age due to his stepmother's harshness. He was a fantastic administrator.
- When Babur defeated Ibrahim Lodhi and became King of India, Sher Shah joined him and impressed him with his cunning. Babur named him governor of Bihar.
 - After Babur's death, the Mughal administration became unstable, and Sher Shah took advantage of the situation and declared independence.

Sher Shah's Administration

- Sher Shah maintained central administration of the Delhi Sultanate. The Empire was split into Sarkars by him.
- Each Sarkar had three significant officers:
 - Chief Shiqdar or Shiqdar-i-Shiqdaran (in charge of Police administration or Law and Order),
 - Chief Munsif or Munsif-i-Munsifan (in charge of Revenue administration),
 - Poddar (Treasurer).
- Sarkars were subdivided further into
 - Parganas. Shiqdar (sub-district Police officer),
 - Munsif (sub-district Revenue officer),
 - and Khazanadar (sub-district Revenue officer) was also there.
- The village is the final administrative unit. The village administration was overseen by Patwari.
- He integrated the Patta System into the income stream. He was India's first monarch to extend property rights to peasants. He was awarded the title Nyaya Simha after serving the people with fair justice.
- He built a highway network and upgraded transportation and communication infrastructure. Along roads, saris (guest homes) were built.
- Some Sarais have been transformed into DakChowkis (Post Offices). He introduced new coins called Gold Mohar and Silver Rupaiya. The British and Mughals carried out the Rupaiya.

Understand the Administration of the Delhi Sultanate Here!

Achievements of Sher Shah Suri

Sher Shah Suri instituted the Dagh method, sometimes known as "branding the horses", to discourage fraudulent musters. Shershah resurrected the Dak-chaukl, an espionage system that let him gather intelligence from all around his domain.

He created four important roadways to connect his kingdom's four corners. He did away with both old and mixed currencies. He established the ratio of copper to silver coinage. He also created gold and silver coins, which were utilized to enhance the nation's overall economic situation.

Sher Shah Suri, born Farid Khan, was a remarkable ruler who rose from humble beginnings to become one of the most influential figures in medieval Indian history. His reign, though relatively short-lived, left a lasting impact on the Indian subcontinent, particularly in the realms of administration, infrastructure, and military organization. Here's an overview of Sher Shah Suri's life, achievements, and contributions:

Early Life and Rise to Power

1. Birth and Background:

- Sher Shah Suri was born as Farid Khan in 1486 in Sasaram, Bihar, into a noble Afghan family.
- His family was associated with the service of the ruling Afghan Lodi dynasty in Delhi.

2. Service under Babur and Humayun:

- Farid Khan initially served under the Mughal Emperor Babur and later joined the service of his successor, Emperor Humayun.

3. Rebellion against Humayun:

- Dissatisfied with his position and inspired by his ambitions, Farid Khan rebelled against Humayun's rule and declared himself an independent ruler in 1539.

Reign as Sher Shah Suri

1. Coronation and Title:

- After declaring independence, Farid Khan assumed the title of Sher Shah (Lion King) and established the Sur dynasty, also known as the Suri dynasty.

2. Administrative Reforms:

- Sher Shah implemented numerous administrative reforms aimed at improving governance and revenue administration.
- He introduced the system of land revenue assessment based on measurement of land, known as the "Zabt" system, which later became the basis for the Mughal revenue system under Akbar.

3. Infrastructure Development:

- Sher Shah initiated large-scale infrastructure projects, including the construction of roads, bridges, and sarais (rest-houses) along major trade routes.
- The Grand Trunk Road, also known as the "Sadak-e-Azam," was one of his most significant achievements, connecting Bengal in the east to the Indus River in the west.

4. Military Reforms:

- Sher Shah reorganized the military administration, introducing the concept of the "Dagh" (branding) system for soldiers to ensure discipline and loyalty.
- He also improved the efficiency of the artillery and introduced the use of gunpowder in warfare.

5. Coinage and Currency:

- Sher Shah standardized the currency system and introduced the silver coin known as the "Rupiya," which became the basis for the modern Indian rupee.

Military Campaigns and Expansion

1. Conquests:

- Sher Shah undertook several military campaigns to expand his empire. He conquered territories in present-day Bihar, Bengal, Punjab, and parts of Central India.
- His most notable conquest was the capture of the Mughal stronghold of Delhi in 1540, forcing Humayun into exile.

2. Control over Northern India:

- Sher Shah established control over a vast empire in northern India, consolidating his rule and establishing a stable administration.

Death and Legacy

1. Death:

- Sher Shah Suri died in 1545 due to injuries sustained during the siege of Kalinjar fort in present-day Uttar Pradesh.

He was succeeded by his son, Islam Shah Suri, who ruled for a brief period after his father's death. Death of Sher Shah

In 1545, Sher Shah Suri was killed by a gunpowder explosion while laying siege to Kalinjar fort. Sher Shah Suri died in 1545 after a five-year reign, yet he constructed a massive empire and a magnificent and powerful government. The mausoleum he erected for himself in Sasaram is an architectural wonder.

2. Legacy:

- Sher Shah Suri's reign is remembered for his administrative innovations, infrastructure development, and military prowess.
- His reforms laid the groundwork for the efficient administration of the Mughal Empire under Akbar, who admired Sher Shah's administrative system and adopted many of his policies.
- Sher Shah's contributions to Indian history earned him a revered place among the great rulers of medieval India, and his legacy continues to be celebrated in modern India.

Mughal Administration

The Mughal Empire, which spanned much of the Indian subcontinent from the 16th to the 19th centuries, is renowned for its significant achievements in various domains, including administration, architecture, art, literature, and culture. Here's an overview of the Mughal achievements and their administrative system:

Achievements of the Mughal Empire

1. Architectural Marvels:

- The Mughals are celebrated for their architectural achievements, including the iconic Taj Mahal, built by Emperor Shah Jahan in memory of his wife Mumtaz Mahal.
- Other notable structures include the Red Fort in Delhi, the Agra Fort, Fatehpur Sikri, and numerous mosques, mausoleums, and gardens across the empire.

2. Art and Culture:

- The Mughal Empire patronized art and culture, leading to the development of exquisite miniature paintings, illuminated manuscripts, and ornate calligraphy.
 - Mughal rulers were also great patrons of music, poetry, and literature, fostering a rich cultural environment at their courts.
3. **Literature and Poetry:**
 - Mughal emperors, such as Akbar and Shah Jahan, were known for their patronage of scholars and poets. The Mughal court became a center of literary excellence, with poets like Amir Khusrau, Abdul Rahim Khan-i-Khana, and Mir Taqi Mir flourishing under their patronage.
 4. **Military and Warfare:**
 - The Mughals maintained a formidable military force, consisting of infantry, cavalry, artillery, and war elephants.
 - They employed advanced military tactics, including the effective use of cannons and muskets, which played a crucial role in their military campaigns and conquests.
 5. **Economic Prosperity:**
 - The Mughal Empire presided over a period of economic prosperity, facilitated by the establishment of a vast network of trade routes and the promotion of commerce and industry.
 - The empire's control over lucrative trade routes, particularly in textiles, spices, and precious stones, contributed to its economic wealth and stability.

Mughal Administration

1. **Centralized Administration:**
 - The Mughal Empire was characterized by a highly centralized administrative system, with the emperor as the supreme authority.
 - The empire was divided into provinces (subahs) administered by governors (subahdars) appointed by the emperor. Each province was further subdivided into districts (sarkars) and smaller administrative units.
2. **Revenue System:**
 - The Mughal revenue system was based on the land revenue system introduced by Sher Shah Suri. Land revenue was the primary source of income for the empire, and it was assessed based on the productivity of the land.
 - The empire employed revenue officials known as zamindars and revenue officers (amils) to collect taxes and maintain revenue records.
3. **Military Administration:**
 - The Mughal military was organized into a hierarchical structure, with the emperor at the top as the commander-in-chief.
 - The empire maintained a standing army comprising infantry, cavalry, artillery, and war elephants. The army was supplemented by local levies and tribal militias.
4. **Justice and Legal System:**
 - The Mughal Empire had a well-developed system of justice, with qazis (judges) presiding over courts of law. Islamic law (Sharia) served as the basis for legal proceedings, although local customs and traditions were also respected.
 - The emperor appointed a chief qazi (qazi-ul-quzat) to oversee the administration of justice across the empire.
5. **Bureaucracy and Administration:**

- The Mughal administration was supported by a complex bureaucracy comprising various officials, including diwans (finance ministers), wazirs (prime ministers), and mir bakshis (military commanders).
- Each administrative department was headed by a senior official responsible for its functioning and management.

Legacy of Mughal Administration

1. Administrative Efficiency:

- The Mughal administrative system was renowned for its efficiency and sophistication, enabling the empire to govern a vast and diverse territory with relative stability and order.
- Many aspects of the Mughal administrative system, such as revenue assessment and military organization, served as models for subsequent Indian rulers, including the British colonial administration.

2. Cultural Syncretism:

- The Mughal Empire promoted cultural syncretism by fostering interactions between different religious and cultural communities.
- Mughal rulers, such as Akbar, adopted a policy of religious tolerance and encouraged the integration of diverse cultural traditions into the fabric of the empire.

3. Architectural and Artistic Legacy:

- The Mughal Empire's architectural and artistic achievements continue to inspire awe and admiration, serving as enduring symbols of India's rich cultural heritage.
- Mughal architecture, characterized by its grandeur, symmetry, and intricate ornamentation, remains a defining feature of India's architectural landscape.

4. Literary and Intellectual Flourishing:

- The Mughal court was a center of intellectual and artistic flourishing, nurturing some of the greatest minds in literature, poetry, music, and philosophy.
- The legacy of Mughal patronage of literature and the arts continues to influence Indian cultural life to this day, shaping perceptions of beauty, creativity, and cultural identity.

Unit 5

Mughal empire and regional powers I. Akbar: Administration and culture achievements. II. Jahangir and Shahjahan: achievements. III. Aurangzeb: Administration and policies. IV. Mughal Trade & commerce.

Akbar

Akbar (born October 15?, 1542, Umarkot [now in Sindh province, Pakistan]—died c. October 25, 1605, Agra, India) was the greatest of the Mughal emperors of India. He reigned from 1556 to 1605 and extended Mughal power over most of the Indian subcontinent. In order to preserve the unity of his empire, Akbar adopted programs that won the loyalty of the non-Muslim populations of his realm. He reformed and strengthened his central administration and also centralized his financial system and reorganized tax-collection processes. Although he never renounced Islam, he took an active interest in other religions, persuading Hindus, Parsis, and Christians, as well as Muslims, to engage in religious discussion before him. Illiterate himself, he encouraged scholars, poets, painters, and musicians, making his court a centre of culture.

Early life

Abū al-Faṭḥ Jalāl al-Dīn Muḥammad Akbar was descended from Turks, Mongols, and Iranians—the three peoples who predominated in the political elites of northern India in medieval times. Among his ancestors were Timur (Tamerlane) and Genghis Khan. His father, Humāyūn, driven from his capital of Delhi by the Afghan usurper Shēr Shah of Sūr, was vainly trying to establish his authority in the Sindh region (now Sindh province, Pakistan). Soon Humāyūn had to leave India for Afghanistan and Iran, where the shah lent him some troops. Humāyūn regained his throne in 1555, 10 years after Shēr Shah's death. Akbar, at the age of 13, was made governor of the Punjab region (now largely occupied by Punjab state, India, and Punjab province, Pakistan).

Humāyūn had barely established his authority when he died in 1556. Within a few months, his governors lost several important places, including Delhi itself, to Hemu, a Hindu minister who claimed the throne for himself. But on November 5, 1556, a Mughal force defeated Hemu at the Second Battle of Panipat (near present-day Panipat, Haryana state, India), which commanded the route to Delhi, thus ensuring Akbar's succession.

At Akbar's accession his rule extended over little more than the Punjab and the area around Delhi, but, under the guidance of his chief minister, Bayram Khan, his authority was gradually consolidated and extended. The process continued after Akbar forced Bayram Khan to retire in 1560 and began to govern on his own—at first still under household influences but soon as an absolute monarch.

Imperial expansion

Akbar first attacked Malwa, a state of strategic and economic importance commanding the route through the Vindhya Range to the plateau region of the Deccan (peninsular India) and containing rich agricultural land; it fell to him in 1561.

Toward the zealously independent Hindu Rajputs (warrior ruling class) inhabiting the rugged hilly Rajputana region, Akbar adopted a policy of conciliation and conquest. Successive Muslim rulers had found the Rajputs dangerous, however weakened by disunity. But in 1562, when Raja Bihari Mal of Amber (now Jaipur), threatened by a succession dispute, offered Akbar his daughter in marriage, Akbar accepted the offer. The Raja acknowledged Akbar's suzerainty, and his sons prospered in Akbar's service. Akbar followed the same feudal policy toward the other Rajput chiefs. They were allowed to hold their ancestral territories, provided that they acknowledged Akbar as emperor, paid tribute, supplied troops when required, and concluded a marriage alliance with him. The emperor's service was also opened to them and their sons, which offered financial rewards as well as honour.

However, Akbar showed no mercy to those who refused to acknowledge his supremacy. When, after protracted fighting in Mewar, Akbar captured the historic fortress of Chitor (now Chittaurgarh) in 1568, he massacred its inhabitants. Even though Mewar did not submit, the fall of Chitor prompted other Rajput rajas to accept Akbar as emperor in 1570 and to conclude marriage alliances with him, although the state of Marwar held out until 1583.

One of the notable features of Akbar's government was the extent of Hindu, and particularly Rajput, participation. Rajput princes attained the highest ranks, as generals and as provincial governors, in the Mughal service. Discrimination against non-Muslims was reduced by abolishing the taxation of pilgrims and the tax payable by non-Muslims in lieu of military service. Yet Akbar was far more successful than any previous Muslim ruler in winning the cooperation of Hindus at all levels in his administration. The further expansion of his territories gave them fresh opportunities.

In 1573 Akbar conquered Gujarat, an area with many ports that dominated India's trade with western Asia, and then turned east toward Bengal. A rich country with a distinctive culture, Bengal was difficult to rule from Delhi because of its network of rivers, always apt to flood during the summer monsoon. Its Afghan ruler, declining to follow his father's example and acknowledge Mughal suzerainty, was forced to submit in 1575. When he rebelled and was defeated and killed in 1576, Akbar annexed Bengal.

Toward the end of his reign, Akbar embarked on a fresh round of conquests. The Kashmir region was subjugated in 1586, Sindh in 1591, and Kandahār (Afghanistan) in 1595. Mughal troops now moved south of the Vindhya Range into the Deccan. By 1601 Khandesh, Berar, and part of Ahmadnagar had been added to Akbar's empire. His last years were troubled by the rebellious behaviour of his son Prince Salīm (later the emperor Jahāngīr), who was eager for power.

Administrative reform of Akbar

The Mughal emperor Akbar's rise to power explained

Previous Indian governments had been weakened by two disintegrating tendencies characteristic of premodern states—one of armies being split up into the private forces of individual commanders and the other of provincial governors becoming hereditary local rulers. Akbar combated those trends by instituting comprehensive reforms that involved two fundamental changes. First, every officer was, at least in principle, appointed and promoted by the emperor instead of by his immediate superior. Second, the traditional distinction between the nobility of the sword and that of the pen was abolished: civil administrators were assigned military ranks, thus becoming as dependent on the emperor as army officers.

Those ranks were systematically graded from commanders of 10 persons to commanders of 5,000 persons, higher ranks being allotted to Mughal princes. Officers were paid either in cash from the emperor's treasury or, more frequently, by the assignment of lands from which they had to collect the revenue, retaining the amount of their salary and remitting the balance to the treasury. Such lands seem to have been transferred frequently from one officer to another; that increased the officers' dependence on the emperor, but it may also have encouraged them to squeeze as much as they could from the peasants with whom their connection might be transitory. Politically, the greatest merit of the system was that it enabled the emperor to offer attractive careers to the able, ambitious, and influential. In that way, Akbar was able to enlist the loyal services of many Rajput princes.

Akbar's reforms required a centralized financial system, and, thus, by the side of each provincial governor (*sūbadār*, later called *nawab*) was placed a civil administrator (*dīwān*, or *divan*) who supervised revenue collection, prepared accounts, and reported directly to the emperor. As a further safeguard against abuses, Akbar reorganized the existing network of newswriters, whose duty it was to send regular reports of important events to the emperor. Akbar also seems to have instituted more-efficient revenue assessment and collection in an effort to safeguard the peasants from excessive demands and the state from loss of money. But such efficiency could only have been enforced in the areas directly administered by the central government. That excluded the lands under tributary rulers such as the Rajputs and also the lands assigned for the maintenance of Mughal officers.

Yet, notwithstanding Akbar's reforms, travelers' accounts indicate that the Indian peasants remained impoverished. The official elite, on the other hand, enjoyed great wealth; liberal patronage was given to painters, poets, musicians, and scholars, and luxury industries flourished. Akbar also supported state workshops for the production of high-quality textiles and ornaments.

Personality and assessment

Akbar maintained a luxurious and brilliant court at which elaborate ceremonies emphasized his distance from other men, though he was careful to cultivate public opinion outside court circles. Every morning at dawn he stood at an open window to be seen and revered by the people. Foreign observers commented on the graceful manner in which he accepted little gifts from the people and showed himself ready to hear the complaint of any man who dared to approach him.

Physically, he was strong and could withstand hardship on campaigns. Although he seems to have been no more than 5 feet 7 inches (170 cm) tall, he impressed observers as a dominating personality. Clearly, although he was illiterate, he had a powerful and original mind. His unprejudiced inquiries into Christian doctrines misled the Jesuit missionaries he invited to his court into thinking that he was on the point of conversion. He persuaded the Muslim theologians at his court to accept him as arbiter on points of Islamic law in dispute among

them. Although that seems to have been little more than an expression of his systematic approach to problems, the orthodox were offended. He gave further offense by the religious discussions he encouraged between Muslims, Hindus, Parsis, and Christians. Those discussions were continued by a small group of courtiers who shared with Akbar a taste for mysticism. Although their doctrines and ceremonies, known as the Divine Faith (Dīn-e Ilāhī), assigned a central place to Akbar himself, it would be an oversimplification to ascribe political motives to those developments.

Jāmi' Masjid in Fatehpur Sikri

The Mughal-style Jāmi' Masjid (Great Mosque) built under Akbar's reign in Fatehpur Sikri, Uttar Pradesh, India.(more)

Begun in 1570 and abandoned in 1586, Akbar's capital of Fatehpur Sikri, near Delhi, is evidence of the resources he could command. Its combination of Hindu and Muslim architectural styles symbolizes the contact of cultures that he encouraged. Similarly, he commissioned the translation of Sanskrit classics into Persian and gave illustrated copies to his courtiers. He also received with enthusiasm the European pictures brought by the Jesuits, and his painters incorporated European techniques of realism and perspective into the distinctive Mughal painting style (characterized by a vivid treatment of the physical world) that began to develop during his reign. Akbar's reign was an example of the stimulating effects of cultural encounter. It has also often been portrayed as a model for future governments—strong, benevolent, tolerant, and enlightened. Effective government in a country as geographically vast and as socially complex as India demands a wide measure of social support. Akbar understood that need and satisfied it.

Akbar the Great, the third Mughal emperor, is celebrated for his visionary approach to governance, his promotion of religious tolerance, and his patronage of art and culture. His reign (1556–1605) marked a golden age in Mughal history, characterized by administrative reforms, military conquests, and cultural flourishing. Here's an overview of Akbar's administration and cultural achievements:

Administrative Reforms

1. Centralization of Authority:

- Akbar established a highly centralized administrative system, with the emperor as the supreme authority. He personally oversaw the administration of the empire and delegated authority to trusted officials.

2. Subah System:

- Akbar divided the empire into provinces called "subahs," each headed by a governor known as a "subahdar." These provinces were further subdivided into districts (sarkars) and smaller administrative units.

3. Revenue Reforms:

- Akbar implemented significant reforms in the revenue system, including the introduction of the "Zabt" system. Under this system, land revenue was fixed based on careful assessment of agricultural productivity and land fertility.
- The revenue administration was streamlined, and revenue officials were appointed to collect taxes and maintain revenue records.

4. Military Organization:

- Akbar reorganized the military, introducing new tactics, weaponry, and military formations. He expanded the Mughal army and recruited soldiers from diverse ethnic and religious backgrounds.

- The integration of artillery and firearms into the military arsenal enhanced the empire's military capabilities.
5. **Religious Policy:**
- Akbar pursued a policy of religious tolerance and promoted secularism in governance. He abolished the discriminatory jizya tax on non-Muslims and abolished oppressive practices against Hindus.
 - Akbar held religious debates and discussions with scholars from various faiths, leading to the formulation of his eclectic religious philosophy, Din-i Ilahi.

Cultural Achievements

1. **Patronage of Art and Architecture:**
 - Akbar was a great patron of art and architecture, commissioning numerous architectural marvels, including the magnificent Fatehpur Sikri complex and the Buland Darwaza.
 - Mughal art flourished under Akbar's patronage, with the development of the Mughal school of painting characterized by intricate miniature paintings and vibrant colors.
2. **Literary and Intellectual Flourishing:**
 - Akbar's court was a center of intellectual activity, attracting scholars, poets, and philosophers from across the empire and beyond.
 - The emperor himself was well-educated and had a keen interest in literature and philosophy. He encouraged the translation of Sanskrit texts into Persian and promoted the development of the Persian language.
3. **Cultural Syncretism:**
 - Akbar's reign witnessed a blending of diverse cultural influences, resulting in a vibrant cultural synthesis. The Mughal court became a melting pot of artistic, literary, and intellectual traditions from Persia, Central Asia, and India.
 - Akbar's patronage of religious tolerance and his policy of Sulh-i-kul (universal peace) fostered an environment of cultural harmony and coexistence.
4. **Legacy:**
 - Akbar's administrative reforms and cultural achievements laid the foundation for the Mughal Empire's enduring legacy. His policies of religious tolerance and secularism contributed to the empire's stability and prosperity.
 - Akbar's reign is remembered as a golden age of Mughal history, marked by unprecedented cultural, intellectual, and artistic achievements that continue to influence Indian society and culture to this day.

JAHANGIR

Early Days of Jahangir

Salim (Jahangir) was born on August 30, 1569. His mother was the Rajput princess of Amber whom Akbar married in 1562. Akbar who lost all children in his early youth desired an heir who should live to inherit his vast empire. With the blessings of

Sheikh Salim Chishti, a son was born, who was thus called Muhammed Sultan Salim. The other two sons born later-Prince Murad and Prince Daniyal died in prime youth. Akbar made arrangements for the education of Salim and a series of able tutors were appointed to teach the prince Persian, Turki, Arabic and Hindi. The most notable was Abdur Rahim Khan, son of Bairam Khan who influenced the prince the most. According to the custom of the dynasty Salim was associated with the work of military administration at an early age. In 1585 he was elevated to the rank of I2000.

Salim's Revolt 1599-1604:

Salim was anxious to grasp sovereign power and rose in revolt against his father 1599 when Akbar was away in the Deccan. He made an unsuccessful attempt to seize Agra and set up an independent Government at Allahabad. Akbar was obliged to conclude the siege of Asirgarh and hasten to the north by the middle of 1601 but took a lenient view and offered the rebel prince the Governorship of Bengal and Orissa but failed to win him. Akbar refrained from taking military action against him as he was the only surviving son of Akbar and was entitled to succeed him to the throne. A conspiracy was hatched by Raja Man Singh and others to deprive Salim of his legitimate right of succession by preferring the claim of the latter's own son prince Khusrao to the throne. For some time even Akbar rallied round this thought but then gave up. The fear of being superseded by his own son brought Salim to his senses. He hastened to Agra and sought forgiveness from his father. Meanwhile Akbar's health began to fail. There were two parties at the court. One party was supporting Salim and the other his son Khusrao. A few days before Akbar's death, Salim was nominated heir-apparent to the throne. Salim ascended the throne in October 1605 after the death of Akbar and assumed the title of Jahangir.

Early Measures:

Soon after his accession to the throne Jahangir tried to win the hearts of all the people by various measures. He released prisoners and struck coins in his name. He issued 12 ordinances to be uniformly implemented all over his empire:-

Prohibition of cesses.

Regulations about highway robbery and theft

Free inheritance of property of deceased person

Prohibition of sale of wine and of all kinds of intoxicating liquor

Abolition of inhuman corporal punishments VI. Prohibition of forcible seizure of property

VII. Building of hospitals and appointment of physicians to attend the sick VIII. Prohibition of slaughter of animals on certain days

IX. Respect pay to Sunday

X. General confirmation of mansabs and jagirs

XI. Confirmation of aima lands i.e. lands devoted to the purposes of prayer and praise (of God)

XII Amnesty to all prisoners in forts and prisons of all kinds

He also set up a famous chain of justice between the Shah Burj in the fort of Agra and a stone pillar fixed on the banks of Jamuna to enable the people to approach him without any hindrances. Jahangir lost no time in acquiring firm hold over the entire State machinery. He pardoned his political opponents and accorded generous treatment to them. The few changes that Jahangir effected in the office of the state were intended to secure him a band of supporters. He rewarded Bir Singh Bundela the murderer of Abul Fazl with the dignity of Commander of three thousand horses while Abdur Rahman was assigned the mansab of 2000. Mirza Ghiyas Beg a Persian immigrant, father of Noor Jahan received the office of the imperial Dewan with the title of Itimad- Ud-Dula.

Jahangir and the Deccan:

It will be remembered that Akbar had conquered the whole of Khandesh and a part of Ahmednagar and had hastily concluded his Deccan campaign with the siege of Asirgrah in 1601 on account of Salim's rebellion. It was now Jahangir's task to attempt the conquest and annexation of rest of Ahmednagar and if possible of the remaining states of Bijapur and Golkonda.

Ahemdnagar: Akbar had conquered only a part of the Nizamshahi kingdom of Ahmednagar including the capital town while the major portion of the state remained with the Nizamsahi nobles. The main obstacle in the way was Malik Amber the Abyssinian minister and general of the Nizamshahi kingdom. He is one of the greatest statesmen that medieval India produced. After the death of Akbar he took up arms against the Mughals and took away the territories including the historic fort of the Ahmednagar from the Mughals. It was a blow to the Mughal prestige. Malik Amber was not a man of ordinary talents. He had both military and administrative talents. He had remodeled the revenue system of his state on the principles of Raja Todarmal. He was a master of the military tactics of the Marathas and had trained the Marathas in the Ahmednagar army in guerilla war fare. He developed a system of fighting well suited to the hilly regions of the Maratha country. He also strengthened his position by organizing an anti-Mughal coalition with the neighbouring sultanates of Bijapur and Golkonda forces. His tolerance won for him the support of the Hindus also to fight with such a formidable enemy was no easy task. Jahangir's Deccan policy was the continuation of his father's Policy. From 1608 onwards large Mughal armies led successfully by Abdur Rahim Khan -i- Khanna, prince Parvez and Khan Jahan Lodhi failed to produce the desired result. The repeated failures of the Mughal before Malik Amber affected the Mughal prestige. On the advice of Noor Jahan Jahangir decided to place prince Khurram the incharge of the Deccan. He reached Burhanpur the Mughal headquarter in the south in march 1617 and immediately opened negotiation with Malik Amber. Overawed by superior force Malik Amber accepted the terms of treaty with prince Khurram according to which he ceded Ahmednagar and some other strong holds to the Mughals and the Nizamshahi ruler acknowledged Jahangir as his suzerain. The treaty was hailed at the Mughal court. For this victory Prince Khurram also honoured by the emperor with the Title of Shahjahan. But he merely gathered the

political fruits of previous campaigns. The Mughal victory however, was not of permanent nature. Within two years Malik Amber again raised his head. He occupied much of the lost territory and in 1620 laid siege to the fort of Ahmedagar with the assistance of the troops of Bijapur and Golkonda. Shahajahan took the command of the Deccan campaign for the second time. The same results followed. On the arrival of the imperial troops Malik Amber raised the siege of Ahmednagar and concluded peace. Shahajahan was anxious to bring the Deccan campaign to a speedy conclusion. Owing to Noor Jahan's changed attitude towards him he hurriedly concluded peace with Malik Amber and his allies in 1621. Malik Amber promised to restore the territories occupied by him from the Mughals during the previous two years. Ahmednagar, Bijapur and Golkonda agreed to pay Fifty lakhs rupees as tribute. Thereafter Malik Amber took advantage of the revolt of Shah Jahan (1623) to consolidate his position. He did not allow respite to the Mughal armies in occupation of the territories of Ahmednagar till his death in 1626. The Deccan problem remained as unsolved as ever. The victory of the Mughal over Ahmednagar was more apparent than real. It has been justly remarked by Dr. Beni Prasad —Nothing could conceal the stern reality that the expenditures of millions of rupees and thousands of lives had not advanced the Mughal frontiers a single line beyond the limits of 1605.¶

Loss of Kandahar:

On account of its situations and importance both commercial and strategic Kandahar was a constant source of friction between the Mughals and the Persians. It has been noted elsewhere that it was acquired by Akbar in 1595 and it remained a part of the Mughal Empire until the death of Akbar. The Persians never forgot the loss of Kandahar. Jahangir's contemporary on the throne of Persia was Shah Abbas. The revolt of prince Khusrav at the beginning of the Jahangir's reign gave the Persians an opportunity to attack Kandahar but it was gallantly repelled by Shahbeg Khan. Shah Abbas who was a skilled diplomat expressed his disapproval of the conduct of his subjects and informed Jahangir that he had knowledge of the affair, Jahangir accepted his explanation. The Persians, however did not give up all hopes of regaining Kandahar. Shah Abbas having failed to win the place by open war employed diplomacy to further his end. He sent four diplomatic missions to the Mughal court in 1611, 1615, 1616 and 1620 with rich presents to please the Mughal Monarch and

thereby putting him of his guard. Taking advantage of the internal disorder in the empire in 1621 owing to the political estrangement between Noor Jahan and Shah Jahan the Persians besieged Kandahar in 1621 and finally took it in 1622. Jahangir thought of elaborate preparations of war which he hoped to carry right to the Persian capital but his plans were frustrated by Shah Jahan who refused to lead the expedition as he knew that during his absence from the capital Nur Jahan would do her best to ensure his exclusion from the throne and push the claims of Shahryar her son in law. Thus Kandahar was lost to the Mughals. Shah Abbas sent ambassador to Jahangir saying that the Persian king had a rightful claim to Kandahar, but expressed the hope that the two empires would remain friendly. Jahangir accused the Shah of treachery. He ordered prince Parvez to recover the fortress but this could not be done owing to Shah Jahan's rebellions.

Nur-Jahan :

Now we come to the most interesting part of Jahangir's story. All the remaining events as well as some of those already narrated are to be connected with the advent of Nur Jahan .Jahangir's marriage with Nur Jahan is one of the most important events in history of world. For full 15 years she stood forth as the most striking and most powerful personality in the Mughal Empire. She exercised tremendous influence on personal life of Jahangir and also played significant role in shaping the events of his reign. Nur Jahan's original name was Mehr-Un-Nisa. She was the daughter of a Persian noble Mirza Ghiyas Beg who with his family migrated to India during the reign of Akbar. She was born on the way to India at Kandahar. Mirza Ghiyas Beg was introduced to Akbar by a Merchant and Akbar immediately admitted him into imperial service. He steadily rose in rank and influence by virtue of his character and Scholarship. Mehr-us-nisa grew up to be a charming girl and at the age of 17 was married, a Persian adventurer better known as Sher Afghan. After his marriage he was taken into imperial service and was on the personal staff of prince Salim, on his accession to the throne Jahangir appointed Sher Afghan faujdar of Bardwan (Bengal) and granted him a Jagir there. Suspected of treasonable designs he was summoned by the Governor of Bengal. At an interview there was scuffle and both were killed in 1607. Mehr-un-Nisa the widow of Sher Afghan along with her young daughter Ladli

Begum was brought to the capital, Akber's Widow. In March 1611 that is four years after the death of her husband Jahangir saw Mehr-ua-Nisa and was charmed by her Beautiful appearance. He married her in May 1611 and made her his chief queen giving her the title of Nur Jahan (light of the world).

At the time of her marriage with Jahangir, Nur Jahan was in her 35th year but she still possessed the beauty of her early youth. She proved to be an intellectual with a political bent of mind. She took her keen interest in the formulation of state policy. She could understand the intricate problem of the state politics in an instant. Jahangir was so much impressed by her that he made her a partner in the administrative of the state. He granted Nur Jahan rights of sovereignty and government. Coins were struck in her name. On all the farmans also the name of Nur Jahan was jointly attached along with the imperial signature. At last her authority reached such a pass that the king was only in name.

Jahangir's period of rule from 1605 to his death in 1627 was marked by the ascendancy of Nur Jahan in state affairs. This period of Nur Jahan's ascendancy can be divided into two parts. During the first part i.e. from 1611 to 1622 when Jahangir was at the helm of affairs, although he was guided and influenced by Nur Jahan and her party called Nurjahan Junta. While during the second part from 1622 to 1627 Nur Jahan was completely dominating the imperial court.

During the first phase of her influence from 1611 to 1622 she secured high positions for her father who got the title of Itimad-ud-Dula and was given the mansab of 7000. Her brother was promoted to the rank of prime minister of the empire. In 1612 Asif Khan's daughter Arjuman Banu Begum better known as Mumtaz Mahal was married to prince Khurram, the third son of Jahangir and since then the prince became a favorite of Nurjahan and rapidly rose into prominence at the court as the prospective successor of Jahangir. For ten years this clique of four supremely capable persons. The queen, her father, brother and prince Khurram, practically ruled the empire and constituted the Nur Jahan Junta. It was due to her influence that prince Khurram was appointed to command the Mewar and Deccan campaigns. Gradually the influence of Nur Jahan over Jahangir increased so much that he leaned more and more to ease and left administration exclusively in her hands. To the good fortune of the people Nur

Jahan governed the country successfully with the able Assistance of the Nur Jahan Junta.

The second phase of Nur Jahan's ascendancy is from 1622 to 1627 which is marked by complete authority in her hands. Jahangir's health had begun to fail. Unfortunately Nur Jahan's mother Asmat Begum who acted as her counselor died in 1621 and her husband Itimad-ud-Daula who was the strongest pillar of the Nur Jahan Junta followed her in 1622. Both these deaths led to the breakup of the Nur Jahan Junta. Nur Jahan's relations with her brother Asaf Khan and his Son-in-law Shah Jahan were also strained because in 1621 she gave her daughter Ladli Begum (By Sher Afghan) in marriage to prince Shahryar the youngest son of Jahangir and now she began to back up her son-in-law for succession to the throne. The queen and the prime minister did not see eye to eye with each other, however, for the time being she was in an advantageous position because the emperor fell virtually under her exclusive influence. Nur Jahan's excessive interference in the state affairs did have some bad effects during this period. It will be remembered that the Persians captured Kandahar in 1622 and Jahangir had ordered Shah Jahan to lead the expedition for its recovery but Shah Jahan refused to move as he doubted that his absence from the capital might be utilized by Nur Jahan who prejudiced his claims to the throne and to strengthen those of her son-in-law Shahryar. To a great extent Nur Jahan was responsible for the loss of Kandahar in 1622. She was also responsible for two more rebellions during this period. The first is Shah Jahan's rebellion (1623-1625) and the second is Mahabat Khan's rebellions in 1626.

Shah Jahan's Rebellions (1623-1625):

The estrangement between Nur Jahan and Shah Jahan had been growing since 1620 onwards. Nur Jahan wanted to retain her political ascendancy after Jahangir's death through the installation of prince Shahryar as emperor. At the same time Shah Jahan was ambitious to succeed his father. Nur Jahan knew that Shah Jahan was a man of strong personality and was not likely to share power with Nur Jahan if he succeeded in securing the throne. Thus the issue of succession made them direct opponents. Also Nur Jahan was liberal and tolerant towards other faiths. Shah Jahan was a staunch Sunni. Increasing Persian supremacy at the court was not liked by him. Nur Jahan

tried to disgrace Shah Jahan in the eyes of Jahangir which compelled him to revolt against his father in 1623. At first he intended to march to Agra but an imperial army under the command of Mahabat Khan completely defeated him. He first proceeded to the Deccan and was then driven to Bengal but unable to maintain his control, he returned to Deccan and for a few years wandered about seeking the alliance of Malik Amber and others but finding that with his exhausted resources further resistance was not possible. He made submission to the emperor in 1625. Shah Jahan's rebellion which lasted for three years convulsed empire with a civil war causing tremendous loss to the royal treasury and creating serious law and order problems for the government. This happened primarily because of Nur Jahan's excessive indulgence in power politics.

Mahabat Khan's Rebellions (1626):

Mahabat Khan had been responsible for many imperial victories. During Shah Jahan's rebellions his prestige had increased considerably. His growing fame and power was not liked by Nur Jahan. She could not tolerate the existence of an indomitable personality like Mahabat Khan. On the other hand Mahabat Khan was equally ambitious and did not like to take orders from anyone except his real sovereign Jahangir. Moreover Mahabat Khan supported the claim of prince Parvez the eldest son of Jahangir to the throne. Nur Jahan began to hatch a plot to bring about the fall of Mahabat Khan. She framed charge of disloyalty against him which forced Mahabat Khan to rebel. By a bold coup he made Jahangir a prisoner on the bank of river Jhelum while the emperor was on his way to Kabul.

Nur Jahan managed to escape but all her attempts to rescue her husband by force having failed. She joined him in confinement. She and her husband was finally able to affect their escape to Rohtas. Mahabat Khan was forgiven by the emperor and was ordered to proceed to Thatta where Shah Jahan was again on war path. He obeyed the order but instead of fighting made peace with Shah Jahan. By this time Jahangir's health was completely shattered.

Death and legacy of Jahangir:

Jahangir went to Kashmir in March 1627 but even Kashmir failed to help the restoration of health so he returned to Lahore. While he was the way, he was taken ill and he died on 28 October, 1627. He was buried in a beautiful garden at Shahdara near Lahore. Jahangir is one of the most interesting figures in Mughal History. All accounts agree that he was intelligent, and capable of understanding the most complex problems of the state without any difficulty he was a capable general who could plan and lead military campaign. He was stern in administering justice. Law and order were not neglected and he proved to be a fairly successful ruler and procure the murder of Abul Fazal and also pity the royal elephant because they shivered in winter then they sprinkled themselves with cold water. Jahangir was highly educated and cultured prince. He had mastered Persian and Turki language. His memoirs entitled *Tuzk-i- Jahangiri* is an excellent example of his literary attainment. He was fond of beauties of nature. His intimate knowledge of the flora and fauna of Kashmir and other parts of Hindustan will cause surprise to a naturalist in these days. Mughal painting and music reached high standard under his patronage. He took delight in laying out fine gardens. Some of the gardens in Kashmir and Lahore were laid out at his orders. He fully encouraged the growth of Persian literature.

Some European historians consider Jahangir as a fickle-minded tyrant, Indian authors regard him as a just and noble ruler. Most writers now agree that he was a highly educated and cultured man. His autobiography is a testimony of his interest in subjects like botany and zoology. Among the notable buildings renovated by him, Akbar's tomb at Sikandra is the most remarkable. He altered its design and partly rebuilt it. Under his patronage, a great mosque was built in Lahore; it rivals the grand mosque in Delhi, built by his son, Shah Jahan. But he did not possess the high idealism and genius of Akbar. The administrative machinery of his father was allowed to remain untouched. The *vakil* (chief minister) remained the highest dignitary next to the emperor. A liberal ruler, he made no departure from his father's policy of admitting Hindus to higher public services. On the whole, Jahangir was a successful ruler and his people were well off. Agriculture, industries, and commerce flourished. Jahangir's diary is brimming with his ideas for promoting social justice and administrative efficiency, and in most cases he tried to follow or outdo the liberal ideas of his father, but he was less successful in putting them into effect.

II. Shah Jahan (1627 – 1658)

II. 1. Early life and accession:

Jahangir had four sons- Khusrau, Parvez, Khurram, and Shahryar. Prince Khurram later styled as Shah Jahan was born on January 5, 1592 at Lahore. While young he was a favourite of his grandfather Akbar. The prince was given best education and military training. He was very intelligent and smart. He possessed a strong will and character. He enjoyed a reputation for being a total abstainer from alcohol. Early during his father's reign prince Khurram was marked out for the throne. In 1607 he was appointed a mansabdar of 8,000 zat and 5,000 sawar. In 1608 the jagir of hissar Firoza was conferred on him. In 1612 he was married to a Arjumand Banu Begum better known as Mumtaz Mahal who was the daughter of Asif Khan brother of Nur Jahan. It was at this time that Nur Jahan was fast raising into prominence. As mentioned in the last lesson Prince Khurram became a prominent member of the Nur Jahan Junta. He was looked upon as the future ruler of the country and his Mansab was raised to 30,000 zat and 20,000 sawar. He took part in a number of important expeditions during his father's reign. His success against Mewar and the way he had succeeded in dictating terms to Malik Amber in the Deccan convinced Jahangir that the prince had an aptitude for military generalship. He bestowed upon him the title of Shan Jahan to mark his pleasure. But there was a sudden fall in the fortune of prince Khurram after the marriage of prince Shahryar with Ladli Begum, daughter of Nur Jahan in 1620. Nur Jahan now backed the claims of Shahryar which forced Shah Jahan to revolt in 1623. Eventually he submitted to his father in 1626. Prince Khusrau who had revolted against Jahangir in 1606 was put to death by prince Khurram in 1622. Parvez died in 1626 therefore when Jahangir died in 1628 Nur Jahan made a final bid at that time was in the Deccan. Fortunately for him his father-in-Law Asaf Khan won over nobles to his side and proclaimed Dawar Bakash son of Khusrau as king so that the throne was not left vacant. Shah Jahan hurried to Delhi from the Deccan. Shahryar proclaimed himself emperor at Lahore. The rival forces of Shahryar and Asif Khan met near Lahore. Shahryar was defeated, blinded and imprisoned. Shah Jahan marched to Agra and ascended the throne in February 1628. All his possible rivals including Dawar Baksh and Shahryar were killed. Truly Shah Jahan waded the throne through the blood of his own kinsmen which is an indelible stain on his memory. Nur

Jahan was pensioned off to live in retirement in Lahore where she built her husband's mausoleum, carried on the works of charity and died in 1645. There were two great rebellions at the commencement of Shah Jahan's reign.

II. 2. Bundela rebellion (1625 AD):

In the first year of his accession to the throne Shah Jahan had to face the rebellion of Jujhar Singh, son of Bir Singh Bundela who killed Abul Fazal at the instigation of prince Salim. The Bundelas had been committing many cruelties against their neighbours. They had increased their power and riches by blackmailing the neighbours. Jujhar Singh showed signs of rebellion therefore Shah Jahan lost no time in making preparations to deal with the rebellion. Mahabat Khan was ordered to put down the rebellion in Bundelkhand. The Bundela territory was ordered to be surrounded from three different directions. Jujhar Singh who never imagined the Mughal attack on such a vast scale was taken aback. In the battle that ensued his fort was captured and nearly two to three thousand of his men were slain. At last he offered submission. He was required to pay 1,000 gold mohars, 40 elephants and 15 lakhs as fine. He surrendered a part of his jagir and was ordered to keep in readiness 2,000 cavalry and 2,000 infantry to aid the Deccan expedition of the Mughals. A few years after his first revolt, Jujhar Singh rebelled again in 1635. An imperial force under the command of Prince Aurangzeb crushed the rebellion. Jujhar Singh was killed by the Gonds in a chance skirmish in 1635.

II. 3. Rebellion of Khan Jahan Lodhi (1629) :

Much more serious than the rebellion of Jujhar Singh was that of Khan Jahan Lodhi. He was one of the premier Mughal Officers and Governor of the Deccan. He had been associated with prince Pervez there. But like many other Afghans under Mughal dominance he cherished dreams of Independence. He entered into an alliance with the ruler of Ahmednagar and revolted. Shah Jahan realized the gravity of the situation because if Khan Jahan Lodhi could win over all the rulers of Deccan to his side may lead their combined troops against the Mughal Empire. In 1629 Shah Jahan marched personally to Deccan and organized a comprehensive plan of action against the rebels. Chased from place to place, deserted by his allies and having lost his friends and relations

in battle the Afghan chief fought desperately against the imperialists for three years but was ultimately defeated at Tal Sehonda near Kalinjar.

II. 4. Suppression of The Portuguese (1631 – 1632):

The Portuguese were long settled in the Eastern part of Bengal. Hugli was the most important centre of Portuguese trade. They often captured orphan Children of Hindus and Mohammadans and forcibly converted them to Christianity. Slave trade and piracy were important sources of their income. Two slave girls of Queen Mumtaz Mahal were also abducted by them from Hugli. Kasim Khan the Governor of Bengal to punish the Portuguese besieged Hugli by a large Mughal army. After a stiff resistance finally the Portuguese surrendered. Many of them were killed and a large number of them were taken as prisoners to Agra where they were given a choice between conversion to Islam and imprisonment. Some of them became Muslims and other died suffering.

II. 5. North West Frontier Policy of Shah Jahan:

Kandahar was lost of the Mughals in 1622 in the reign of Jahangir. However, Kandahar was recognized to be an indispensable part of the Mughal Empire and Shah Jahan very much realized that the strategic and commercial importance of Kandahar required that it should be won back from the Persians. It was put under the supervision of Sayyad Khan the Mughal Governor of Kabul who was asked to establish secret contacts with Ali Mardan Khan the Persian governor of Kandahar and tempt him to surrender Kandahar. Fortunately for the Mughals there was a misunderstanding between Ali Mardan Khan and Shah Abbas the Shah of Persia and agreed to surrender the fort to the Mughals in 1638. Ali Mardan Khan was paid a lakh of rupees as compensation and later appointed the Governor of Kashmir and the Punjab. Though in 1638 the Mughal emperor got possession over Kandahar but the Persians had never left the idea to recapture it. Shah Abbas II who had came to the throne in 1642 made vigorous efforts to recapture Kandahar which was a valuable possession from commercial and strategic point of view. The courtiers of Shah Jahan unwisely advised him to postpone the work of opposing the Persians till the season was over. The result was that the Persian forces of Shah occupied the fort in February

1649 owing largely to the weakness of the incapable Mughal commander of Kandahar Daulat Khan. Thus Kandahar was recovered by the Persians after eleven years. Shah Jahan made great attempts to recover Kandahar and sent three expeditions for this purpose in 1649, 1652 and 1653 but his efforts bore no fruit.

The first expedition was sent in 1649 and the command was given to Prince Aurangzeb and Sadullah Khan. Kandahar was attacked in May 1649 but the attempt failed before the superior military preparations and the skill of the Persians. The Mughals suffered heavy losses. Shah Jahan was not ready to abandon his design of recapturing Kandahar and after three years second expedition was sent to lay siege to Kandahar, Once again under Prince Aurangzeb and Sadullah Khan in May 1652. The Persians had a powerful park of artillery while the Mughal artillery failed them set a critical moment. The Mughals also found it difficult for the fear of the Persian guerillas to move out in the country side in search of provisions. Therefore they were compelled to raise the siege. Though Prince Aurangzeb tried to persuade him to give him a little more time the emperor was wiser not to do so. Aurangzeb was blamed for the failure of the expedition. The third and the last expedition for the recovery of Kandahar were led by prince Dara in 1653. This time thorough preparations were made for the siege of Kandahar. Dara led a huge army of 70,000 cavalry 5,000 infantry and 10,000 artillery men. Two crore of rupees were sanctioned by Shah Jahan for meeting the expenses of the campaign. The Mughals attacked the fort four times but each time they were confidently resisted by the Persians. Shortage of ammunitions and supplies crippled the Mughals. They were compelled to raise the siege. Kandahar was lost to the Mughals for good. The three futile sieges ruined Mughal prestige in the eyes of all Asia. The belief regarding the invincibility of the imperial Mughals armies was shattered. The expeditions cost the Mughal treasury no less than twelve crores of rupees that is more than half of the Annual income of the state. The flow of trade as also the security of the Frontiers of Baluchistan and Kabul remained exposed to the Persian threat. This kept the rulers of Delhi in a state of serious anxiety and suspense.

II. 6. Central Asian Policy of Shah Jahan:

The Mughal emperors also cherished the desire of conquering and occupying Trans-Oxiana, their ancestral home land in Central Asia. Babur it will be remembered made

many unsuccessful attempts to conquer Samarqand the capital of Timur. Humayun's efforts also proved futile. Akbar and Jahangir had not been in a position to establish the Mughal rule in that region. While Shah Jahan ever since the beginning of his reign had set his heart upon the conquest of Balkh and Badakshan. It was very difficult to lead large army through the lofty ranges of the Hindukush. But Shah Jahan did not consider any obstacle. He found an opportunity to launch the Central Asian campaign in 1646 when there was a civil war going on in the ruling house of that region. Prince Murad, the youngest son of Shah Jahan and Ali Mardan Khan were sent with a large army who occupied Balkh and Badakeshan in 1646. A man of ease loving habits prince Murad could not bear the hardships of camp life and was sick of the uncongenial climate of Balkh. Without the permission of Shah Jahan, he left Balkh and came back to India leaving the army leader less. Shah Jahan then sent Sadullah Khan to Balkh to set things right and in the next year Prince Aurangzeb was dispatched to Balkh with a large army. One great difficulty of the Mughals was that they were outnumbered by the enemy. Food and water were scarce. Harsh central Asian climate put too much strain on the easy-loving Mughal in the face of which Aurangzeb in spite of his sincere and earnest efforts could achieve nothing and had to retreat to India after suffering terrible hardships.

It cannot be denied that the Central Asian policy of Shah Jahan failed miserably. As Sir J.N. Sarkar remarks, —thus ended Shah Jahan's fatuous war in Balkh – a war in which the Indian treasury spent four crores of rupees in two years and realized from the conquered country the revenue of two and half lakhs only. Not an inch of territory was annexed, no dynasty changed and no enemy replaced by an ally on the throne of Balkh. The grain stored in Balkh fort worth five lakhs and the provisions in other forts as well were all abandoned, five hundred soldiers fell in the battle and ten times that number were slain by cold and snow on the mountains. Such is the terrible price that aggressive imperialism makes India pay for wars across the north Western Frontier, —There was no practical reason for undertaking such an adventure because even if conquered the administration and defense of the two provinces would have been difficult and costly. The prestige of the Mughal Empire received serious setback. The Persians took advantage of this situation and captured Kandahar in 1649.

II. 7. Deccan Policy of Shah Jahan:

Shah Jahan Deccan policy was a continuation of the traditional policy of expansion followed Akbar and Jahangir. When Shah Jahan ascended the throne the Mughals had only whole of Khandesh and a part of Ahmednagar under them, Jahangir's attempts to conquer Ahmednagar were checked by Malik Amber. Bijapur and Golkonda continued to enjoy independence. It may be mentioned here that while Akbar and Jahangir were actuated by purely political motives in their aggressive policy against the Shia Sultanates Shah Jahan's were against Shia States were outcome of his religious zeal mixed with Political prejudice. Shah Jahan was more successful in his object than his predecessors firstly because he was more acquainted with the affairs of the Deccan and secondly Malik Ambar who had been the main obstacle in the way was no more alive.

II. 7.1 Annexation of Ahmednagar:

The Nizamshahi kingdom of Ahmednagar because of its proximity to the Mughal Frontier in the south was the first to be reckoned with. After the death of Malik Ambar his son Fateh Khan had strained relations with the Sultan of Ahmednagar. Fateh Khan opened negotiations with the Mughals and under the instruction of the Mughal emperor captured the Sultan and put him in prison and ultimately got him murdered. His son was raised to the throne of Ahmednagar. Though he acknowledged formal Mughal suzerainty, Fateh Khan was not loyal to the Mughals also. When the Mughals besieged the fortress of Daulatabad in 1631 he at first turned against the Mughals but was soon won over by them with a bribe of ten lakhs of rupees and surrendered the fortress. The minor Sultan Hussain Shah was sent to Gwalior as prisoner. The Nizamshahi dynasty came to an end in 1633. Fateh Khan entered the imperial service and was granted a liberal salary. The kingdom of Ahmednagar ceased to exist but there was still no peace because its western districts remained for some years under the control of Maratha chief named Shahji Bhonsle father of Shivaji. He placed another boy of the Royal family on the throne and initiated a fight on his behalf. However, even he had to surrender to Shah Jahan in 1636. This finally ended the war with Ahmednagar and its territory was shared by Shahjahan and the Sultan of Bijapur.

II. 7.2 Bijapur and Golkonda:

The end of Ahmednagar was the prelude to the submission of Bijapur and Golkonda. These two sultanates now became main targets of the Mughal imperialist. The rulers of these two states had secretly helped Shahji who made an attempt to set up a Nizamshah's boy as Sultan of the now defunct kingdom of Ahmednagar. This enraged Shah Jahan and he asked both the states to acknowledge his suzerainty and to send regular tributes. Shah Jahan personally marched to the Deccan and reached Daulatabad in 1636 in order to press these demands. The two states were informed that if they refused to accept the demands their territories would be attacked. The ruler of Golkonda Abdulah Qutb Shah submitted without resistance and agreed to pay tributes, to read khutba in the name of Shah Jahan and to strike coins in his name. He also agreed to assist the Mughal army in its campaign against Bijapur. Acceptance of this treaty put an end to the sovereignty of Qutb Shah and enhanced the prestige of the Mughal sovereign. The Sultan of Bijapur Mohammad Adil Shah refuses to submit. His kingdom was attacked by Mughal armies from three sides the sultan was forced to sue for peace in May 1636. He acknowledged the suzerainty, agreed to pay an indemnity of 20 lakhs of Rupees, promised not to attack Golkonda which was under imperial protection. He further promised not to assist Shahji Bhonsle. Thus after 40 years of strife (1595 to 1636) writes Sir J.N. Sarkar the affairs of the Deccan were at last settled. The position of the emperor was asserted beyond challenge, his boundaries defined and his suzerainty over the Sultan Kingdom formally established. Prince Aurangzeb was appointed the victory of Deccan in 1636 and he occupied the post for 8 years (1636-1644). Khirki the new Nizamshahi capital was rechristened Aurangabad and made the head quarter of the Viceroy. Aurangzeb was again appointed Viceroy in 1653 and he held this office till his departure for Northern India in 1658.

II.8. Rebellion of Aurangzeb: Death & legacy of Shahjahan

His son Aurangzeb led a rebellion when Shah Jahan became ill in 1657 and publicly executed his brother and the heir apparent Dara Shikoh. Although Shah Jahan fully recovered from his illness, Aurangzeb declared him incompetent to rule and put him

under house arrest in Agra Fort. Jahanara Begum Sahib voluntarily shared his eight-year confinement and nursed him in his dotage.

In January of 1666, Shah Jahan fell ill with strangury and dysentery. Confined to bed, he became progressively weaker until, on January 22, he commanded the ladies of the imperial court, particularly his consort of later year Akrabadi Mahal, to the care of Jahanara. Jahanara planned a state funeral to include a procession with Shah Jahan's body was buried in a sandalwood coffin by river to the Taj Mahal and interred him next to the body of his beloved wife Mumtaz Mahal.

Shah Jahan's legacy has been one of the most profound of all the Mughals. A patron of the fine arts, he continued the Mughal patronage of painting, although his passion resided in architecture. Shah Jahan has left behind a grand legacy of structures constructed during his reign, with the Taj Mahal standing in the spotlight. His other constructions include Delhi Fort also called the Red Fort or Lal Quila in Delhi, large sections of Agra Fort, the Jama Masjid (Grand Mosque), Delhi, the Wazir Khan Mosque, Lahore, Pakistan, the Moti Masjid (Pearl Mosque), Lahore, the Shalimar Gardens in Lahore, sections of the Lahore Fort, Lahore, the Jahangir mausoleum—his father's tomb, the construction overseen by his stepmother Nur Jahan and the Shahjahan Mosque, Thatta, Pakistan. He also had the Peacock Throne, Takht e Taus, made to celebrate his rule.

Painting during his reign reflected the serene prosperity that the Mughals enjoyed with many scenes reflecting Shah Jahan's interest in romance. A crater has been named after Shah Jahan on the minor planet 433 Eros. Astronomers name craters on Eros after famous fictional and real-life lovers.

Aurangzeb was the sixth emperor of the Mughal Empire, and he ruled India from 1658 to 1707. He had strict rules based on his Islamic beliefs, which some people liked, but others didn't. Let's learn more about his rule. He was also known as “Aurangzeb Alamgir”.

Administration

Mughal emperor Aurangzeb wanted a good government, so he appointed capable and honest officials to help him. He chose them based on their skills, not their social status or connections. This made the government more efficient and reduced corruption.

- One important thing about Aurangzeb's rule was that he wanted all the power to himself. He believed that the emperor should have complete control over the whole empire. So, he got rid of the prime minister and took charge of everything himself.
- Aurangzeb also wanted everyone to follow Islamic law. He thought that the government should enforce Islamic rules and values. That's why he made strict laws to control how people behaved in society and their religious practices. He even made non-Muslims pay a special tax, banned music, dance and destroyed Hindu temples.
- Another important thing Aurangzeb did was to collect taxes from the people. He wanted to get more money for the government. He removed some tax exemptions and reduced officials' salaries to save money. He also made a system to measure land and fairly collect taxes.
- However, Aurangzeb's rule wasn't liked by everyone. Many people didn't agree with his strict rules for non-Muslims and the ban on music and dance. This made some people angry, and they rebelled against him.
- Even with these challenges, Aurangzeb's empire grew bigger during his rule. He conquered many regions in the Deccan, in southern India. He also expanded the empire's borders in other directions.

In conclusion, Aurangzeb ruled the Mughal Empire with strict policies, centralizing power and focusing on collecting taxes. He chose capable officials, but his rules for non-Muslims and cultural practices caused problems. Despite that, the Mughal Empire became larger during his time.

Economy

During Aurangzeb's rule, the Mughal Empire's economy underwent significant changes. Let's look at the economy during his time.

- Aurangzeb wanted to strengthen the economy, so he focused on agriculture and collecting money from the people. He wanted to increase the amount of crops grown because farming was an important part of the Mughal Empire's economy. He also changed how taxes were collected to ensure it was done properly.
- The emperor encouraged people to grow cash crops like indigo and opium. This helped the empire earn more money from exporting these crops. The Mughal Empire had more money from trade during Aurangzeb's rule.
- Aurangzeb improved the roads and made the Grand Trunk Road bigger to make trade easier. This road connected different parts of the empire and made it easier for merchants to trade their goods. These improvements helped trade and communication in the empire.
- During Aurangzeb's time, the textile industry grew. People started making more textiles, especially fine muslin and brocade. This industry helped the empire earn money and provided jobs for people.
- The money used in the empire was stable under Aurangzeb. People used silver rupees as the main currency. Aurangzeb thought it was important to have a good money system.
- Aurangzeb faced some challenges when it came to managing the empire's money. He spent a lot of money on military campaigns, and this made it harder to have enough money. The empire's finances suffered because of these long wars.

- The emperor also made some rules that affected how people of different religions lived together. These rules made some people unhappy, and this affected the economy too.
- Aurangzeb had strict rules for merchants and moneylenders. This made it harder for them to do business and limited economic growth.
- The empire also faced famines during Aurangzeb's rule. These natural disasters caused a lot of problems, like not having enough food. The help given to people affected by the famine wasn't enough, and many suffered.
- The empire's central authority became weaker during Aurangzeb's time. The governors of different regions had more power, and this made trade and the economy less stable.

In conclusion, Aurangzeb's rule had both good and bad effects on the Mughal Empire's economy. He tried to improve agriculture, trade, and infrastructure, but there were challenges like wars and famines.

Culture

Aurangzeb was a Mughal emperor who ruled India from 1658 to 1707. He believed in following strict Islamic rules and made changes to the culture of the Mughal Empire.

- During his rule, Islamic traditions became important, and Aurangzeb wanted everyone to follow Islamic teachings. He built mosques and encouraged Islamic education.
- Art and architecture also thrived during Aurangzeb's time. The Mughal style of buildings changed to simpler designs, moving away from the fancy ones before. Mosques and tombs were built with simplicity in mind.
- However, some of Aurangzeb's cultural rules were controversial. He didn't like music and dance and thought they were wrong. This caused a decline in the arts and entertainment that were part of Mughal culture. Musicians and performers faced restrictions and were discouraged from pursuing their art.
- Religious tolerance also decreased during Aurangzeb's rule. He made rules that affected non-Muslims, especially Hindus. Temples were destroyed, and Hindus had limitations on their religious practices. This created tension between different religious groups.
- Despite these restrictions, different cultures continued to flourish. Regional traditions remained strong, and literature in Persian and Urdu languages developed. Scholars and poets produced important works, adding to the Mughal Empire's rich literary heritage.

Science and technology also improved during this time. Aurangzeb supported scholars and encouraged scientific texts to be translated. The Mughal Empire became a centre for learning and attracted scholars from different fields.

Aurangzeb's rule has been criticized for its cultural policies, but it's important to remember that it wasn't all negative. There was a mix of conservative Islamic values and the diverse cultures of the empire. Aurangzeb's strict beliefs influenced his policies, but the impact on culture and religion was complex. Aurangzeb's rule had a big effect on the culture of the Mughal Empire. His strict Islamic policies reduced religious tolerance and limited artistic

expression. However, cultural diversity and creativity still thrived within the rules he set. The legacy of Aurangzeb's rule is debated, showing how culture can change in a diverse society.

Aurangzeb

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the sixth Mughal Emperor, governed most of the Indian subcontinent from 1658 until his death in 1707. The reign of Aurangzeb is frequently remembered for its military exploits, yet it was the administrative reforms designed to centralize power that set him apart. These centralization initiatives created a spectrum of outcomes, some beneficial to the empire and others detrimental. The administrative policies he instituted, particularly those related to the Mansabdari System, the financial and judicial sectors, and the military, offer rich insights into how an early modern empire sought to balance the advantages and disadvantages of centralization. The Mansabdari System was one of the first areas of administrative reform. A legacy from his greatgrandfather Akbar, this system involved a hierarchical arrangement of military and administrative officials known as mansabdars. Aurangzeb's refinements included adjusting salaries and establishing rigorous promotion protocols. These alterations aimed to instill a sense of loyalty among the mansabdars, who had traditionally been more autonomous. By tying their fortunes directly to the central government, Aurangzeb was able to achieve more effective governance and maintain tighter control over his vast empire. Financial reforms were another cornerstone of Aurangzeb's centralization efforts. Among the most controversial was the reintroduction of the Jizya tax, which was levied on non-Muslims and had been abolished by his more liberal predecessor Akbar. This policy served a dual purpose; it not only increased revenue but also reinforced Aurangzeb's commitment to Islamic orthodoxy. Simultaneously, detailed land surveys were undertaken to revise agricultural taxes, thus improving the revenue collection system. The centralized treasury, undergirded by these reforms, increased the financial strength of the Mughal empire, at least in the short term. A significant facet of Aurangzeb's governance was the transformation of the judicial system. The emperor sought to centralize legal processes through the compilation of Fatawa-e-Alamgiri, a legal code that merged Islamic Sharia laws with indigenous legal traditions. By doing so, Aurangzeb streamlined judicial procedures and reduced regional disparities in the application of the law. This unification of law also offered a way to consolidate his religious and ideological agenda, furthering the centralization objectives. Yet, the long-term impact of these reforms had mixed results. On the one hand, the centralized administrative machinery led to improved efficiency and coordination across the empire's sprawling territories. On the other hand, these policies also generated a considerable degree of resentment and unrest. Religious minorities felt marginalized, and regional chieftains found their powers curtailed, leading to uprisings like those initiated by the Marathas and the Sikhs. Additionally, the military, which had been subjected to a similar set of centralizing reforms, became overstretched, particularly in the Deccan region, leading to financial drain and strategic vulnerabilities. In conclusion, the administrative reforms of Aurangzeb were a complex tapestry of initiatives aimed at centralizing power to improve governance and

enforce a unified cultural and religious vision. While these reforms achieved certain objectives, such as increased revenue and more efficient military operations, they also planted the seeds of internal discord that would eventually weaken the empire's foundations. Therefore, the story of Aurangzeb's centralization serves as a cautionary tale on the delicate balance between the benefits and drawbacks of consolidating power in the hands of a centralized administration.

Aurangzeb's Path to Centralization: Dissecting the Administrative Overhaul

In scrutinizing the reign of Aurangzeb, one cannot overlook the strategic administrative overhaul that he endeavored to execute. While his tenure is often noted for religious orthodoxy and military conquests, it is the administrative centralization that casts a long shadow over the functionality and the legacy of his governance. Indeed, Aurangzeb perceived centralized control as pivotal for sustaining the expansive Mughal Empire, a viewpoint manifestly evident in his reforms of the Mansabdari System. This system, a hierarchized construct of military and administrative officials, was an inheritance from his great-grandfather Akbar. Aurangzeb, recognizing the potential for centralization within this framework, set forth various modifications that constrained the financial autonomy of mansabdars and amplified the state's authority over Subahdars (regional governors) and Zamindars (local chiefs). Aurangzeb's revisions to the Mansabdari System involved the incorporation of stringent salary scales for mansabdars. By introducing an organized salary structure, he significantly curtailed the financial latitude that these officials enjoyed. This had a dual purpose: first, it reined in the economic influence that mansabdars traditionally held, making them more beholden to the central treasury; and second, it infused a sense of loyalty among them. These officials were now more tightly enmeshed within the empire's economic matrix, which translated into greater allegiance to Aurangzeb and facilitated the execution of his administrative and military directives. This centralization was not limited to the Mansabdari System alone. Aurangzeb intensified state intervention by exerting control over the Subahdars and Zamindars. Subahdars, functioning as regional governors, had been relatively autonomous in their governance, subject to the overarching authority of the emperor. Aurangzeb recalibrated this relationship, vesting himself with more direct influence over these governors. For example, the emperor took a keen interest in the appointment of officials, often bypassing traditional consultative mechanisms that had previously been the norm. Zamindars, who were local chiefs controlling smaller parcels of land, were also brought under stricter state control. Aurangzeb's edicts reduced their ability to set local taxes and levy duties, centralizing these powers within the Mughal bureaucracy. Furthermore, he implemented more stringent revenue collection methods, ensuring that a higher proportion of income flowed into the central treasury. This constrained the financial capabilities of the Zamindars, thereby diminishing their capacity to act independently of Mughal central authority. However, this strategy was not without its complications. While centralization improved administrative efficiency and oversight, it also engendered a range of challenges that would later become contentious. For instance, the imposition of the Jizya tax, aimed at non-Muslims, along with other religious edicts, began to stir dissent among segments of the population. Moreover, the increased financial burden on local and regional administrators caused strains that later manifested as uprisings and rebellions, most notably those led by the Marathas and the Sikhs. Conclusively, Aurangzeb's path to centralization involved a multifaceted strategy that reconfigured administrative norms, from the Mansabdari System to

the oversight of regional governors and local chiefs. While these reforms brought short-term gains in the form of greater control and increased revenue, they also sowed the seeds for long-term instability. Thus, Aurangzeb's administrative legacy presents a nuanced tableau, revealing the complexity and the double-edged nature of centralization in governance.

Financial Reforms: Revenue Collection and Expenditure Aurangzeb's strategy of centralization manifested itself prominently in the sphere of financial reforms, where it elicited a complex interplay of consequences. The emperor's agenda was underpinned by his belief that greater central control over revenue and expenditure would fortify the empire's stability and longevity. These financial adjustments targeted not only conventional revenue streams but also introduced a slew of initiatives to streamline military expenditure.

The reintroduction of the Jizya tax, levied on non-Muslims, was among the most controversial of Aurangzeb's financial reforms. Although the tax was consonant with Islamic jurisprudence and affirmed Aurangzeb's religious orthodoxy, its reimplementaion generated significant disquiet among the empire's religious minorities. Nevertheless, the Jizya tax succeeded in bolstering the central treasury, serving Aurangzeb's aim of financial centralization. The measure created a new, substantial revenue stream, thus amplifying the financial power vested in the central administration. Aurangzeb also revisited the land revenue assessments to construct a more equitable and efficient taxation structure.

Recognizing the inaccuracies in existing land valuations and the irregularities in tax collection, the emperor commissioned detailed land surveys and revised the land revenue system. The modifications aimed to reduce corruption, minimize evasion, and ultimately augment revenue inflows to the central coffers. However, these changes were not universally well-received. Local landlords and farmers were often disgruntled by the recalibrated taxation scales, which they perceived as onerous or unfair. In addition to these revenue-centric reforms, Aurangzeb focused on optimizing military expenditure. The Daag and Chehra systems were implemented as identification methods for soldiers. The Daag system involved branding horses to prevent fraud, while the Chehra system was a descriptive roll that helped identify soldiers. These systems aimed to prevent fraudulent enlistments and ensure that remunerations were paid only to legitimate soldiers. By eliminating the loopholes that led to wasted resources, these systems contributed to a more fiscally disciplined military and, by extension, a more centralized treasury. However, it is crucial to note that while these financial reforms fortified the empire's treasury and enhanced centralized control, they did not come without attendant consequences. The reimposition of the Jizya tax deepened sectarian divides and fomented discontent among religious minorities, thereby exacerbating social cleavages within the empire. Moreover, the more stringent land revenue assessments created local pockets of resistance, leading to sporadic revolts and rebellions. Such disaffection proved to be detrimental, posing challenges to administrative efficiency and territorial integrity in the long term. Thus, Aurangzeb's financial reforms reveal the complexity of centralizing measures in governance. While these initiatives succeeded in pooling resources and strengthening the centralized treasury, they also precipitated a range of unanticipated repercussions. The efforts to increase revenue and manage expenditures more efficiently served their immediate purpose but sowed seeds of discord and resistance, thereby underscoring the fraught balance that accompanies administrative centralization. The Judicial

System: A Blend of Sharia and Mughal Laws Aurangzeb's quest for centralization extended to the domain of jurisprudence, an area where the emperor aimed to amalgamate Islamic Sharia laws with the preexisting Mughal legal framework. The culmination of this endeavor was the monumental *Fatawa-e-Alamgiri*, a voluminous legal compendium assembled with the collaborative input of 500 scholars. This tome, which not only reaffirmed Aurangzeb's religious convictions but also served as an instrument of judicial centralization, occupies a salient position in the analysis of the emperor's administrative reforms. The *Fatawa-e-Alamgiri* was a monumental exercise in codification. By formalizing a blend of Islamic and Mughal laws, the emperor aimed to standardize legal procedures, thus enhancing the predictability and consistency of judicial outcomes across the empire. This standardization was particularly beneficial for the central administration, as it made the enforcement of laws less arbitrary and more anchored in a universally accepted legal canon. The text covered an extensive array of legal topics, ranging from property rights and contractual obligations to family law and criminal justice. This comprehensive scope reflected Aurangzeb's ambition to create a unified legal system that could be employed as a tool for governance. However, the process of amalgamation was not without its complexities. Islamic jurisprudence, encapsulated by Sharia, was rooted in religious texts and traditions. In contrast, Mughal law was a more fluid construct, drawing on a range of influences including native Indian legal traditions. By integrating these diverse strands, the *Fatawa-e-Alamgiri* sought to establish a legal framework that was both theologically rigorous and pragmatically suited to the empire's pluralistic social fabric. Yet, this hybridity also raised questions about the compatibility of Sharia precepts with local customs and traditions, leading to debates and contentions that tested the empire's social cohesion. Moreover, the centralizing impetus of the *Fatawa-e-Alamgiri* had notable repercussions on the power dynamics within the empire. Prior to its introduction, qazis (Islamic judges) and other local authorities had exercised considerable discretion in legal matters. The codification and standardization of laws effectively curtailed this judicial autonomy, reinforcing the central government's oversight of legal proceedings. While this enhanced centralization, it also fueled discontent among regional authorities and religious clerics who viewed the erosion of their judicial powers as an affront to their traditional prerogatives. Additionally, the compilation of the *Fatawa-e-Alamgiri* was indicative of Aurangzeb's broader objective of fortifying the empire's Islamic identity. This was evident in the manner in which the text highlighted Islamic jurisprudential principles, thereby placing them at the forefront of legal interpretations and judgments. While this elevated Aurangzeb's standing among the Islamic clerical establishment, it also exacerbated religious tensions within a demographically diverse empire, adding another layer of complexity to the emperor's administrative legacy. In conclusion, Aurangzeb's *Fatawa-e-Alamgiri* serves as a compelling case study in the intricate dynamics of administrative centralization. It was a nuanced instrument that pursued dual objectives: the consolidation of Islamic jurisprudential norms and the creation of a centralized judicial architecture. Although successful in achieving its immediate aims, the initiative also elicited a series of unintended consequences, ranging from the disempowerment of local judicial authorities to the accentuation of religious and social cleavages. Thus, the centralizing impetus embedded within the *Fatawa-e-Alamgiri* encapsulates the broader complexities and trade-offs inherent in Aurangzeb's administrative reforms. The Socio-Cultural Impact of Centralization The

socio-cultural milieu of the Mughal Empire under Aurangzeb's reign provides an intriguing lens through which the multifaceted consequences of administrative centralization can be examined. While the emperor's initiatives aimed to streamline governance and consolidate power, these reforms reverberated through various strata of society, engendering a host of unintended and often problematic outcomes. Efficient administration was one of the most conspicuous benefits of Aurangzeb's centralization policies. The emperor's reforms in financial, judicial, and military spheres resulted in a more robust and cohesive state apparatus. This increased efficiency manifested in more reliable revenue collection, standardized legal judgments, and a disciplined military force. However, these changes were often perceived as impositions by local rulers and the populace at large. The curtailment of judicial autonomy, the rigid imposition of revenue assessments, and the overhaul of the Mansabdari system diminished the discretionary powers previously enjoyed by regional authorities and local chiefs, thereby breeding resentment and suspicion. In addition to its political ramifications, centralization had a profound impact on the empire's sociocultural landscape. Among the most affected were religious communities, particularly the Sikhs and Hindus, who found themselves sidelined by the state's overt tilt toward Islamic orthodoxy. The reimposition of the Jizya tax and the restrictions on religious practices fueled a perception of marginalization among these communities. Moreover, the vigorous push toward Islamic jurisprudence in legal matters, epitomized by the Fatawa-eAlamgiri, accentuated the feelings of religious inequality. Such policies not only tarnished the Mughal Empire's legacy of religious tolerance but also catalyzed sectarian divisions, giving rise to periodic insurrections and revolts. The discontent fermented by these centralizing measures contributed to the ascent of regional powers such as the Marathas, who capitalized on the growing popular disillusionment. The Marathas, initially a fragmented collection of warrior clans, coalesced into a formidable force, defying Mughal authority and carving out de facto autonomous regions. This emergence can be viewed as a direct repercussion of the centralization drive, which had weakened traditional local structures and alienated vast segments of the populace. The Marathas appealed to broader resentments against Mughal rule, gaining traction and followers, thus adding a new layer of complexity to the geopolitical scenario of the Indian subcontinent. In summary, the socio-cultural consequences of Aurangzeb's centralization initiatives were deeply ambivalent. While achieving their principal objective of a more streamlined and efficient administration, these reforms had the concomitant effect of generating widespread social and cultural disquiet. The policies inadvertently fueled sectarian divisions and eroded traditional power structures, which in turn paved the way for resistance movements and the rise of regional powers. The complex interplay between administrative centralization and its socio-cultural impact offers a nuanced understanding of the challenges inherent in implementing sweeping reforms in a diverse and multifaceted empire.

The Military Conundrum: Strengths and Weaknesses

The military dimension of Aurangzeb's centralization agenda merits nuanced examination, for it was a realm where the emperor's reforms exhibited both striking efficacy and pronounced limitations. The centralized military administration facilitated streamlined decision-making, enabling greater coordination among various branches of the armed forces. Such efficiency in governance had tangible benefits, most notably in the form of enhanced strategic planning and execution. However, the same centralizing tendencies also contributed to military

overextension and significant financial strain, particularly in the protracted campaigns in the Deccan region. The centralized military structure endowed Aurangzeb with the capability to mobilize large forces rapidly and to deploy them in a coordinated manner across vast geographical expanses. The Mansabdari system, which had been a cornerstone of the Mughal military establishment, was further refined to ensure greater control over the military hierarchy. These reforms endowed the central government with unparalleled oversight of its military apparatus, thereby minimizing the risk of insubordination or fragmented command structures that could imperil strategic objectives. Thus, the immediate benefits of centralization in military affairs were manifest in the empire's ability to wage concurrent campaigns and to respond swiftly to emerging threats or opportunities. However, the strengths of a centralized military apparatus were counterbalanced by significant drawbacks. One of the most glaring weaknesses was the susceptibility to overextension, a pitfall that became painfully apparent in Aurangzeb's Deccan campaigns. The central command, driven by the emperor's ambition to expand Mughal dominion into southern India, orchestrated large-scale military operations that spanned several years. While the initial stages of these campaigns were marked by some measure of success, the sustained military engagement gradually eroded the empire's financial and logistical capabilities. The long supply lines, the need to maintain large standing armies, and the complexities of waging war in unfamiliar terrain drained the royal treasury and stretched the empire's resources perilously thin. The fiscal repercussions of these military endeavors were severe. The empire's financial health deteriorated, precipitating an increase in taxation and revenue demands. This, in turn, exacerbated already existing popular discontent, sowing the seeds for social unrest and further undermining the Mughal authority. Moreover, the financial strain imposed by the Deccan campaigns had a cascading effect on other administrative and military ventures, leading to cost-cutting measures that compromised the effectiveness of the empire's governance systems. In summary, the military implications of Aurangzeb's centralization strategy were a complex interplay of strengths and weaknesses. On the one hand, centralization yielded benefits in the form of more effective mobilization, better coordination, and enhanced strategic planning. On the other, it led to military overextension and significant fiscal strain, particularly manifest in the resource-draining Deccan campaigns. These contrasting outcomes highlight the complexities inherent in any endeavor to centralize governance, particularly in an empire as expansive and diverse as the Mughal state. The military dimension thus stands as a salient component of the broader dialogue on the merits and pitfalls of administrative centralization under Aurangzeb.

II. Conclusion

The legacy of Aurangzeb's administrative reforms, predicated on centralization, remains an intricate web of contradictions and multifaceted implications. Centralization undeniably enhanced administrative efficiency, strengthening the central government's grasp on diverse military, financial, and judicial spheres. The longevity of Aurangzeb's reign—extending nearly half a century—bears witness to the pragmatic strengths of such reforms. These alterations in governance mechanisms allowed for a more cohesive state apparatus, capable of effectively administering a vast and heterogeneous empire. However, the very reforms that fortified administrative control also planted seeds of dissent and volatility, thereby exposing vulnerabilities in the empire's foundational structure. The systematic centralization of authority marginalized regional power centers, alienated religious minorities, and engendered a sense of disenfranchisement

among large segments of the populace. These disenchantments found expression in various forms—be it in the rise of regional powers like the Marathas or the sporadic revolts that questioned the Mughal hegemony. Significantly, the subsequent decline of the Mughal Empire casts a shadow over the sustainability of a centralized administrative model, raising pertinent questions about the balance between central authority and local autonomy. Centralization, while useful for consolidating power and enhancing administrative acumen, created fissures that eventually widened into gaps too large to bridge. Consequently, the legacy of Aurangzeb's administrative reforms serves as a poignant lesson in the complexities and paradoxes that underlie efforts to centralize governance, particularly in a diverse and sprawling empire

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During the Mughal period, India had fairly developed commerce. Trade grew at the local, regional, and inter-regional levels as well as trade relations with other countries were maintained. Land routes were used to maintain commercial relations. The arrival of European trading companies such as the Portuguese, British, Dutch, and French increased trading activity in the Indian subcontinent. During this time, there was also a proliferation of new commercial activities such as money lending, brokerage, insurance, and so on.

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The Mughal State and Commerce - Features

- In Mughal times, trade had grown significantly.
- Every community had regular markets in nearby towns where residents from the surrounding areas could sell and buy goods.
- Local trade was also conducted through periodic markets which were held on specific days of the week.
- Commodities such as food grain, salt, wooden and iron equipment, coarse cotton textile, and so on were available in these local markets.
- A small settlement grew as a result of the expansion of rural grain markets. These markets were linked to larger commercial centres in that region.
- These markets served products not only from their own region but also from other regions.
- The desire for all kinds of luxury products by the nobility fueled the construction of towns and the expansion of handicraft manufacturing.

Commercial Communities

- The Indian trading classes were quite professional and well-organized.
- Some were experts in local retail trade while others focused on long-distance, inter-regional trade.
- While the latter was known as Beoparis or Banik, the former was known as Seth, Bohra, or Modi.
- The Baniks had their own agents in the towns and villages who helped them buy food grains and cash crops.
- The Banjaras were a distinct group of traders who were experts in transporting large quantities of goods.
- The Banjaras used to travel great distances, often pulling tens of thousands of oxen loaded with food, pulses, ghee, salt, and other goods.
- The more expensive items, including textiles, silks, etc., were transported in carts or on camels and mules.
- The use of boats to transport bulk commodities through rivers was less expensive.
- The development of coastal trade and boat traffic on waterways was greater than during that time.

Important Commercial Centres

Important Commercial Centres

- During this time, Bengal exported beautiful muslin and silk along with sugar and rice, making up the bulk of its exports, as well as a vast variety of textile products.
- The Coromandel coast had grown into a hub of textile manufacturing.
- Gujarat served as the entry point for imported commodities.

- Burhanpur and Agra served as the two main trading hubs for the export of silk (patola) and high-end textiles to north India.
- It imported pepper from Malabar as well as foodgrains and silk from Bengal.
- In addition to importing luxury goods, North India also exported food and indigo.
- Another hub for the manufacture of crafts was Lahore. Additionally, it served as a hub for the distribution of Kashmir's high-end goods, including shawls and carpets.
- The Indus River was used to transport the goods from Sindh and Punjab.
- It had close trading ties with Delhi and Agra as well as Kabul, Qandahar, and other nearby cities.

International Trade

International Trade

- India's international trade grew gradually from the middle of the 16th century until the middle of the 18th century.
- This resulted from the trading activity of the different Europeans that visited India at the time.
- Since the beginning of time, India has had business ties with the western nations.
- The Arabs, who ruled the Indian Ocean and the Red Sea, took control of her seaborne trade beginning in the seventh century AD.
- They were the source through which the astute traders of Genoa and Venice bought products from India.
- The Portuguese attempted to end the Arab and Venetian monopoly on trade with India by engaging in direct trade with India.
- The geographical discoveries made in the latter quarter of the 15th century had a significant impact on international trade and had far-reaching effects.
- Vasco da Gama's discovery of a new all-sea route between Europe and India via the Cape of Good Hope had a significant impact on the civilised world.

Europeans in India

- With the entrance of the Portuguese, more European groups appeared in India, and soon the Europeans had monopolised the country's coastal and maritime trade.
- In contrast to earlier foreign traders, the European traders who arrived in India at this time had the political and military backing of their respective governments.
- Since they represented their respective nations rather than operating as lone traders, they attempted to create and protect maritime trade on the basis of their greater naval might.
- Their commercial intentions eventually evolved into territorial aspirations.

Transport and Communication

- Commercial demands were met by inexpensive, adequate transportation.
- The safety of the roads was adequate and could be covered by insurance, despite objections from certain European tourists.
- At the time, the means of transportation with Sarais on the major routes were as good as in Europe.
- Communication was facilitated by the Mughals' attention to Sarais and roads.
- At the point of entry into the empire, products were subject to a unified tax.

- Road cesses, or Rahdari, continued to be collected by some of the local rajas despite being deemed illegal.

Mughal's Revenue

- During the Mughal era, salaries were paid in cash to the standing army as well as to a large portion of the administrative staff.
- The land revenue was assessed and needed to be paid in cash under the Zabti system.
- Even though the peasant had the choice of alternate assessment techniques, such as crop-sharing.
- According to estimates, a significant portion—about 20%—of the rural product was commercialised.
- According to a clause in Jahangir's edict, "if someone should die, whether unbeliever or Musalman, his property and effects should be left for his heirs and no one should interfere with them."
- In the event that he leaves no successors, they shall designate inspectors and independent guardians to oversee the estate.
- So that estate worth may be used for legal purposes, such as the construction of mosques and Sarais, the repair of damaged bridges, and the drilling of tanks and wells.
- Local authorities could, however, abuse their authority to persecute traders.

Conclusion

India had maintained trade relations with other countries for centuries. Throughout the period, the pattern of trade and commerce changed. India had a thriving trade with a large number of foreign countries during the Mughal period. The coming of the Europeans was a significant aspect. Previously, Muslims controlled India's trade, which was later set aside by the Portuguese. Gujarat, Goa, Calicut, Cochin, Quilon, and others were some of the important ports which helped India open its doors.

The manufacture of cotton goods had assumed such extensive proportions that in addition to satisfying her own needs, India sent cloth to almost half the world: the east coast of Africa, Arabia, Egypt, Southeast Asia, as well as Europe. The textile industry, well established in Akbar's day, continued to flourish under his successors, and soon the operations of Dutch and English traders brought India into direct touch with Western markets. This resulted in great demand for Indian cotton goods from Europe, which naturally increased production at home. Even the silk industry especially in Bengal—was in flourishing condition. Bernier wrote: "There is in Bengal such a quantity of cotton and silk, that the kingdom may be called the common store-house for these two kinds of merchandise, not of Hindustan or the Empire of the Great Mogul only, but of all the neighboring kingdoms, and even of Europe." Apart from silk and cotton textiles, other industries were shawl and carpet weaving, woolen goods, pottery, leather goods, and articles made of wood. Owing to its proximity to sources of suitable timbers, Chittagong specialized in shipbuilding, and at one time supplied ships to distant Istanbul. The commercial side of the industry was in the hands of middlemen, but the Mughal government, like the earlier sultans, made its own contribution. The emperor controlled a large number of royal workshops, busily turning out articles for his own use, for his household, for the court, and for the imperial army. Akbar took a special interest in the

development of indigenous industry. He was directly responsible for the expansion of silk weaving at Lahore, Agra, Fathpur-Sikri, and in Gujarat. He opened a large number of factories at important centers, importing master weavers from Persia, Kashmir, and Turkistan. Akbar frequently visited the workshops near the palace to watch the artisans at work, which encouraged the craftsmen and raised their status. It is said that he took such an interest in the industry that to foster demand he “ordered people of certain ranks to wear particular kinds of locally woven coverings an order which resulted in the establishment of a large number of shawl manufactories in Lahore; and inducements were offered to foreign carpet-weavers to settle in Agra, Fathepur Sikri, and Lahore, and manufacture carpets to compete with those imported from Persia.” In the course of time, the foreign traders established close contracts with important markets in India, and new articles which were more in demand in Western Europe began to be produced in increasing quantities. Among the foreign inventions that excited Akbar's interest was an organ, “one of the wonders of creation,” that had been brought from Europe.

THE DETRIMENTAL OUTCOMES OF THE TRADE ON THE MUGHAL EMPIRE

Two and a half centuries of trade between India and Western Europe led to the downfall of an initially agriculturally orientated empire with strong military forces and tolerance towards its subjects and their different religious beliefs (with the exception of Aurangzeb). All three Islamic empires found either their collapse or a significant weakening by the 19th century. European countries, however, were growing, expanding, developing, and coming up with new movements, intentions, technology. Even though they were essentially separated by the Ottoman and Safavid empire, the common interest, the trade, helped Europe to permanently settle into the Indian lands. The most comprehensive and clear sources about the Mughal empire were the factory records of the British East India company, which suggests that trade was the only way of communication between Western Europe and the Mughal empire. The trade was carried out by the same countries, only there were variations of the proportion of import for those countries, depending on what was going on at that time in Europe and on the alliances the countries tight themselves into. The pattern of Globalization and World's entanglement was traced in 17th century through trade. This way the European countries found their place in the Mughal Empire, gradually gaining more power over the trade and, consequently, over the empire until the British colonized the Indian subcontinent in the 19th century. The European language was primarily spread amongst coastal regions, in particular large trading centers and sometimes throughout big commercial towns which were based inland. India witnessed huge growth in Trade and commerce during the Mughal Rule. The Mughals required every article of luxury. There was a market of high consumption. There had been much wealth of Mughal aristocracy. There was therefore a large body of consumers who were willing and able to buy above the line of necessity. Towns and cities grew out of this spirit. There were quite a large number of them. Srinagar, Lahore, Thatta, Karachi, Cambay, Ahmadabad, Surat, Bombay, Poona, Goa, Calicut, Nagapattam, Kanchipuram, Madras, Masulipattam, Delhi, Agra, Lucknow, Murshidabad. Mughal traders could be divided into following categories in accordance with the nature of business in which they involved themselves. The traders of Mughal age who were involved in large scale business

enterprises such as export and import controlling the entire business world of India. The traders of the Mughal India who belonged to medium group. They had less capital compared to the traders belonging to first category. The traders own store houses in different parts of the country. Those store houses were located near the market places. They had transport business and they gradually became interested in transporting and sailing goods from one place to another.

THE SMALL RETAIL SELLERS AND TRADERS IN THE MARKET PLACES

Both Hindus and Muslims of Mughal India belonged to the traders of first category. The most prominent among them were a noted capitalist of Surat who became famous as Virsji Bliohra. Besides a few merchants from Gujarat, Chinna Chetti of South India and Jagat Seth of Bengal specially engaged themselves in export trade, transporting Indian goods abroad. They had their ships and other transport arrangements. Inland trade and overseas trade also flourished during the Mughal regime. Inland trade, however, belonged to two prominent categories local and provincial. In the Mughal period there was no dearth of towns. Towns were thickly populated. Hence many markets were opened to meet the daily necessities of the urban community. Land and river transport systems were developed in order to carry on inland trade in different provinces. Roads were constructed, extended and enlarged. An important road constructed during the Mughal rule proceeded from Sonar-gaon in Bengal to Lahore in the north western part of India. There were various sea ports in India. India had overseas trading relations with the Arab countries, Persia and Egypt. Besides they traded with various countries of South-East Asia and China. They mainly imported horses from West Asia, silver from Japan and gold from East Indies. There had been increasing demands for European toys and luxury items in India.

INTERNAL AND EXTERNAL TRADE

India's foreign trade both overland and overseas was truly an international enterprise. Although the Arabs were the dominant partners in the India Ocean trade, they had been by no means ousted the Indian traders, viz. the Tamils and Gujaratis, both Hindu and Muslim. The coastal trade and trade between the coastal ports and north India was in the hands of Marwaris and Gujaratis, many of whom were Jains. The Muslim Bohra merchants also participated in the trade. The overland trade with Central and West Asia was in the hands of Multanis, who were mostly Hindus and Khurasanis, who were Afghans, Iranians, etc. Many of these merchants had settled down in Delhi. The Gujarati and Marwari merchants were extremely wealthy and some of them particularly the Jains, spent large sums for the construction of temples. Cambay was a great city in which many wealthy merchants live. They had lofty houses built in ne stone and mortar, with tiled roofs. Their houses were surrounded by orchards and fruit-gardens which had many tanks. These wealthy merchants and the skilled craftsmen lived a luxurious life and were accustomed to good food and clothing. The merchants, Hindu and Muslim, were attended by pages bearing swords with silver and gold work. In Delhi, the Hindu merchants rode horses with costly trappings, lived in ne houses, and celebrated their festivals with great pomp and show. Barani tells us that the

Multani merchants were so rich that gold and silver were to be found in abundance in their houses, the nobles were so spendthrift that every time they wanted to hold a feast or a celebration, they had to run to the houses of the Multanis in order to borrow money.

TRANSPORT AND COMMUNICATION

In those days, travel was always risky due to robbers and dacoits and various marauding tribes. However, the royal roads were kept in good shape and there were many sarais on the way for the comfort and safety of the travelers. In addition to the royal road from Peshawar to Sonargaon, Muhammad Tughlaq built a road to Daulatabad. There were arrangements for the post being carried quickly from one part of the country to another. This was done by relays of horses or even more efficiently and quickly by runners who were posted every few kilometers in towers which were built for the purpose. The runner continually clanged a bell as he ran so that the man on the next relay may be able to see him from the tower and get ready to take his burden.

CONCLUSION

Means of transport were cheap and adequate for their needs. Despite complaints by some European travelers, safety on the roads was satisfactory and could be covered by insurance. The means of travel with sarais at the distance of 5 kos on the principal highways was as good as in Europe at the time. The Mughals paid attention to roads and sarais which made communication easier. A uniform tax was levied on goods at the point of their entry into the empire. Road cesses or rahdari was declared illegal, though it continued to be collected by some of the local rajas.